

Topic 1.1 Sociological perspectives

Units covered

- 1.1 Historical development of sociology
- 1.2 Sociology and social policy
- 1.3 Sociology and science
- 1.4 Relationship between sociology and other social sciences
- 1.5 Theoretical perspectives

Introduction

The study of sociology has a long and complex history. The field emerged in the 19th century, with key figures like Auguste Comte, Karl Marx, Emile Durkheim, and Max Weber making important contributions. These early sociologists were interested in understanding the social changes that were taking place during the Industrial Revolution. They wanted to know how societies were changing, and how these changes were impacting individuals. By the 20th century, the field had grown and expanded to include a diverse range of perspectives and approaches. Through the contributions of the above key players, we have come to understand that sociology is not just an academic discipline, but also a tool for understanding and improving the world around us. By studying the structures and patterns of society, it can identify and address social problems. Sociology helps us to see the world in new ways, and to understand how our actions and decisions impact others. In short, it is a way of making sense of the complex world we live in. This chapter focuses on the meaning of sociology and its origins in the works of Comte, Durkheim and Weber to modern perspectives. This section leads us to the consideration of social policy, science and competing theoretical perspectives.

Unit 1.1 Historical development of sociology

Objectives

By the end of this chapter, learners should be able to :

- Discuss the factors that led to the development of sociology
- Analyse the factors that influenced the development of sociology

Unit 1.1 Introduction

The rise of sociology was not an isolated event rather, it was the product of a long history of ideas, events, and individuals. In fact, many of the concepts and theories that form the basis of modern sociology can be traced back to the ancient Greeks and Romans. The works of Aristotle, Plato, and Cicero explored ideas about society, morality, and justice that would later be developed by the early sociologists. The contributions of these thinkers, along with the influence of other cultures and events laid the foundation for the field of sociology as we know it today. Sociology has roots that go back to the ancient world, when great thinkers pondered the nature of human society and its relationship to the individual. But the discipline as we know it today emerged from a perfect storm of ideas and events. The printing press, the scientific revolution, and the Enlightenment all played a role in shaping the field, and then came the social upheaval of the French Revolution, the Industrial Revolution, and the rise of capitalism. All of these factors came together to form the crucible in which sociology was born. Therefore this unit focuses on the historical development of sociology.

Fascinating fact about sociology

Sociology is a diverse field that covers a wide range of topics, from family dynamics to global inequality. Sociology can be used to understand and address pressing social issues, such as racism, poverty, and climate change. Studying sociology can help you become a more critical thinker and understand the world around you in new ways. Sociology can open up career opportunities in a variety of fields, including social work, education, and public policy. sociology can help you become a better decision maker. Sociological research has shown that people who are able to see the big picture and understand the social context of their decisions are more likely to make effective decisions. Sociologists call this "sociological imagination," and it's a valuable skill in a wide range of settings, from business to politics. As sociologists we are problem solvers, we just fix our thinking and problems will solve themselves. You don't need to have any specific background or experience to study sociology - anyone can do it. Welcome to the world of sociology where everyone is treated with respect and equality.

The role played by founding fathers in upbringing sociology

Sociology which is 'the scientific study of human behaviour and how human behaviour is shaped by society and in turn how the society is shaped by human behaviour' was born out of the work of a number of key figures, often called the **founding fathers** of the discipline. Each of these thinkers developed their own theories and perspectives, which continue to influence the field to this day. Let's take a closer look at their contributions and how they shaped sociology.

Auguste Comte (1798- 1858)



Fig 1.1 Auguste Comte

Auguste Comte was a French philosopher and mathematician who is credited for developing sociology. often called the father of sociology, and for good reason, he was the first to use or he coined the term "sociology" and he is credited with establishing it as a distinct discipline. Comte believed that sociology was the last and the greatest religion that was last to develop and he was the highest social priest. In this regard credit is given to Comte for coining the term sociology hence ,without him there is no sociology to talk about. One of his key contributions was the concept of **positivism**, which holds that knowledge can only be gained through observation and measurement or in more simpler terms , human behaviour can be understood through scientific inquiry. Comte aegued the case of scientific methods (positivism) such as experiments and observations can objectively and rigorously study social life.

Key terms

Society : society is defined as a system of social relations and institutions that exist within a given territory or geographical area. It is a group of people who live together and share a common culture, language, and values.

Sociology: It is the scientific study of human society.

Positivism: It is a theoretical perspective developed by Auguste Comte that emphasises the use of scientific methods to study social behaviour.

Fascinating fact

One fun fact about Comte is that he coined the term "altruism" to describe the desire to help others. He believed that altruism was a key part of a harmonious society. Comte even created a "religion of humanity" that emphasized the importance of helping others and promoting the common good. This religion was never widely adopted, but it shows how Comte thought that sociology could have a practical impact on people's lives.

In the same respect Comte was concerned about social change and social progress. Industrial Revolution and French Revolution made Comte to question how social order was created and maintained. To answer this question, Comte then developed **three laws of social change** where all societies are said to be passing through:

1. **Theological stage** - Starting with the first law, the law of the three stages. This is the stage where gods and spirits were believed to control the natural world. Priests were respected for their religious intelligence. Traditional beliefs and customs were compulsorily followed. Due to that respect, there was no scientific explanation of poverty, illness, death and failures rather religion was the answer to all problems. In Zimbabwe, traditional beliefs about the ancestors and spirits played a similar role and, rituals such as rain making ceremonies were conducted.



2. **The metaphysical stage** - it is characterized by the rise of rational thought. During this stage, logic and reason begin to take the place of religion as the primary source of knowledge. In Zimbabwe, this stage was marked by the rise of Christianity and Western education. Religious thought has been weakened by a scientific thought. This stage is characterized by the decline in church attendances.
3. **The positive stage** : It is the final stage, this is characterized by the scientific thought where science and reason revealed the nature of the social world and replaced religion as the basis of social order. In this stage. Everything will be explained using science and social order will be revealed through the development of sociology as well as that studies society in the same way other natural physics and Biology study natural world.



Fig 1.3 scientific laboratory to explain social issues

However, Auguste Comte's main criticism was his belief in the idea of the "law of three stages," which stated that all societies go through three stages of development: theological, metaphysical, and positive. Critics argued that this idea was overly simplistic and did not accurately reflect the complexity of human history. They also argued that Comte's focus on the importance of science and rationality was too narrow and did not take into account the emotional and spiritual aspects of human experience. Additionally, some critics argued that Comte's system of sociology was too hierarchical and rigid, and did not allow for change or progress.

Herbert Spencer

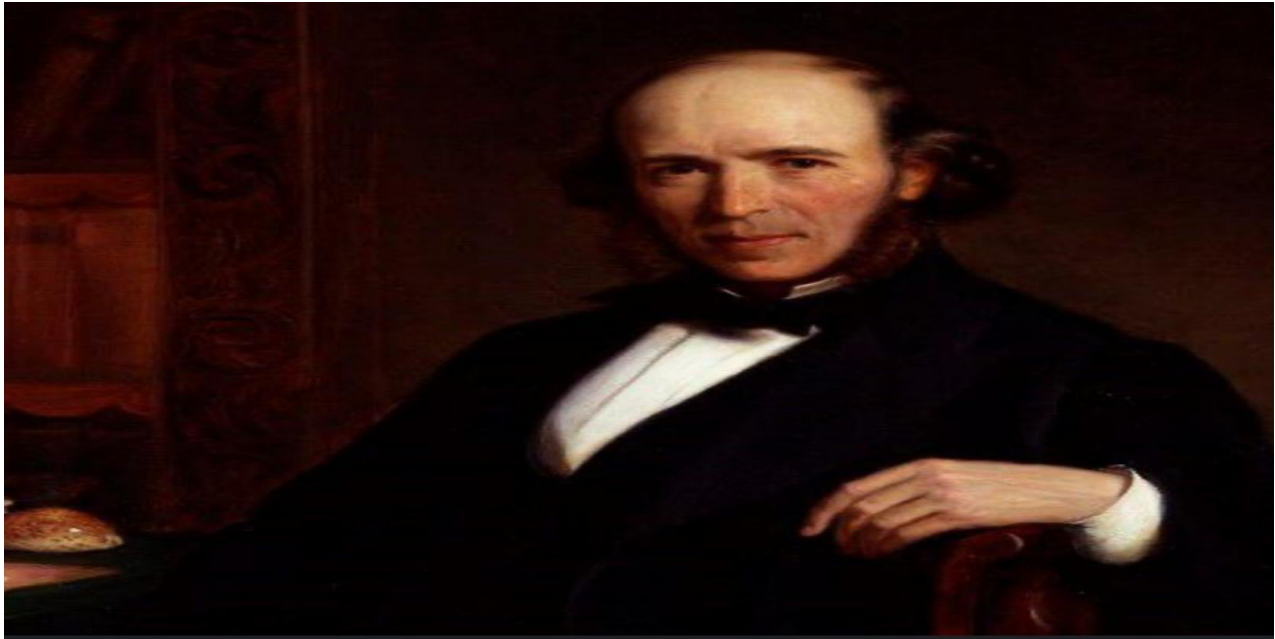


Fig 1.4 Herbert Spencer

Herbert Spencer was an English philosopher and social theorist who was greatly influenced by the work of Auguste Comte. Spencer was also a prolific writer, and he wrote on a wide range of topics, including ethics, philosophy, biology, and psychology. He was one of the most influential thinkers of his time, and his work had a profound impact on the development of sociology. He expanded on Comte's ideas and developed the concept of **organic analogy** which is one of his roles he plaid in upbringing sociology. Taking a clue from Charles Darwin the once popular and famous biologist, Spencer applied the concept of natural selection to human societies. Spencer argued that societies evolve in the same way that biological organisms do, with the "fittest" societies surviving and the "unfit" societies dying out. This idea had a profound impact on the development of sociology, and it also influenced eugenics and other social movements.

One of Spencer's most important ideas was the concept of functionalism, which views society as a system of interdependent parts that work together to maintain balance and stability. Spencer believed that if one part of society is disrupted, it will have an impact on the whole system.

He also introduced the concept of "**survival of the fittest**," which states that societies that are best adapted to their environment will survive, while those that are not will eventually die out.

In as much as Comte coined the term sociology, there was the need to spread the

term sociology and this was realised in the work of Spencer in his book that really put Spencer on the map as a sociologist was "The Principles of Sociology," which was published in 1876 to popularise the term sociology. This was a three-volume work that explored many of the ideas that had been introduced by Comte and expanded on them. The book was a huge success, and it helped to establish sociology as a legitimate academic discipline.

fascinating fact

One fascinating fact about sociology is that it is often described as a "holistic" discipline. This means that it takes a broad, comprehensive view of human behavior, rather than focusing on specific aspects of it. This holistic approach is one of the things that makes sociology unique. Another fascinating fact about sociology is that it is a constantly evolving discipline. As our understanding of the world changes, so does the field of sociology. This makes it an exciting and dynamic field to study.

However, Herbert Spencer was criticized for his support of Social Darwinism, the idea that the social world operates according to the same laws of evolution as the natural world. One of my lecturers Dr Munemo once said 'Spencer is boring, he copies everything from Charles Darwin and Darwinism a theory that was a long back rejected'. Critics argued that this idea was flawed because it failed to take into account the role of human agency and culture in shaping social change. They also argued that it was used to justify inequality and oppression, and that it did not allow for a society that was based on equality and cooperation. Spencer was also criticized for his views on women, which were seen as misogynistic and outdated.

Key Terms

Organic analogy : It is a concept that posits that a society is like an organism, with different parts (or institutions) that work together to maintain its functioning. This analogy highlights the interconnectedness of social institutions and the way in which they depend on each other to function properly.

Survival of the fittest : It is based on the idea that in a competitive environment, only those individuals who are best adapted to their environment will be able to survive and reproduce or to be more specific, the strong (hard workers) will survive, for example from poverty.

Emile Durkheim (1857- 1917)



Fig 1.5 Emile Durkheim

Emile Durkheim was a French sociologist who was a contemporary of Herbert Spencer. He was a key figure in the development of sociology as a science, and he had a major impact on the field. Firstly, Durkheim is best known for his studies of suicide and his concept of anomie, which is the breakdown of social norms and values. In his study of suicide, Durkheim questioned why people kill themselves thereby establishing a link between society and individuals. For example, he argues that those who are lonely are likely to be suicidal than those engaged. Another his influential work was "The Division of Labor in Society," which was published in 1893. This book laid the foundation for the study of social facts and social structure. In it, Durkheim argued that social facts have an independent existence outside of individual actions.

In addition to his theory of anomie, Durkheim also developed the concept of functionalism, which states that all parts of a society serve a purpose and are interdependent. He believed that the social institutions of religion, education, and the family are key to maintaining social order. He developed the theory of collective consciousness, which is the shared beliefs and values of a society. Durkheim's work was groundbreaking and helped to establish sociology as a separate and distinct field of study.

Durkheim also played a great influence in upbringing sociology due to his contribution to the development of sociology as a science. Durkheim (1895) argued that sociologists could both produce objective knowledge about social behaviour - facts that prove or disapprove certain arguments - and explained human behaviour as a result of social constraints. In this respect, Durkheim (1897) set out basic principle through which behaviour could be scientifically studied. For example , he gathered mass of statistics to show that suicide is not simply biological or psychological but social.

Durkheim explained the transition of society from traditional **mechanical solidarity**

to organic social solidarity. Mechanical solidarity, on the other hand, refers to a type of social cohesion that is based on shared values and beliefs. In societies with mechanical solidarity, individuals are linked together by a shared sense of community and shared morals and traditions. In this society, as Durkheim argues, there is no interdependence and individuals are united by their similarities in responsibilities such as hunting. Organic solidarity refers to a type of social cohesion that is based on interdependence and cooperation. In societies with organic solidarity, individuals are linked together by their shared interests and needs. This means that individuals are united by what they do and to be more specific by their differences that is noted in form of independence and division of labor.

One of the key differences between organic and mechanical solidarity is the level of complexity of the society. In light of this, mechanical solidarity is found in simpler societies, where individuals share a common way of life and rely on each other for support and protection. Organic solidarity is found in more complex societies, where individuals are divided into different groups based on their occupation or skills. In these societies, individuals are interdependent and rely on each other to fulfill their different roles. So, in a nutshell, organic solidarity is based on differences, while mechanical solidarity is based on similarities.

However, Émile Durkheim was criticized for his methodological approach, which was seen as overly positivist and deterministic. He was also criticized for his emphasis on the role of social facts in shaping individual behavior, which was seen as neglecting the role of individual agency and free will. In addition, Durkheim's work was criticized for its lack of attention to gender and its focus on Western, European societies. Some critics also argued that Durkheim's theories were too abstract and did not provide practical solutions to social problems. However, despite these criticisms, Durkheim's work is widely respected and continues to influence sociological thought.

Key terms

Social solidarity : Social solidarity It a concept developed by Durkheim to describe the cohesiveness of a society, sense of connection and belonging that individuals feel to their society, as well as the shared values and norms that hold the society together.

Mechanical solidarity : is based on shared traditions, beliefs, and values that are passed down from generation to generation.

Organic solidarity : on the other hand, is based on interdependence and specialization of tasks within a society.

Activity 1.1

In groups, describe and discuss two types of social solidarity (8)

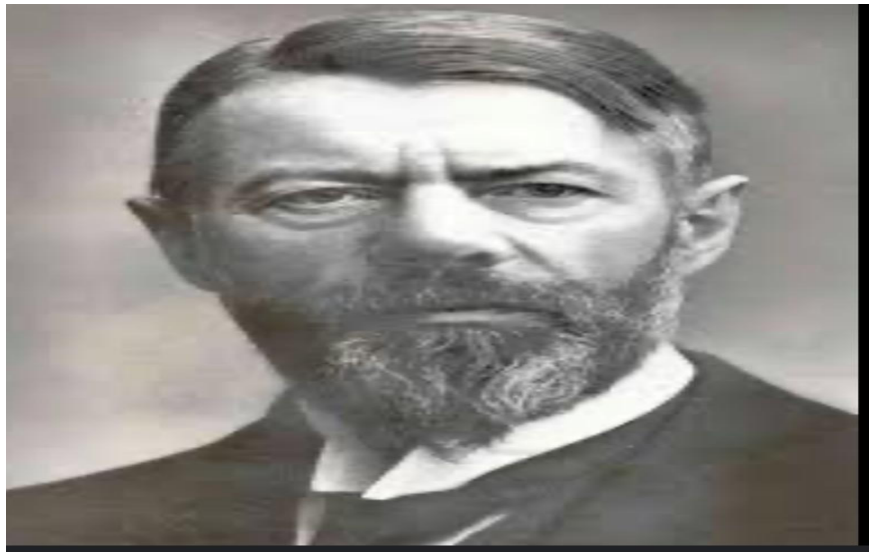
Max Weber (1864 - 1920)

Fig 1.6 Max Weber

Max Weber a German sociologist, is another important figure in the development of sociology. This means that without Weber, sociology would have experienced birth crisis. Weber is best known for his ideas about the role of rationality and bureaucracy in modern society. This is the idea that the rationalization of society, driven by the growth of bureaucracy and capitalism, can lead to a situation where people feel trapped by the rules and structures of society. In other words, the rationalization of society can lead to a loss of individual freedom and autonomy.

Weber believed that this could lead to feelings of anxiety and alienation, as people feel like they are no longer in control of their own lives. He argued that rationality, or the use of reason to make decisions, is a defining feature of modern society. Weber also studied bureaucracy, which he defined as a type of organization characterized by formal rules and procedures. He argued that bureaucracy was becoming more prevalent in modern societies, and he explored the positive and negative aspects of this development. One of Weber's most influential contributions to sociology is his theory of the social change through the Protestant work ethic.

Weberian theory explores the role of religion in shaping people's attitudes towards work and economic activity. Weber argued that the Protestant work ethic, which stressed the importance of hard work and self-discipline, played a key role in the rise of capitalism in Europe. He also explored the relationship between religion and economic development, and argued that religion could play a role in both promoting and hindering economic progress. This idea is still relevant today, as we see different

religious groups having different attitudes towards economic activity.

Weber's study of social action is another of his key contributions to sociology. He argued that social action can be divided into four types: traditional, affective, value-rational, and instrumental-rational. Traditional action is motivated by custom or habit, while affective action is motivated by emotion. Value-rational action is motivated by a person's values and beliefs, while instrumental-rational action is motivated by the desire to achieve specific goals. Understanding the different types of social action can help us to understand why people behave the way they do.

Fascinating fact

A fun fact about Weber is that he believed that sociology should be value-neutral. This means that it should not make judgments about what is right or wrong, or about what is good or bad. Rather, it should focus on studying social phenomena objectively and scientifically. This value-neutral approach was a departure from the way that many previous social thinkers had approached their work. He was also strong proponent of verstehen, which is the idea that we should try to understand human behavior from the perspective of those who are experiencing it. This is different from the idea of objectivity, which focuses on studying something from an external, detached perspective. For example, Weber argued that it is impossible to understand religious behavior unless we try to understand it from the perspective of religious believers.

The idea of verstehen, or understanding, is closely linked to Weber's study of social action. Weber argued that in order to understand social action, we must try to understand the meaning that the action has for the person who is performing it. In other words, we need to look beyond the external, observable aspects of social action and try to understand the internal, subjective meanings that people attach to their actions. Weber believed that verstehen was an essential part of the scientific study of society, as it allowed us to understand social action from the perspective of the people who are performing it.

Weber's study of conflict is another key aspect of his work. He argued that conflict is an inevitable part of human society, and that it plays a role in social change and development. He studied different types of conflict, including class conflict, political conflict, and religious conflict. He also explored the role of charismatic leaders in conflict situations. Weber's study of conflict is often seen as a precursor to later work on conflict theory, such as the work of Karl Marx and Max Horkheimer. His ideas have influenced the way we think about social change and conflict today.

However, the main criticism of Max Weber's work was that it was too focused on structure and did not give enough attention to human agency and individual choice.

Critics argued that Weber's concept of rationalization, or the process by which society becomes more systematic and organized, was too deterministic and did not take into account the role of human creativity and innovation. In addition, some critics argued that Weber's emphasis on the importance of religion in social life was overly simplistic and did not reflect the diversity of religious belief and practice.

Key terms

Verstehen : It refers to the process of understanding the subjective meanings and motivations of individuals in a particular social context.

Social action : It refers to the actions of individuals in relation to one another

Rationality : It is the idea that individuals make decisions based on rational considerations and calculation. Weber defined rationality as the ability to make decisions based on objective, reasoned arguments

Bureaucracy : It is a system of administration that is based on fixed rules, rationality manipulation and procedures a focus on efficiency at the expense of human values.

Capitalism : An economic system based on private ownership of means of production and services.

Karl Marx (1818- 83)

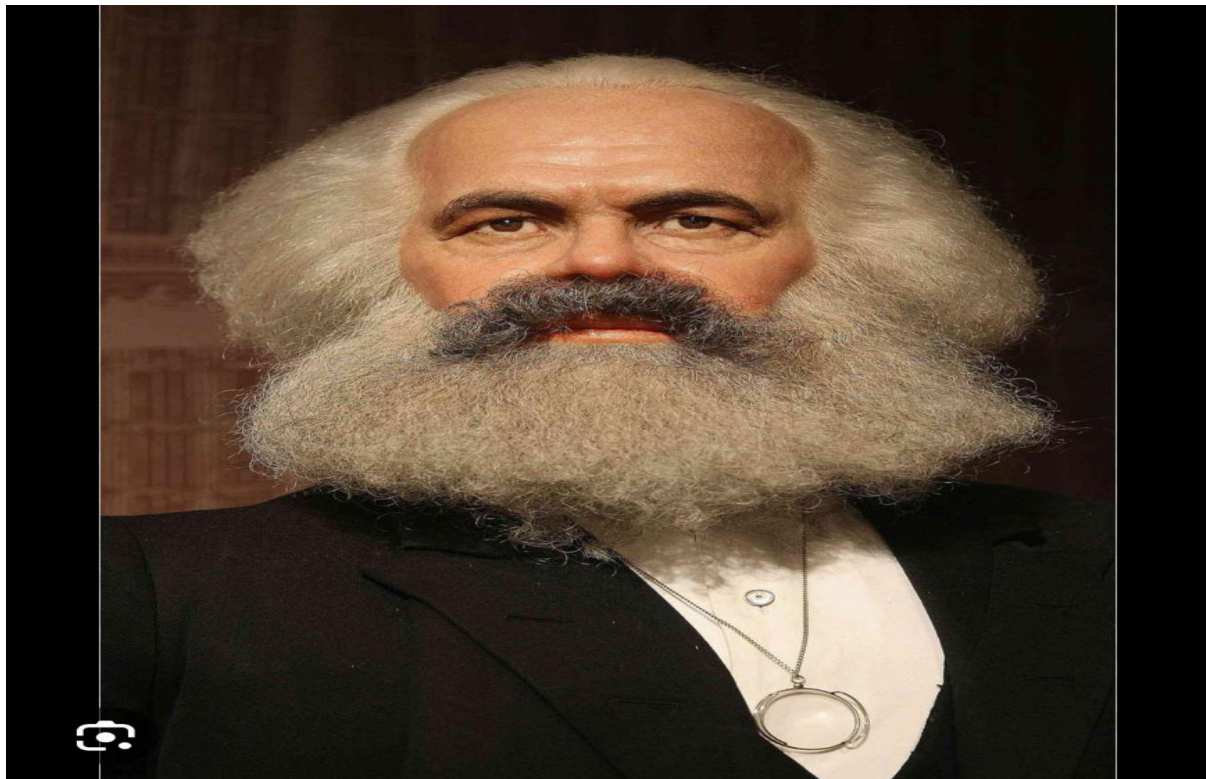


Fig 1.6 Karl Marx

Karl Marx an economist and a German sociologist as well as a poor man who depended on the wealth of his friend Fredrich Engels had a different perspective from August comte and Emile Durkheim. Karl Marx was quite poor during his lifetime. Although he had a relatively comfortable upbringing, his financial situation worsened as he got older. He spent most of his adult life living in poverty, and he often struggled to support his family. In fact, he once wrote to a friend that he was living "on the verge of starvation". Despite his financial difficulties, Marx was able to continue his work as a philosopher and social critic. He remained committed to his ideas and continued to write and publish his work until his death in 1883.

Did you know that Karl Marx was a terrible student? In fact, he failed his university entrance exam! However, he was eventually able to enroll in the University of Bonn, where he studied law and philosophy. While at university, Marx was influenced by the ideas of Georg Wilhelm Friedrich Hegel, a famous philosopher. Hegel's ideas would have a profound impact on Marx's later work. Despite his academic struggles, Marx went on to become one of the most influential thinkers in history. he was friends with Friedrich Engels, another important figure in the history of socialism. Engels was a wealthy industrialist who supported Marx Dinancially, allowing him to focus on his studies and writing. Together, Marx and Engels wrote The Communist Manifesto, one of the most influential works in the history of socialism. Engels also played a key role in editing and publishing Marx's works after his death.

At his funeral some say only thirteen people attended the funeral and some say Karl Marx's funeral was not poor rather the funeral was attended by thousands of people, and Marx's body was cremated and buried in a prestigious cemetery. Whatever the differences, what is important is that his death was and is a a testament to his legacy and influence. Marx's body was cremated and his ashes were later buried in Highgate Cemetery in London.

A memorial stone was erected at the site in 1956, and it remains a significant site for socialists and Marxists today.

Firstly Karl Marx though he denied that he was a sociologist or a Marxist, he is well remembered for his contribution to the development of sociology since he introduced Marxism a class conflict theory. Marx's role in the rise of sociology was significant and multifaceted. In this light, Marx's theories about class conflict and the role of the proletariat in history helped to shape the development of sociological thought. His ideas about the importance of analyzing social structures and their effects on individuals were also highly influential.

In addition, the class conflict between the Bourgeoisie and the Proletariat was one of many of his ideas that Marx introduced. Marx argues that order is maintained through a mixture of force and persuasion. For example, people can be controlled through violence ,threats or death.

Marx's work on the dialectical process, the idea that change is driven by conflict and

contradiction, was also significant in the development of sociology.

The idea of a classless society is one of Marx's most famous and enduring ideas. He argued that the class conflict between the proletariat (the working class) and the bourgeoisie (the capitalist class) would eventually lead to a revolution, in which the proletariat would overthrow the bourgeoisie and establish a classless society. In this society, private property and the state would be abolished, and people would own and control the means of production (such as factories and land) collectively. Marx believed that this would result in a society in which everyone was equal and free from oppression. Ultimately, Marx's work laid the groundwork for many of the ideas that would come to define sociology as a discipline.

However, Marx faced a number of criticisms throughout his life and after his death. One of the most common criticisms of his work was that it was overly deterministic, meaning that it suggested that human behavior and social change were solely determined by economic conditions. Critics also argued that Marx's predictions about the future of society were overly simplistic and did not take into account the complex and ever-changing nature of society. In addition, some critics argued that Marx's theories were based on an overly optimistic view of human nature and that his vision of a classless society was unrealistic.

Key terms

The proletariat :Is the class of wage-earning workers who do not own the means of production.

The bourgeoisie : Is the class of capitalists who own the means of production and exploit the proletariat for their own profit.

The role played by event factors to the development of sociology

Despite the role played by founding fathers, sociology was born as a result of different events and one in common is The Enlightenment period was a crucial period in the development of sociology because it was during this time that many of the key concepts and ideas that would later shape the discipline were first developed. The Enlightenment, also known as the Age of Reason, was a philosophical and intellectual movement that emerged in Europe in the 18th century. It was characterized by a focus on reason, individualism, and progress. Enlightenment thinkers rejected traditional forms of authority, such as religion and the monarchy, and instead promoted the idea that reason should be used to solve social and political problems.

They believed that scientific and technological advances would lead to social progress and greater freedom for individuals. Major Enlightenment thinkers included

John Locke, Voltaire, Diderot, Montesquieu, and Rousseau. The Enlightenment thinkers raised a number of arguments that later on led to the rise of sociology. One of their arguments is

- **The belief in empiricism** - they believed that every thing must be empirical, that is, proved through experiments or other methods. It is through empiricism that knowledge is increased. If one said, the earth is spherical then one had to prove their claim. Empiricism was an attempt to depart from explaining things using the supernatural "eternal verities" to explain social reality using reason and science. It was this reason that made Auguste Comte to develop his science of society which he termed sociology. He was confident that human behavior can be studied scientifically not through faith or religion. Thus, this argument made by Enlightenment thinkers played a crucial role in upbringing sociology as it influenced founding fathers to develop their own science of society.

one fascinating fact about sociology is that it is a relatively new field of study. The discipline of sociology only emerged in the 19th century, and it has been growing and evolving ever since. In fact, some people argue that we are living in the "sociological age," a time when social scientific thinking is becoming more and more prevalent in our everyday lives. For example, we are constantly bombarded with data about ourselves and our society, from our social media feeds to our health data.

- **Rejection of Papal infallibility and religious authority** : During the Enlightenment, many thinkers questioned the authority of the monarchy, the church, and other traditional institutions. They argued that these institutions were not always acting in the best interests of the people, and that individuals should be able to make their own decisions about their lives. This questioning of authority laid the groundwork for the later development of sociology. The concept of social critique, which involves analyzing and critiquing social structures and institutions, emerged from this questioning. This concept is central to sociology, which is often concerned with analyzing and improving social institutions. For example, this idea influenced Karl Marx to totally go against religion hence Marxism as a sociological theory was developed.
- **Social contract**: During the Enlightenment, an idea of social contract emerged number that would later influence the development of sociology. This idea suggested that people live in society according to a social contract, in which they agree to give up some of their individual freedoms in order to live together in peace and order.
- **Separation of powers** : Another important idea was the concept of the separation of powers, proposed by Montesquieu. This idea was first developed by Thomas Hobbes, and later refined by Rousseau. It became a foundational concept in

sociology, as it recognized the importance of individual choice and the role of society in shaping individual behavior. It also laid the groundwork for later theories about social order and the role of government.

Rousseau's idea that "man is born free and everywhere he is in chains" was a direct challenge to the established order of society during the Enlightenment. It suggested that people were not born into a particular social position, but rather that society creates these positions and expectations for people. This idea challenged the traditional view of social stratification, and paved the way for later sociological theories about inequality and the nature of class. It also inspired later sociologists to study the ways in which social institutions and structures can limit or shape individual freedom and choice.

- **Inequality is the root of all problems** : Rousseau's idea that inequality was the root of social problems sparked a new line of thinking in sociology. Later sociologists, such as Karl Marx and Emile Durkheim, built on Rousseau's ideas to develop theories about the role of inequality in creating social conflict. Marx argued that inequality leads to class conflict, while Durkheim argued that it leads to social anomie, or a lack of social norms and values. These theories laid the groundwork for later sociological theories about how inequality affects society and individuals. For example, theorists like Robert Merton and C. Wright Mills built on these ideas to develop theories about development.

Key terms

Empiricism : the belief that everything can be explained using science

Enlightenment period : The Enlightenment, also known as the Age of Reason, was an intellectual movement that emerged in Europe in the 18th century that was characterized by the belief in the power of reason and scientific inquiry to improve society and human life

The French Revolution

The French Revolution of 1789 is regarded as an immediate factor that led to the development of sociology. This is because it sparked a period of intense social and political turmoil, which gave rise to new ideas and perspectives about society. One of the key thinkers to emerge from this period was Auguste Comte, who is often considered to be the founder of sociology. Comte was inspired by the events of the French Revolution, and he sought to create a science of society that could help to prevent similar upheavals in the future. He believed that sociology could be used to

analyze and understand the forces that shape society, and to identify the best ways to improve society and create a more harmonious and just world. French Revolution also led to the development of sociology by creating theories of social change in sociology. French Revolution, as an example of social change, attracted the attention of theorist who spent much of their time analyzing French Revolution. One of the key theories to emerge from the French Revolution was the theory of social change. This theory holds that society is constantly in a state of flux, and that it is shaped by various forces, including economic, political, and cultural factors.

The French Revolution was seen as a dramatic example of this theory, as it showed how the existing social order could be overthrown and replaced by a new one. This theory was further developed by Karl Marx, who saw class conflict as the driving force behind social change. Auguste Comte was also deeply influenced by the events of the French Revolution, and he sought to create a new science that could help to explain and understand these changes. He proposed a theory of social development that divided history into three stages: the theological stage, the metaphysical stage, and the positive stage. Comte believed that society had to progress through these stages in order to achieve true progress and social harmony. The theological stage was characterized by a belief in supernatural forces, while the metaphysical stage was characterized by a belief in reason and the natural world. The positive stage, which Comte believed society was entering, was based on scientific knowledge. He argued that the French society had moved from theological stage where people had questioned monarchy and religious society to a metaphysical stage where people now reason. He later proposed that in the later stage, France can run rationally without religion.

The Industrial Revolution

Industrial Revolution, which began in England in the late 18th century, also had a major impact on the development of sociology. The rapid changes brought about by the Industrial Revolution, such as urbanization, the rise of the factory system, and the growth of the middle class, led to new social problems and challenges. Sociologists like Karl Marx and Max Weber were interested in studying these changes and how they were affecting society. They saw the Industrial Revolution as a key moment in the development of modern society, and they sought to understand the effects of these changes on individuals and society as a whole.

One of the key sociological theories to emerge from the Industrial Revolution was Marx's theory of alienation. Marx in his book 'Das Kapital ' argued that the nature of factory work led to workers feeling disconnected from their labor and from their sense of self. Workers were alienated from the products they produced, the work they performed, their fellow workers, and their own humanity. Marx saw this alienation as a fundamental problem of capitalism, and he believed that it would eventually lead to a revolution that would overthrow the capitalist system.

Industrial Revolution also promoted the development of theories of social change. The Industrial Revolution also influenced Durkheim's thought. He was particularly interested in the effects of industrialization on social solidarity, or the ties that bind

individuals together in a society. Durkheim believed that the industrialization of society was leading to a decline in traditional forms of social solidarity, such as those based on religion or kinship ties. He saw this as a problem, and he believed that a new form of solidarity based on shared values and beliefs was necessary to maintain social order. Durkheim called this new form of solidarity "organic solidarity." He argued that organic solidarity is based on the interdependence of individuals in modern society. Unlike traditional forms of solidarity, which are based on shared values and beliefs, organic solidarity is based on the division of labor.

In other words, individuals are linked together through their specialized roles and functions within society. Durkheim believed that organic solidarity could provide the basis for a new type of social order that would be more harmonious and just than the old order.

Weber was also influenced by the Industrial Revolution, but he took a different approach from Durkheim. Weber was interested in how the rationalization of society, or the application of scientific and technical knowledge to solve problems, was leading to changes in social structures and individual behavior. He believed that the rationalization of society was leading to a loss of meaning and purpose, and he saw this as a potential source of social unrest. Weber's ideas about rationalization and social change have been highly influential in the field of sociology.

One of Weber's most important contributions to sociology was his concept of "the iron cage." This concept describes the feeling of being trapped by the rationality and efficiency of modern society. Weber believed that the rationalization of society was leading to a situation in which individuals were increasingly constrained by the systems and structures that they had created. They were trapped in an "iron cage" of their own making, with no escape. While Durkheim saw the rationalization of society as potentially beneficial, Weber saw it as potentially harmful and alienating.

Urbanization

Urbanization or the growth of cities, was another key influence on the development of sociology. Durkheim and Weber both studied the effects of urbanization on society. Durkheim saw urbanization as leading to a loss of social cohesion, as individuals were increasingly detached from their communities and families. Weber saw urbanization as leading to a breakdown of traditional values and a rise in individualism. Both Durkheim and Weber believed that urbanization was having a profound impact on social structures and individual behavior, and this was reflected in their work.

To explore this idea further, Durkheim introduced the concept of "anomie." Anomie refers to a state of normlessness, or a lack of shared norms and values. Durkheim believed that anomie was a key problem in modern society, leading to increased rates of crime and deviance. He argued that this was because individuals were no longer bound by the shared values and norms that had previously guided their behavior. Durkheim believed that the solution to anomie was to create a new set of shared norms and values that would provide meaning and purpose in people's lives.

The rise of socialism

The rise of socialism was a major influence on the development of sociology. Socialist thinkers such as Marx and Engels were challenging the capitalist system, and their ideas were gaining popularity among the working class. This had a profound impact on Durkheim and Weber, who both studied the socialist movement and its impact on society. Durkheim, in particular, saw socialism as a potential solution to the problems of anomie and social alienation. He believed that a socialist society would be more cohesive and less individualistic than a capitalist society. In addition, Marx's ideas had a profound impact on the development of sociology. Marx's critique of capitalism, and his ideas about class conflict and the need for a socialist revolution, were hugely influential. Marx's theory of historical materialism, which argues that the economic base of society determines its social and political structures, was also a major influence on sociological thought. Many sociologists, including Weber, engaged with Marx's ideas and developed their own theories in response to them. In this way, Marx's ideas were both a challenge and an inspiration to the sociologists of the 19th century.

Key terms

Norms :are the specific rules and expectations that guide social behavior

Values : General guidelines for actions for example, being honest.

Urbanization: population shift from rural to urban which enables towns and cities to grow.

Socialism : a localised and collective ownership of the means of production that does not involve inviting foreigners to come and run things in the country

Religious changes

Religious changes in the 19th century also had a significant impact on the development of sociology. The growth of religious skepticism and the rise of new religious movements, such as the Unitarian movement, led to a rethinking of the role of religion in society. Sociologists like Durkheim and Weber both studied the relationship between religion and society, and they argued that religion played a crucial role in shaping social and cultural values. In addition, the growth of religious pluralism in the 19th century challenged the idea of a single, unified society. This had a profound impact on the development of sociology.

The idea of secularization, or the separation of religion from public life, was also an important factor in the development of sociology. In the 19th century, many people were

questioning the role of religion in public life, and this led to a more critical view of religion in general. Durkheim and Weber both saw secularization as a key factor in the development of modern society. Durkheim argued that secularization was necessary for the development of a rational, scientific society. Weber, on the other hand, saw secularization as a source of anxiety and a loss of meaning in society.

End of unit 1.1 exercise questions

1. a define the term sociology (3)
- b. Identify any four founding fathers of sociology (4)
- c. Explain the role played by Auguste Comte in the development of sociology (8)
- d. Assess the view that 'without Auguste Comte there is no sociology to talk about (10)
2. To what extent did enlightenment period contribute to the development of sociology (10)
3. Discuss the factors that led to the rise of sociology (10)
4. Discuss the view that sociology was born out of Chaos (10)
5. Describe two types of social solidarity (8)
6. Explain Auguste Comte's three stages of social development (8)
7. Examine the role of industrial Revolution in the development of sociology (10)
8. Assess the factors that influenced the birth of sociology (10)
9. To what extent has Industrial society achieved what Durkheim termed organic solidarity (10)

Unit 1.2 Sociology and social policy

Objectives

By the end of this unit, learners should be able to;

- Identify social problems in Zimbabwe
- Analyse social policy initiatives in Zimbabwe and other societies
- Evaluate the social policy measures

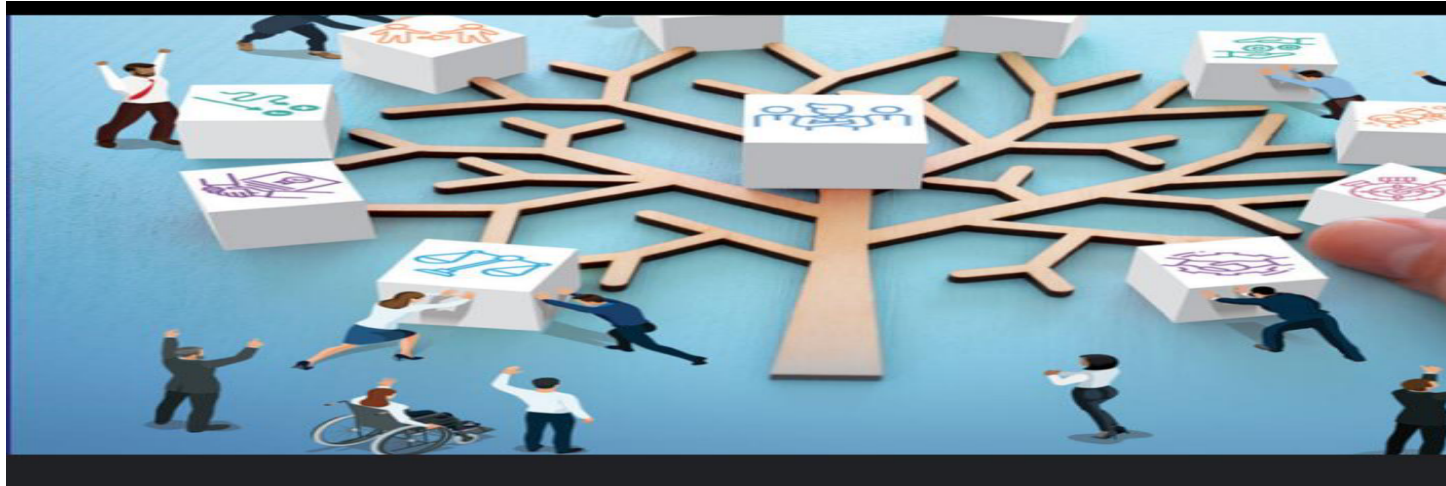
Unit 1.2 Introduction

Sociologists usually fix their thinking and problems will fix themselves. The main reason why we study sociology is for us to be able to apply sociological concepts in everyday social life. Sociological research often helps business, labor officials, community organizations, educators, policymakers, public and private administrators, and the general citizenry to understand and solve issues that confront society on local, national, and international levels. It is the role of sociology to study social problem and provide solutions in form of social policies. Sociology is a martial art for understanding and solving social problems. Sociology does involve self defence, analyzing social issues and proposing solutions. Social problems and social policy are inextricably linked. Social problems are complex and multifaceted, and they often require multifaceted solutions. Social policy is a way of identifying, analyzing, and addressing social problems, and it plays a crucial role in improving the well-being of individuals and communities. In this chapter, we are going to discuss the nature and the context of social problems in relation to social policy.

Did you know that the concept of "social problems" is relatively new? It was first developed in the late 19th century by sociologist Emile Durkheim, who argued that certain behaviors or conditions could be classified as "social problems" if they negatively affected the health and well-being of society as a whole. Durkheim's ideas laid the foundation for modern social problems theory, which has been used to analyze issues like poverty, crime, and inequality

Sociological insight into social problems in Zimbabwe

How would you react if somebody behaved badly toward you? Suppose you are driving on a highway and someone suddenly comes from behind to cut you off. When you glance at the person, he gives you the finger. Would you get angry, irritated, or react in some negative way? Or would you instead smile at the person and wish him a good day? What if somebody insulted you, calling you all kinds of names in front of your friends? Would you respond negatively or positively? What a silly question to ask, you may say. Of course, a common reaction would be to react negatively. You would probably feel bad about it later, but you just couldn't help it. You believe that the person was clearly at fault for ruining your day. Unfortunately, your negative reaction to the person's bad treatment of you doesn't do any good. You still feel awful. But the study of social problems can provide sociological insights that you can use to make you feel better—and even improve the quality of your life and the lives of those around you. The sociological imagination suggests that many personal troubles, such as getting laid off, feeling frustrated, and driving recklessly, arise from social forces. These social forces may include the poor conditions of the society, the economy, and other social institutions. Because these social forces significantly cause the individuals to suffer from personal troubles, the individuals are largely the victims. They are thus mostly not to blame for their troubles. The social forces are to blame. According to the sociological imagination, then, if someone behaves badly toward us, that person is already a victim of the social circumstances beyond his or her control. Therefore, it does not make much sense to blame the victim by getting upset or angry at that person. To blame the victim for causing us pain makes as much sense as blaming a whip that strikes us. Armed with this knowledge, the next time somebody mistreats you, instead of responding negatively, you should react positively, feeling grateful or lucky for not having those personal troubles yourself that weigh so heavily on the "nasty" person. You could also feel sympathetic and compassionate toward the person for having the problem. That's why it makes sense to smile at the offensive driver and wish him a good day



Key term

sociological imagination : refers to the ability to see the connection between individual experiences and the larger social forces that shape those experiences.

Social forces : are the larger, external factors that influence people's lives, such as economic systems, government policies, cultural norms, and technological advances.

Life cycle of social problems

Before we give sociological definitions of social problems, it is important to understand that not all problems are social problem. A problem goes through a number of stages for it to qualify to be termed a social problem. For us to have a clear insight, we turn to a **life cycle theory of social problems theory**.

The life cycle of social problems theory

Joseph Gusfield (1963)

The four stages of the social problems process were first developed by sociologist Joseph Gusfield in his book "Symbolic Crusade," which was published in 1963. Gusfield was interested in how public opinion and social movements influenced social policy, and he developed the four stages as a way to understand this process. This theory also

known as the social problems cycle, is a sociological framework that attempts to explain why some social issues become the focus of public attention, while others do not. Sure thing! The life cycle of social problems theory identifies four stages that social problems go through.

The first stage is **emergence**

This stage happens when people first start noticing a social problem. It may be a new phenomenon, or it may be something that's been happening for a while but has not been noticed for example child abuse or early marriages. Often, claims emergence happens when a crisis occurs, such as a natural disaster or a major scandal. Once people start noticing the problem, they begin to talk about it and try to explain it. This is how a social problem first comes to public attention. **This is** when a problem first comes to public attention. During this stage, a problem such as drug abuse is just beginning to gain public attention. People may start to talk about it, and it may get some media coverage. At this point, there may be some disagreement about whether the issue is really a problem, or how serious it is. Still, more and more people are becoming aware of the issue, and there is growing interest in finding solutions. The government is **not yet convinced that a problem really exists and has devastating effects**

The next stage claim making

This is when people begin advocating for solutions to the problem. They may form interest groups, lobby government officials, or protest. The goal of claim making is to draw attention to the issue and try to persuade others that something needs to be done about it for example drug abuse. A social entity (social change group, the news media, or influential politicians) begin to call attention to a condition or behavior that it perceives to be undesirable and in need of remedy. The powerful groups and social entity try to persuade the public that the problem really exists. Not everyone will necessarily agree on what the best solution is, but claim making is about trying to get people to take action.

Next up is legitimization

This is the stage where a social problem becomes widely accepted as a legitimate concern. In other words, people agree that it's a real problem that needs to be addressed. This stage is often reached through research and evidence. For example, scientists may produce studies that show the harmful effects of a particular social problem such as drug abuse or early marriages. Or the media may cover the problem extensively, bringing it to the attention of a wide audience. Once the problem is legitimized, it is much more likely that people or government will work to solve it. This stage also involved renewed claims making. Even if government action does occur, social change groups often conclude that the action is too limited in goals or scope to be able to successfully address the social problem. If they reach this conclusion, they

often decide to press their demands anew.

After that comes the decline stage

In this stage, the urgency and concern around the problem starts to fade. People may still be aware of the problem, but it may no longer be considered a crisis. It's possible that solutions have been implemented, or people have simply become used to the problem and accepted it as a normal part of life. One of the things to understand about the decline stage is that it doesn't necessarily mean that the problem has been solved. Instead, it can mean that public interest in the problem has waned, even if the problem itself hasn't gone away. One reason for this is what sociologists call "issue fatigue." This is when people become tired of hearing about a problem and stop paying attention to it, even though it still exists. Another reason for the decline stage is that the media may move on to other issues, and the public may follow suit. This can happen even if the original problem is still very much alive.

The last stage is alternative

This is when people argue that a particular social problem is actually caused by something else. For example, some people have argued that poverty is caused by a lack of personal responsibility, rather than by structural factors like inequality or a lack of opportunity. This can lead to a debate about what the real causes of the problem are. Claims alternative can also happen when people propose solutions that are very different from the mainstream approach. After that, social policies then are implemented to solve social problems.

Evaluation of this theory

The theory applies to specific social problems in Zimbabwe. For example, the issue of corruption could be analyzed through the lens of Gusfield's theory. Corruption has been a persistent problem in Zimbabwe, but it has not been effectively addressed through formal policy solutions. In this case, the theory could help explain why corruption has not progressed into the legitimation stage, despite the efforts of some groups to raise awareness about the issue.

However, there are several criticisms of Gusfield's theory of the social problems process. One criticism is that it oversimplifies the complex process of social change. It can be difficult to neatly categorize the stages of a social problem, and the reality is often more complex than the theory suggests. Another criticism is that the theory ignores the role of culture and ideology in shaping social problems. It focuses on rational, evidence-based arguments, but it doesn't account for the emotional and cultural aspects of a social problem. What do you think of these criticisms?

Another criticism of Gusfield's theory is that it doesn't fully account for the role of power in shaping social problems. It assumes that a social problem will progress through the

four stages in a linear way, but in reality, the power dynamics of a particular issue may prevent it from progressing. For example, a powerful group may be able to keep an issue from moving into the legitimization stage, even if there is evidence that something needs to be done. Some scholars have argued that this is what happened with climate change - despite evidence that action was needed, powerful groups like the fossil fuel industry were able to prevent progress for many years.

The sociological definition of social problem.

As discussed earlier, not all problems are social problems. Also, a problem can persist for a long time and can only qualify to become a social problem if it has arrived to the last stage of the above stage. For example, child abuse was in existence in the past but this does not mean it was a social problem till much later when it received public reaction. This means that a problem can become a social problem if powerful groups have disapproved it through social policies and campaigning against it for example through Billboards written 'say no to drugs'. To sociologists, drug abuse is a social problem that has received public reaction and social entity has disapproved it. Social problem is a social condition that is harmful to society and usually demands a call for action to solve it. This definition suggests that a problem only becomes social if the government has disapproved it. All those problems that are not disapproved by the government are not social problems. According to Stanley (2004), a social problem is a behaviour seen to cause public outcry and misery usually demands a call for action

Activity

Identify problems and social problems in Zimbabwe and explain how they two types of problems differ.

Key terms

Social entity : Social change group, the news media, or influential politicians.

Social problems : A condition or behavior that is perceived as harmful to society which usually demands a call for action.

Examples of social problems

Drug abuse

I defined a drug as a substance that determines human behaviour in terms of mood, feelings and mental processes. The most commonly abused drugs in the country are cannabis, methamphetamine (known locally as "mutoriro"), and alcohol. Drug abuse has been linked to a number of negative consequences, including increased crime, mental health problems, and HIV/AIDS.

Drug abuse has been linked to a number of negative consequences, including increased crime, mental health problems and gender based violence.

The government of Zimbabwe has taken some steps to address drug abuse, such as increasing penalties for drug trafficking and establishing treatment centers for drug addicts.

Corruption

Corruption is a major problem in Zimbabwe. It is defined as the abuse of public power for private gain, and it takes many forms, such as bribery, embezzlement, and nepotism. Corruption is particularly widespread in the government and public sector, where it has led to a lack of transparency, accountability, and trust in the government.

Corruption has a negative impact on economic development and has contributed to high levels of poverty.

One of the main measures taken by the government to address corruption is the establishment of the Zimbabwe Anti-Corruption Commission (ZACC). The ZACC is tasked with investigating and prosecuting corruption cases, and it has made some progress in investigating high-profile cases. Another measure that has been taken is the passage of the Public Procurement and Disposal of Public Assets Act, which aims to increase transparency and accountability in government procurement. But critics say this law has not been fully implemented.

Child abuse

Child abuse is a serious social problem in Zimbabwe. It refers to any form of physical, sexual, or emotional abuse that is inflicted on a child. In Zimbabwe, child abuse is often linked to poverty, poor access to healthcare and education, and lack of government support for vulnerable children.

Child abuse has a devastating impact on children, including physical and psychological harm, increased risk of illness, and lower educational attainment.

The government of Zimbabwe has taken some steps to address child abuse, such as passing the Children's Act and establishing the Child Protection Unit within the police force.

Early marriages

Early marriage is another social problem that is common in Zimbabwe. Early marriage refers to the marriage of a child under the age of 18, and it is often linked to other factors such as poverty, cultural norms, and lack of access to education. The consequences of early marriage are severe, and include health risks, higher rates of child mortality, and decreased economic opportunities for girls.

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The government of Zimbabwe has taken some steps to address early marriage, including raising the legal marriage age to 18 and criminalizing child marriage.

Domestic violence

Domestic violence is any form of physical, emotional, or sexual violence that occurs between intimate partners or family members. It can include a wide range of behaviors, such as hitting, slapping, pushing, sexual assault, verbal abuse, and economic abuse. The most common victims of domestic violence are women, but men can also be victims. It results in divorce and health problems.

The Domestic Violence Act of Zimbabwe was enacted in 2006 to address the problem of domestic violence in the country. It provides legal protection for victims of domestic violence and provides a mechanism for obtaining protection orders from the courts. The act also criminalizes domestic violence, and it imposes penalties for those who commit such acts.

Prostitution

Prostitution is another social problem in Zimbabwe. It is the practice of engaging in sexual activity in exchange for money or other goods or services. Prostitution is often associated with poverty, as many women turn to prostitution as a way to earn money to support themselves and their families.

Prostitution also has a negative impact on the health and well-being of those involved. Prostitutes often suffer from physical and mental health problems, and they are at high risk for HIV and other sexually transmitted diseases. In addition, prostitution can lead to violence and exploitation, as many prostitutes are victims of human trafficking and other forms of abuse.

There are a number of solutions that can be implemented to address the problem of prostitution in Zimbabwe. One solution is to provide economic opportunities for women, so they have other options besides prostitution to earn a living. Another solution is to increase access to education and job training for women and girls, so they can develop skills and knowledge that will help them find other work. Finally, addressing poverty and improving access to healthcare, including HIV treatment and prevention services, can also help reduce the incidence of prostitution. By addressing the root causes of prostitution, it is possible to make a meaningful difference in the lives of those affected.

School dropout

School dropout refers to students who leave school before completing their education. There are a number of factors that contribute to school dropout in Zimbabwe. One factor is poverty - many families cannot afford to keep their children in school, and children may have to work to help support their families. Another factor is gender inequality - girls are more likely to drop out of school than boys, due to factors such as early marriage and gender-based violence.

School dropout has a number of negative effects on individuals, families, and society. For individuals, school dropout can lead to low literacy rates, unemployment, and lower wages. For families, it can mean an increased burden of caregiving and economic hardship. And for society, it can mean reduced productivity and increased inequality.

Solutions to school dropout include providing financial incentives for families to keep their children in school. For example, Basic Education Assistance Module (BEAM). Improving infrastructure and resources at schools, and addressing the root causes of dropout, such as poverty and gender inequality. These solutions require a comprehensive approach and long-term commitment from the government and other stakeholders.

Sociology and social policy

Having discussed social problems, it is important to consider the efforts that have been so far implemented by the government to address social problems. Social policy refers to the policies and programs that governments and other organizations develop and implement to address social problems and improve the well-being of individuals and communities. Social policy covers a wide range of issues, including poverty, health, education, employment, and housing. It is often developed in response to the changing needs of society, and it can be influenced by a variety of factors, including political, economic, and social factors. In short, social policy is all about addressing the social issues that affect people's lives. Social policy is referred to as 'social policy' in Europe but it is referred to as social welfare in North African literature. However some authors argue that the two have different meanings because social welfare is as a result of social policy. Whatever the arguments the two have, what is important is that all are the policies designed to address social problems. According to Calvert and Calvert (1992), social policy is the main principles under which the government directs economic resources to meet specific social needs such as housing, education, crime prevention and help for the elderly.

1.2 Activity

Use IT gadgets to find out social policies that have been introduced by Zimbabwean government

The link between sociology and social policy

Sociology can have a direct impact on and input into government policy formation (social policy). Sociology can create a conducive climate of opinion that influences the development of government policies. Government can enact laws basing on sociological language. Many social scientists in USA campaigned against poverty for the most disadvantaged groups such as the elderly. This made Government to declare war on poverty, thus, US President Lyndon Johnson to launch an economic opportunity to coordinate measures to fight poverty.

Therefore, from the above evidence, it is prudent to note that sociology has an impact on social policy since Governments introduce laws after they have been influenced by sociologists.

Key terms

Social policy : measures taken by the state to address social problems

Poverty : a condition characterized by severe deprivation of basic human needs

Becker (1967) argues that sociological research should promote the interest of the disadvantaged groups. Thoms and Whyte support this from a left wing perspective who stress that the role of sociologists is to empower the powerless by providing policies and information required to challenge policies, which do not benefit them. Marsland (1995), from a new right perspective argues that sociology should address social problems. He maintains that sociological research has a necessary, important and constructive role to play in relation to social policy formulation, implementation and evaluation.

Social policy initiatives in Zimbabwe

According to Gouldner (1979), the point of sociology is to improve social policies. Feminist perspective has campaigned for the rights of women since women continue to be disadvantaged in all spheres of life. In Zimbabwe, social policies have focused on a number of issues, including education, health, and food security. Feminists have focused on gender inequalities that prevail in education. Thus the Zimbabwean government later introduced **Education For All (1980)**. Education for All (EFA) is another social policy in Zimbabwe that aims to improve education. The EFA program was established to achieve universal primary education by 2015. The program has been successful in increasing enrollment and improving literacy rates for girls. However, it has faced challenges like insufficient funding, teacher shortages, and lack of resources. Despite these challenges, the EFA program has made significant progress in expanding

access to education in Zimbabwe. It has also helped to raise awareness about the importance of education and the need to invest in education.

Another fascinating fact about social policy is that it can often lead to unintended consequences. For example, the War on Poverty, which was launched by President Lyndon Johnson in the 1960s, led to a significant expansion of welfare programs in the United States. While this policy was successful in reducing poverty, it also created a "welfare trap" that made it difficult for people to escape poverty. This is just one example of how social policies can have unintended consequences that must be considered when evaluating their effectiveness.

An example of a social policy in Zimbabwe is the **Basic Education Assistance Module (BEAM)**, which provides financial assistance to families to keep their children in school. The Basic BEAM is a social protection program that provides financial assistance to primary and secondary school students from low-income families. The program has been shown to have a positive impact on school enrollment and attendance. In a study by the World Bank, BEAM was found to increase primary school enrollment by 8% and reduce grade repetition by 17%. Additionally, a study by UNICEF found that BEAM improved learning outcomes for students in rural areas. These findings suggest that BEAM has been an effective policy in improving education in Zimbabwe. However, one of the main limitations of BEAM is its limited coverage. The program only covers about 40% of primary school students and 20% of secondary school students. Additionally, the program does not cover costs like textbooks, uniforms, and transportation, which can be a barrier to enrollment and attendance. Another limitation is the lack of long-term funding for the program. BEAM is funded by external donors, which can lead to inconsistent funding and uncertainty about the program's future. These limitations highlight the need for more comprehensive social policies that address the needs of all students and are sustainable in the long term.

Conflict theories such as Marxist have argued that the poor has limited access to primary health care. Thus is is against this background that has made the government of Zimbabwe to introduce **Zimbabwe Health Strategy**, which aims to improve access to healthcare and reduce the burden of disease. The Zimbabwe Health Strategy is based on the concept of Primary Health Care (PHC). PHC is a model of healthcare that focuses on prevention, community involvement, and improving access to basic health services. The Zimbabwe Health Strategy has four main objectives: improving the health status of the population, strengthening the health system, increasing participation in the health sector, and promoting social and economic development. The strategy has been successful in increasing immunization rates, reducing maternal mortality, and increasing access to antiretroviral therapy for people living with HIV/AIDS. However, challenges like weak infrastructure, lack of trained personnel, and inadequate funding

have limited the strategy

One of the challenges facing the Zimbabwe Health Strategy is the shortage of qualified health workers. According to a report by the World Health Organization, Zimbabwe has one of the lowest ratios of doctors to population in the world. In addition, there is a shortage of nurses, midwives, and other health workers. This shortage has been exacerbated by the brain drain, as qualified health workers leave the country in search of better opportunities abroad. To address this challenge, the strategy has included measures to increase training for health workers and improve retention rates.

Sociologists through social policy is sometimes describe sociology as a "mosaic movement," which means that it brings together a variety of perspectives, theories, and methods to study social issues. This diversity of perspectives is one of the strengths of sociology, as it allows for a more comprehensive understanding of social problems. Mosaic movements can also lead to more innovative and effective solutions to social problems. Mosaic movements, like sociology, are often seen as "homes of all groups" because they are designed to include multiple perspectives and approaches. This means that people from different backgrounds and with different perspectives can all contribute to the conversation. Mosaic movements emphasize the importance of inclusivity and diversity of thought.

The Zimbabwe Social Protection Floor (ZSPF) aims to reduce poverty and improve living standards for the most vulnerable people in the country. The Zimbabwe Social Protection Floor (ZSPF) is a social protection strategy that aims to reduce poverty and promote inclusive growth. The strategy was developed in 2011 and includes four main components: a universal child grant, an old-age pension, a disability grant, and a public works program. The ZSPF is designed to ensure that everyone has access to basic social services, including education, health care, and water and sanitation. It also aims to provide a safety net for those who are unable to work or earn a living. The strategy is funded by a combination of government revenue and international donors. The ZSPF has been praised for its ambition and its focus on social inclusion. However, it has also faced challenges, including limited political commitment, insufficient funding, and a lack of data on poverty and social exclusion. In addition, the strategy has been criticized for not focusing enough on the needs of the most vulnerable groups, such as people living with disabilities and people living in rural areas. Despite these challenges, the ZSPF has made some progress in reducing poverty and promoting social inclusion in Zimbabwe. These policies are just a few examples of the many social policies in place in Zimbabwe.

The Social Welfare Assistance Act of 2001 was passed in order to provide social protection for vulnerable groups in Zimbabwe. The act provides a legal framework for

the provision of social assistance, such as grants, food aid, and other forms of support. The act also established the Social Welfare Department, which is responsible for implementing the act and providing social assistance to those who need it. The Social Welfare Assistance Act has been praised for its efforts to address poverty and promote social inclusion. However, it has also faced challenges, such as inadequate funding and limited commitment .

National Social Protection Policy of Zimbabwe was developed in 2007 in order to provide a comprehensive framework for social protection in the country. The policy outlines the government's commitment to providing social protection for all, with a focus on vulnerable groups, including children, people with disabilities, and the elderly. The policy also includes strategies for improving access to social services, promoting employment, and reducing poverty. One of the key elements of the policy is the Social Cash Transfer Program, which provides cash grants to poor households with children. The policy has been praised for its holistic approach to social protection. One of the most successful aspects of the National Social Protection Policy is the Immunization Program. This program has been successful in reducing child mortality and improving child health. The program has increased the coverage of routine immunization and expanded the number of vaccines available. In addition, the program has improved access to vaccines through the use of mobile vaccination teams and outreach clinics. As a result of these efforts, Zimbabwe has achieved impressive gains in child immunization, including an increase in the percentage of children fully immunized from 60% in 2001 to over 80% in 2015.

Another notable feature of the National Social Protection Policy is its emphasis on gender equality. The policy recognizes the importance of addressing the specific needs of women and girls, and it includes strategies for promoting gender equality in social protection programs. In addition, the policy recognizes the role of civil society organizations in the provision of social protection services. Civil society organizations are seen as important partners in the implementation of the policy and are encouraged to play an active role in monitoring and evaluation. The policy also outlines the need for research and data collection in order to inform future policy decisions. While the National Social Protection Policy of Zimbabwe has many strengths, it also has some weaknesses. One of the biggest weaknesses is the lack of adequate funding to implement the policy. Despite the government's commitment to social protection, the funding allocated to the sector has been insufficient to meet the needs of the population. In addition, the policy has been criticized for its lack of coordination between different government ministries and agencies. This has led to a fragmented approach to social protection, which can be inefficient and ineffective. Finally, the policy does not address the structural causes of poverty, such as land reform and inequality.

Another key social policy program in Zimbabwe is the **Drought Mitigation Program**. This program was established in response to the frequent droughts that have occurred in the country in recent years. The program provides a range of measures to help farmers

cope with the effects of drought, including the provision of seeds, fertilizer, and other inputs, as well as training in drought-resistant farming techniques. The program has also helped to improve water management and irrigation systems. While the program has had some success, it has faced challenges, including the limited availability of funds and a lack of capacity to implement the program at the local level.

The Inheritance Act of Zimbabwe is another social protection program that has had mixed results. The act was designed to protect the rights of women and girls in relation to inheritance, but it has not been fully implemented. There have been reports of women being denied their inheritance rights, and the act has not been effective in changing social norms around inheritance. In addition, the act does not address the issue of property grabbing, which is a common problem in Zimbabwe. Overall, the Inheritance Act has had limited success in protecting women and girls, and more work is needed to ensure that the act is implemented and enforced.

The Maintenance Act of Zimbabwe is a social protection program that is designed to ensure that children receive financial support from their parents, even if the parents are separated or divorced. The act requires both parents to contribute to the maintenance of their children, regardless of their marital status. The act has had some success in ensuring that children receive the financial support they need, but it has faced challenges in enforcement. For example, some parents fail to comply with the act, and there are limited mechanisms in place to enforce the act. Additionally, the act does not always take into account the realities of life in Zimbabwe, where many families are struggling to make ends meet.

The Affirmative Action Policy of Zimbabwe is a social protection program that is designed to promote equality and equity in the country. The policy aims to redress historical inequalities and promote the advancement of disadvantaged groups, including women, people with disabilities, and marginalized ethnic groups. The policy has had some success in increasing the representation of marginalized groups in government and in the workforce. However, it has also been criticized for being too narrow in scope and for not addressing the root causes of inequality. In addition, the policy has been slow to make a significant impact, and more needs to be done to ensure that it is fully implemented.

Sociological perspectives on social problems

Sociologists approach the study of human society in different ways. They can look at the “big picture” of society to see how it operates. This is a macroview, focusing on the large social phenomena of society, such as culture, institutions, and inequality. Sociologists can also take a microview, zeroing in on the immediate social situations in which people interact with one another. From these two views, sociologists have developed various perspectives, each with a set of general assumptions about the nature of society. There are three well-known perspectives in sociology:

The functionalist perspective

The functionalist perspective assumes that society is stable and orderly, the conflict perspective sees society as always changing and always marked by conflict, and the symbolic interaction perspective views society as being made up of countless social interactions, therefore focusing on the details of any specific situation and the interaction between individuals in that situation. Thus the functionalist and conflict perspectives reflect the macroview of society, while the symbolic interaction perspective represents the microview. In the study of social problems rather than society in general, however, sociologists derive more specific theories from the three perspectives to explain the causes of social problems.

Moreover, all parts of society depend on each other to bring about a stable social order. Thus the family depends on the school to educate its children, and the school, in turn, depends on the family to provide emotional support, and both the school and the family depend on the government to offer a safe environment. If some parts of society fail to perform their functions so as to disrupt the network of interdependence among all parts, we have a case of dysfunction. As dysfunctions occur, social disorder will take place in the form of social problems, such as high rates of delinquency, crime, unemployment, and poverty. There are two kinds of functions. Manifest functions are those that are intended and widely recognized, while latent functions are unintended and unrecognized. The manifest function of attending college, for example, is to acquire knowledge, but attending college also has the latent function of enabling many students to find their future spouses.

Often, however, the manifest function is carried too far because some social institutions, groups, and other parts of society are too successful in performing their functions. Sometimes this may cause their latent function to become negative in nature, which is popularly known as “unintended consequences.” If this occurs, it is known as a social problem. Thus, by focusing too much on acquiring knowledge, students may neglect to pick up social skills. Also consider the excessive pursuit of the American Dream. It is widely believed to have the manifest function of making us rich by encouraging us to work hard. But it may also have the latent function of causing widespread deviance by encouraging people to adopt an “anything goes” mentality in the relentless pursuit of material success.

The relentless pursuit of the American Dream may cause deviance because it induces a strong self-interest with little or no social interest. Self-interests focus on personal success, while social interests emphasize concern for the welfare of others. People tend to engage in deviance if they have strong self-interests while lacking social interests (Konty, 2005; Messner and Rosenfeld, 2007).

Key terms

Dysfunction: The failure of some parts of society to perform their functions and the resulting disruption of the network of interdependence among all parts.

Manifest function :A function that is intended and widely recognized.

Latent function : A function that is unintended and unrecognized

Conflict/ Marxist Theory

According to conflict theory, social problems arise from various kinds of social conflict. The most important and common are class conflict, racial or ethnic conflict, and gender conflict. Each conflict stems from the inequality between the powerful and the weak. As observed by Karl Marx (1818–1883), a German economist who spent much of his life writing in England, class conflict involves the struggle between the bourgeoisie (capitalists), who own the means of production such as factories and machineries, and the proletariat (laborers), who do not. These two classes are inevitably locked in conflict, with the capitalists successfully maximizing profit by paying their workers as little as possible and the laborers failing to get as high a wage as they desire. This exploitative nature of capitalism causes many social problems, such as crime and deviance, by generating poverty among the lower classes. Capitalism further causes social problems by bringing about widespread unemployment.

To increase profit, capitalists must find ways to enhance productivity at low labor costs, including introduction of automation and other labor-saving devices; relocation of industries to cheap-labor places, such as nonunionized areas in the southern United States or in labor-rich developing countries; and hiring of workers from poor countries. These measures inevitably throw some of the existing labor force out of work. The workers' inability to maintain a decent living pressures them toward crime and deviance. Capitalism produces not only property crimes such as theft and robbery among the unemployed lower-class people; it also causes personal crimes such as assault, rape, and homicide in addition to various other forms of deviance such as alcoholism, suicide, and mental illness. As Sheila Balkan, Ronald Berger, and Janet Schmidt (1980) explain, "Economic marginality leads to a lack of self-esteem and a sense of powerlessness and alienation, which create intense pressures on individuals. Many people turn to violence to vent their frustrations and strike out against symbols of authority, and others turn this frustration inward and experience severe emotional difficulties." By this reasoning, capitalism pressures people to commit crimes and become deviant by making them poor in the first place.

Key terms

Class conflict : Marx's term for the struggle between capitalists, who own the means of production such as factories and machineries, and laborers, who do not.

Proletariat:The laborers who do not own the means of production.

Bourgeoisie :The capitalists who own the means of production such as factories and machines

The capitalistic pressure to commit crime and other forms of deviance is not confined to the lower classes, but reaches upward to affect the higher classes as well. By making possible the constant accumulation of profit, capitalism inevitably creates powerful empires of monopoly and oligopoly in the economy. These economic characteristics bring about corporate misconduct. By dominating a sector of the economy, a few firms "can more easily collude to fix prices, divide up the market, and eliminate competitors" (Greenberg, 1981). Smaller companies, unable to compete with giant corporations and earn enough profits, also are tempted to shore up their sagging profits by illegal means, such as resorting to tax evasion.

Racial or ethnic conflict can further be a source of social problems. Racial conflict typically appears in the form of prejudice and discrimination held and practiced by the dominant group, namely whites, against the minorities, which include African Americans, Hispanics, Asians, and other racial or ethnic groups. Deprived of equal treatment, these minorities end up being saddled with higher rates of unemployment and poverty. Generally, the more a minority group suffers from prejudice and discrimination (and consequently unemployment and poverty), the more likely its members are to commit crime than are other minorities.

African Americans, for example, suffer more than Asian Americans and are therefore more likely to commit crime. Gender conflict can also be a source of social problems. Gender conflict appears in the form of prejudice and discrimination by men against women. Thus women's position in most social situations is unequal to that of men. Compared with men, women have less power, freedom, respect, and money. This gender inequality goes hand in hand with the widely held sexist belief that women are inferior to men. Women are further oppressed—restrained, subordinated, controlled, molded, or abused—by a male-dominated society. This is the essence of patriarchy, a system of domination in which men exercise power over women.

The oppression may involve overt physical violence against women, such as rape, wife beating, and incest. It may assume more subtle forms such as unpaid household work, underpaid wage work, sexual harassment in the workplace, and standards of fashion

and beauty that reduce women to men's sexual playthings. Not surprisingly, women earn less than men, and unmarried women are poorer than their male counterparts. Nevertheless, women are still less likely to commit crimes, a finding that also seems to have something to do with patriarchy. Females are socialized to be less aggressive and violent than males, and females are subjected to greater parental supervision and social control.

Symbolic Interaction Theory

Both functionalist and conflict theories assume that a social problem is a product of society. In contrast, symbolic interaction theory views a social problem as a symbolic interaction between individuals without the problem and others with the problem leading the former to behave like the latter. Generally, symbolic interaction is the interaction between a person and others that is governed by the meanings that they impute to each other's actions and reactions. The interaction would be a pleasant one if the two parties interpret each other's behavior as friendly, but unpleasant if the two parties regard each other's behavior as unfriendly. This is because people react to others not in accordance with the others' behavior but instead with their own interpretation of the others' behavior. Thus even if your boyfriend or girlfriend treats you badly, you would still react to him or her with kindness if you define his or her behavior positively, with understanding or affection.

To symbolic interaction theory, then, the meaning (variously referred to by symbolic interactionists as a symbol, significant gesture, interpretation, definition, or label) that people attach to an act in a given interaction is much more important than the act itself, because our reaction to others depends on the meanings we ascribe to their behavior rather than the behavior itself.

In symbolic interaction theory there are at least two ways a social problem can arise from the attachment of positive meanings to some deviant, criminal, or delinquent behavior. One way involves differential association, the process of acquiring, through association with others, "an excess of definitions favorable to violation of law over definitions unfavorable to violation of law" (Sutherland, 1939). This means that an individual is likely to commit a crime if the individual interacts more frequently with people who define the crime positively ("it's okay") than with those who define it negatively ("it's wrong"). Another way for a social problem to emerge is through labeling individuals as deviants, usually by convicting and imprisoning them as criminals or treating them as disreputable characters. Once a person has been labeled a thief or a robber or a drunk, he or she may be stuck with that label for life and rejected and isolated as a result.

Finding a job and making friends may become extremely difficult. Consequently, the person may be forced to continue committing such acts or may commit increasingly deviant acts. Being labeled a deviant, then, can push the individual toward further and greater deviance. Being labeled a deviant involves, in effect, the individual being caught up in a symbolic interaction with the authorities or hostile others.

Evaluating the Theories

Functionalist theory has been criticized for portraying society as stable. Consequently, it focuses on the positive functions of social institutions and ignores the negative

ones. It has also drawn fire for being inherently conservative, effectively justifying the status quo. Such criticisms seem valid if the functionalist theory is used here to show society as an orderly entity. But the theory is employed here to deal with social problems as a disorderly phenomenon—for the purpose of seeking out the causes of the problems.

Conflict theory has been faulted for going too far in blaming inequalities for the prevalence of social problems. Advocates of the theory seem to hold the unconvincing assumption that in a utopian, classless society, such nasty human acts as killing, robbing, raping, and otherwise hurting one another will disappear. It may be more realistic to assume, as Durkheim did, that social problems are inevitable, even society of saints, although the type of misconduct committed by saints can be expected to be mostly unserious or even trivial.

The symbolic interaction theory offers a close-up view of social problems and consequently tends to ignore how the larger social forces may have influenced it. Suppose we want to study the interaction between whites and blacks through the eye of symbolic interactionism only. We can get a rich, detailed understanding of the racial interaction, but this understanding is likely to be limited or even distorted if we do not know how the interaction is affected by such larger social forces **as the popular belief in democracy and equality.**

End of unit 2.1 exercise questions

- 1.a define the term Social problems (3)
 - b. Distinguish between a problem and a social problem (4)
 - c. Explain the social cycle theory of social problems (8)
 - d. Assess the measures taken by Zimbabwean government to address social problems (10)
-
2. a Define the term Social policy (3)
 - b. Identify any four social problems in Zimbabwe (4)
 - c. Describe the relationship between sociology and social policy (8)
 - d. Assess social policies in Zimbabwe (10)
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3. Discuss sociological perspectives on social problems (10)
 4. Discuss the effects of social problems in Zimbabwe (10)
 5. Assess the relevance of the life cycle theory of social problems in Zimbabwe (10).
 6. Despite the social policy initiatives in Zimbabwe, examine why the rate of drug abuse is increasing in Zimbabwe (10).

Unit 1.3 Sociology and science

Objectives

By the end of this unit, learners should be able to ;

- Identify the characteristics of a science subject
- Analyze the nature of sociology as a science

Introduction

Sociology, often referred to as the 'science of society,' is a multifaceted discipline that uses scientific methods to understand and explain the complexities of human social behavior. From individual interactions to global patterns, sociology investigates the ways in which people shape and are shaped by their social environments. By using the scientific method, sociologists seek to gain a deeper understanding of the social world, which can be used to solve problems and make positive changes in society. Sociology is also defined as the study of human behavior and social interaction, and science is the systematic study of the natural world that is capable of generating universal laws. Both sociology and science are based on evidence and observation, and both seek to understand how the world works. The methods of sociology and science may be different, but they share a common goal: to make sense of the world around us and find ways to improve it. In this unit, we are going to discuss the characteristics of a science subject and the nature of sociology as a science.

Positivists stance and characteristics of Science subject

From a positivists point of view , science is a way of producing a particular kind of knowledge, one that is factual and objective rather than bases on opinion, guesswork or faith. According to Karl Popper (1943), science involves identifying a problem to study, collecting information about it and offering an explanation for it. Positivists futher claim that scientific methods such as experiments can be applied to the social sciences. They believe that human behavior and social facts can be observed and quantified. Popper claimed that it is desirable for sociology to be scientific, but claimed that science is deductive rather than inductive methodology. Sociology follows a deductive approach which is one of the the procedures in a scientific community. For example, deductive method is a standard scientific measure that begins with a hypothesis or research question. This question must be tested or answered by the systematic collection, presentation and analysis of data. A crucial idea is that any conclusions

drawn from scientific research have not been disproven or shown to be false in course of testing then should be falsified.

Key terms

Deductive method : a positivist research design based on development and systematic testing of hypothesis.

Hypotheses: a research question that can be systematically tested.

Falsification: The Principle that scientific theories should be framed in such a way that they can be disproved.

George S. Moore

He was a leading figure in the "positivist" school of thought in sociology. Positivism is a theory that holds that the scientific method is the best way to study society and that social phenomena should be analyzed in the same way as natural phenomena. In other words, positivism argues that sociology should be treated as a "hard" science, like physics or chemistry. As a leading advocate for positivism, Moore's ideas had a major influence on the development of sociology as a discipline. George S. Moore was a sociologist who argued that sociology should be viewed as a science, with specific characteristics that distinguish it from other disciplines. According to Moore, the key characteristics of sociology as a science include:

1.Objectivity - Sociologists should approach their research with an objective and unbiased perspective. In the context of sociology, objectivity refers to the idea that researchers should approach their work with an open mind and try to avoid being influenced by their own personal biases or preconceptions. This doesn't mean that sociologists should be emotionless or value-neutral - rather, it means that they should strive to be as impartial and unbiased as possible when conducting research and analyzing data. Objectivity is considered a key characteristic of science because it helps ensure that research findings are valid and reliable. According to Moore sociology is a science because it is objective. For example, Durkheim produced a classic study of suicide using official statistics, that are objectively produced by government there by suggesting that sociology is scientific in nature.

2.Precision - Sociological concepts and theories should be clearly defined and measurable. Precision, in the context of sociology, refers to the clarity and specificity of concepts and theories. In order for sociology to be considered a science, its concepts

and theories must be clearly defined and measurable. This means that researchers should use precise language to describe their concepts and should have clear methods for measuring them. For example, a sociologist might use a precise definition of "social class" and a specific set of criteria for measuring it, such as income level, occupation, and education level. Without precision, sociology would be little more than a collection of vague and unmeasurable ideas. Another example of how sociology is a science is the way that sociologists have studied and measured the concept of social mobility. Social mobility refers to the ability of individuals to move up or down the social ladder, and it's a key concept in sociology. To measure social mobility, sociologists have developed a number of methods, including the use of data from government surveys and longitudinal studies. This data has allowed sociologists to draw conclusions about the factors that influence social mobility, such as education level, race, and gender. The use of precise methods to measure social mobility is just one example of how sociology meets the standards of a science.

3. Universal Generalizability - Sociological findings should be applicable to a wide range of people and situations. Generalizability is another important characteristic of sociology as a science. Generalizability refers to the ability to apply research findings to a wider population or context. For example, a sociologist might conduct a study on the effects of poverty on health in one particular city. If the findings of that study can be generalized to other cities or regions, it would suggest that the relationship between poverty and health is a widespread phenomenon. The ability to generalize findings from one study to a wider population is key to making sociology a scientific discipline. A classic example of generalizability in sociology is the work of William Julius Wilson, who studied the effects of concentrated poverty on residents of inner-city Chicago. Wilson's findings were based on data collected from a single city, but they have been widely generalized to other inner-city areas across the United States. Wilson's work has been cited as a major influence on social policy, particularly in relation to issues such as public housing and welfare reform. This case study demonstrates how the generalizability of sociology can have real-world impacts.

4. Falsifiability - Sociological hypotheses should be testable and falsifiable, meaning they can be disproven. The concept of falsifiability is closely linked to the scientific method, which requires that hypotheses be tested through empirical evidence. In sociology, the concept of falsifiability is often applied to theories about social change. For example, the theory of "modernization" - which holds that all societies will eventually develop into modern, industrialized nations - has been subjected to rigorous testing and has been found to be mostly false. This example shows how the falsifiability of sociology can help to improve and refine theories about society. A good example is the Marxist idea of a **communist society** is a classic example of a theory that is both falsifiable and falsified. Karl Marx and Friedrich Engels argued that history is the history of class struggle, and that capitalism would eventually be replaced by a communist society in which the means of production were communally owned. While this theory has been widely influential, it has also been extensively criticized and found to be

incorrect. For example, many communist countries have experienced economic failure and widespread poverty, rather than the prosperity and equality promised by Marx and Engels.

5. Empirical evidence - Empirical evidence is crucial to the scientific method and plays a key role in testing and evaluating theories in sociology. There are many different types of empirical evidence used in sociology, including quantitative data, case studies, and interviews. For example, the research of Robert Putnam on social capital - which refers to the bonds of trust and cooperation that hold societies together - was based on a combination of quantitative data, such as surveys and census data, and qualitative evidence, such as interviews and case studies. This approach is typical of many sociological studies and demonstrates the importance of empirical evidence. The use of empirical evidence is not unique to sociology - in fact, it is a core aspect of all scientific disciplines. In biology, for example, scientists test hypotheses about the natural world by conducting experiments and observing the results. In chemistry, scientists make observations and conduct experiments to support or disprove their theories about the composition of matter.

In the same way, sociologists conduct studies and collect data to test their theories about society. Empirical evidence is what separates science from speculation and guesswork, and it is the foundation of the scientific method. One example of a sociological case study is the book "Gang Leader for a Day" by Sudhir Venkatesh. Venkatesh is a sociologist who studied the lives of people living in the Robert Taylor Homes, a housing project in Chicago, over the course of several years. He conducted hundreds of interviews and observed the daily life of the residents, including members of the Black Kings gang. This case study provides valuable insights into the social conditions that lead to poverty, crime, and gang violence. It is a clear example of how case studies can be a valuable source of empirical evidence in sociology.

6. Reliability- Reliability is another important consideration in sociology, and case studies are no exception. For a case study to be reliable, it must be repeatable - that is, other researchers must be able to conduct the same study and get similar results. The study of the Robert Taylor Homes is a good example of a reliable case study because Venkatesh's findings have been replicated by other researchers. In addition, the data collected in the study has been analyzed using a variety of statistical methods, making it highly reliable. Overall, reliability is an essential component of any sociological study, including case studies. Therefore, sociology is scientific in nature because it fulfills the key components of a science subject.

7. Predictions - Predictions are another important aspect of science, and sociology is no exception. In sociology, researchers often make predictions based on their theories and the data they have collected. For example, based on the data he collected on the Robert Taylor Homes, Venkatesh predicted that the planned demolition of the project would lead to an increase in crime and gang activity in the surrounding neighborhoods. This prediction has been supported by other researchers, making it a reliable prediction.

based on a reliable case study. In this way, sociology can make predictions about future events and trends, just like any other science.

One other notable case study in sociology is the research of W.E.B. Du Bois on African American communities in the early 1900s. Du Bois conducted an in-depth study of the lives of African Americans in Philadelphia, and he used this data to make predictions about the future of race relations in the United States. Du Bois' predictions were largely accurate, and his work has been cited by numerous scholars over the years. Like the study of the Robert Taylor Homes, Du Bois' research is an example of a reliable and predictive case study in sociology.

Evaluation of the scientific nature of sociology

The social construction of the world.

Phenomenologists who see the world as a social construct reject the view that natural science methodology is appropriate to sociology. To phenomenologists, objective observation in sociology is impossible. For example the official statistics used by Durkheim to study suicide are not objective rather are subjective hence sociology can not be considered as a science subject. **Interpretivism** that is sometimes called 'anti positivism' argued that people are different from inanimate objects because they have consciousness. They have the ability to think, reflect and act rather than simply react, making people very different from objects. This means that people cannot be studied in the same way we study plants or rocks because people think and react.

Key term

Interpretivism: Methodology based on the principle that human behavior can only be understood subjectively.

Consciousness: An awareness of both ourselves and the world we live

Objective: freedom from biases

Interpretivists argue that sociology is pre-scientific because it cannot predict the behaviour of conscious human beings in the same way that physics can predict the changes that affect objects. People change behaviour according to situations which is why Sisson failed to carry his study in two different situations when he was studying how people react to individual appearance (see the study on methodology chapter).

According to Thomas Kuhn, sociology is not a science subject because it lacks an **agreed paradigm**. It consists of a set of ideas shared by a group of scientists

about what natural world is composed of. Sociological theories do not share a common denominator rather so many theories contradict each other. For example, Functionalists and Marxists perspectives oppose each other on the dynamics of family.

While many sociologists view their field as a science, there are some who reject this claim. One notable critic is the sociologist Peter Berger, who argues that sociology cannot be considered a true science because it is too closely tied to the values and biases of the researcher. Berger argues that because sociology is ultimately a human-centered field, it is impossible to completely eliminate these biases. Other scholars, such as Anthony Giddens, have argued that sociology is a "social science" rather than a "science" in the traditional sense.

In addition to Berger and Giddens, other prominent sociologists who have challenged the scientific status of their field include C. Wright Mills and Alvin Gouldner. Mills, for example, argued that sociology is primarily a critical social science, rather than a scientific discipline. Gouldner took a more nuanced approach, suggesting that sociology could be considered a scientific discipline, but only to a limited extent. Ultimately, the debate over whether or not sociology is a science is ongoing, and there is no clear consensus among scholars.

There are several other notable scholars who have argued that sociology is not a science. One of the most prominent is Max Horkheimer, a sociologist and philosopher who was a leading figure in the Frankfurt School. Horkheimer argued that the scientific method is not well-suited to the study of human behavior, as it tends to reduce complex phenomena to simple, quantifiable data. He also argued that the scientific method is rooted in the same power structures that it purports to study, making it inherently biased.

Horkheimer's critique of the scientific method is based on his philosophical stance, known as critical theory. Critical theory is an approach that focuses on uncovering and challenging the power structures that shape our understanding of the world. For Horkheimer, the scientific method is inherently biased because it is based on the assumption that there is an objective reality that can be objectively studied. However, he argued that our understanding of reality is always shaped by our own experiences and perspectives. Therefore, he believed that a truly objective study of society was impossible.

In addition to Horkheimer, other scholars who have critiqued the scientific status of sociology include Michel Foucault and Pierre Bourdieu. Foucault was a French philosopher and historian who argued that the scientific method is rooted in power and control. He argued that knowledge is not objective, but rather is shaped by the interests of those in power. Bourdieu, a French sociologist, also critiqued the scientific method, arguing that it is impossible to separate the researcher from the object of study. He argued that all knowledge is produced within a social context, and is therefore subjective.

Another important critique of the scientific status of sociology comes from the field of postmodernism. Postmodernists, such as Jean-Francois Lyotard, argue that knowledge is not absolute or universal, but rather is contingent on our perspectives and experiences. They also argue that language itself is not objective, and that it shapes our

understanding of reality. Therefore, postmodernists argue that it is impossible to study society in an objective manner, as all knowledge is inherently subjective. This critique of the scientific status of sociology has been highly influential in the field of sociology, as well as in other disciplines.

This debate can be summarised in this way. A scientific knowledge is :

- Factual
- Objective
- Evidence based
- Testable.

Non scientific knowledge is based on :

- Opinion
- Guesswork
- Untested assumptions
- Faith.

However, Despite the debate over its scientific status, sociology has made significant contributions to our understanding of the world. One of the most notable examples is the work of Emile Durkheim, who is often considered the "father of sociology." Durkheim's work laid the foundation for many of the theories and methods that are used in sociology today. In addition, his research on suicide and social solidarity is still cited by sociologists and other scholars. In short, whether or not sociology is considered a science, it has had a profound impact on our understanding of human behavior and society. Whatever the arguments, what is important is that both science and sociology have the common theme of understanding and improving the world

End of unit 1.3 exercise questions

1. Define the term science (3)
 - b. Identify any four characteristics of a science subject (4)
 - c. Describe the relationship between sociology and other natural sciences [8]
 - d. Discuss the scientific nature of sociology (10)
-
1. Define sociology (3)
 - b. Describe any two characteristics of a science subject (4)
 - c. c. Distinguish between positivism and Intepretivisim (8)
 - d. Assess the positivist view that sociology is a science subject (10)

Unit 1. 4 : The relationship between sociology and other social sciences

Objectives

By the end of this unit, learners should be able to understand

- Elements of sociology found in other social sciences
- Assess the relationship between sociology and other social sciences
- Evaluate sociology as a science subject

Unit Introduction

Sociology is a social science that studies human society and social interactions. It is closely related to other social sciences such as psychology, economics, and political science, and the boundaries between these disciplines can often be blurred. This unit will explore the relationship between sociology and other social sciences, focusing on how they overlap, borrow from each other, and influence each other. Understanding this relationship is important for understanding sociology as a discipline and for developing a more holistic understanding of human behavior and society.

Psychology

To break down the relationship between sociology and other social sciences one by one. Let's start with psychology. Psychology and sociology both study human behavior, but psychology tends to focus on the individual level, while sociology tends to focus on the group level. For example, psychology might study how an individual's personality affects their behavior, while sociology might study how social norms affect group behavior. In addition to the level of analysis, another difference between psychology and sociology is their methods. Psychology often uses experiments and controlled studies to test theories, while sociology more often uses qualitative methods such as interviews and observation. However, both disciplines sometimes use both quantitative and qualitative methods. There is also some overlap between the two disciplines, such as social psychology, which combines the perspectives of both. Social psychology focuses on how individuals are influenced by and influence their social environment.

Key terms

Psychology : Psychology is the scientific study of human behavior and the mind. It is concerned with understanding how people think, feel, and behave.

Quantitative methods : are a type of research method that uses numbers and statistics to analyze data.

Qualitative methods: are a type of research method that uses words and stories to analyze data. participants

Another difference between sociology and psychology is their scope. While psychology tends to focus on the individual mind and behavior, sociology tends to focus on broader social structures and institutions. For example, sociology might study how social class influences individual behavior, while psychology might study how personality traits influence individual behavior. Both disciplines can help us understand human behavior, but they do so from different perspectives and with different methods.

However, Despite their differences, sociology and psychology also have some similarities. One key similarity is their shared interest in understanding human behavior. Both disciplines seek to understand why people think, feel, and act the way they do. In addition, both disciplines use scientific methods to gather and analyze data. And finally, both disciplines have a wide range of sub-disciplines that explore different aspects of human behavior. For example, there are sub-disciplines of sociology such as medical sociology and educational sociology, and there are sub-disciplines of psychology such as clinical psychology and educational psychology.

Another similarity between sociology and psychology is that both disciplines have roots in philosophy. In the 19th century, philosophers such as Karl Marx and Emile Durkheim laid the foundations for sociology, while philosophers such as Sigmund Freud and William James laid the foundations for psychology. Both disciplines were also influenced by the scientific revolution, which emphasized the use of empirical evidence and the scientific method. This shared philosophical heritage has shaped both disciplines and continues to influence them today. Another important similarity between sociology and psychology is their emphasis on the role of culture and social context in shaping human behavior.

Both disciplines recognize that individual behavior is influenced by the wider social world in which we live. In sociology, this is referred to as the social construction of reality, while in psychology it is often referred to as the cultural context of behavior. For example, a sociologist might study how poverty influences individual behavior, while a psychologist might study how cultural values influence behavior.

The two also share a common denominator in both sociology and psychology are concerned with how people interact with each other. In sociology, this is referred to as social interaction, while in psychology it is often referred to as social cognition. Both disciplines recognize that people are influenced by the people around them, and that these interactions can have a significant impact on behavior. For example, a sociologist might study how social networks influence individual behavior, while a psychologist might study how group dynamics influence individual behavior.

Economics

Economics is often considered a "hard science" like physics or chemistry, but it actually has a lot in common with sociology. Both disciplines study human behavior, and both are concerned with how people make decisions and interact with each other. Economics also shares some of the same methods and approaches as sociology, such as using surveys and experiments to collect data. In addition, economics has a sub-discipline called behavioral economics that focuses on how emotions and other psychological factors influence economic decisions. One key difference between economics and sociology is their focus on the individual versus the group. Economics tends to focus on the individual, while sociology tends to focus on the group. This difference can be seen in the way that economists and sociologists study inequality. Economists often use income or wealth to measure inequality, while sociologists tend to focus on other measures of inequality such as social class or status. This difference in focus can lead to different conclusions about the causes and consequences of inequality.

Another key difference is that economics is often concerned with efficiency, while sociology is often concerned with equity. Economists often focus on how to maximize efficiency - that is, how to allocate resources in the most efficient way possible. Sociologists, on the other hand, often focus on how to create a more just and equitable society. This difference in focus can lead to different policy recommendations. For example, economists might recommend policies that lead to economic growth, while sociologists might recommend policies that address inequality or poverty.

However, despite these differences, there are some important similarities between economics and sociology. Both disciplines recognize that human behavior is influenced by incentives. In economics, incentives are often financial, such as the price of a good or service. In sociology, incentives can be both financial and non-financial, such as social norms or expectations. Both disciplines also recognize that human behavior is not always rational, and that emotions and other psychological factors can influence how people make decisions. Finally, both disciplines seek to understand the world and make predictions about how it will change in the future. Another similarity is that both economics and sociology use mathematical models to understand and explain human behavior. In economics, these models are often based on principles of supply and demand or utility maximization. In sociology, these models are often based on network theory or social exchange theory. While the specific models used by economists and

sociologists may be different, both disciplines use mathematics to test hypotheses and make predictions. Finally, both disciplines recognize the importance of context, and the need to consider how social, political, and cultural factors can influence individual and group behavior.

Key terms

Economics : Economics is the study of how people and societies use their resources to produce, distribute, and consume goods and services.

Incentives : In economics, incentives are any factors that motivate people to take action. For example, a company might offer incentives such as bonuses or promotions to motivate employees to work harder while In sociology, incentives are factors that motivate people to change their behavior. For example, a government might offer incentives such as tax breaks or subsidies to encourage people to use renewable energy

Finally, economics and sociology are both disciplines that seek to improve the human condition. Economics focuses on improving material well-being, while sociology focuses on improving social well-being. However, these two goals are not always in conflict - for example, reducing poverty can improve both material and social well-being. Overall, while there are some important differences between economics and sociology, there are also many similarities. These two disciplines can learn from each other and work together to create a better understanding of the world and to improve the lives of individuals and societies.

Political Science

There are many similarities between political science and sociology. Both disciplines study human behavior, and both seek to understand and explain the world. Both disciplines also use quantitative and qualitative methods to collect and analyze data. Political science is unique in its focus on the political system and the behavior of individuals and groups within that system. Like sociology, political science is also concerned with understanding and improving the human condition. However, political science focuses specifically on how the political system can be used to achieve that goal.

One key similarity between political science and sociology is their interest in power and how it affects individual and group behavior. In sociology, this is often referred to as "power relations." In political science, this is often referred to as the "power structure." Both disciplines recognize that power can take many forms, including economic, cultural, and social. Another similarity is that both disciplines are interested in conflict and how it can be resolved. In sociology, this is often referred to as "conflict theory." In political science, this is often referred to as "conflict resolution."

Key terms

Conflict theory : is a social theory that suggests that conflict is an inevitable and suggests that the different groups in society are in constant competition for resources and power.

Conflict resolution : is the process of resolving these conflicts in a peaceful and constructive way. It often involves negotiation, compromise, and conflict management skills.

Political science : is the study of the systems and institutions that govern human society. It includes the study of governments, political parties, and political processes.

Another similarity between political science and sociology is their interest in social change. In sociology, this is often referred to as "social change theory." In political science, this is often referred to as "political development." Both disciplines recognize that social and political systems are dynamic, and that they can change over time. They also recognize that these changes can have a profound impact on individuals and groups. Finally, both disciplines are concerned with the distribution of resources and how that affects individual and group behavior. This is referred to as "resource distribution" in sociology and "resource allocation" in political science.

Anthropology

The relationship between sociology and anthropology is also quite close. Both disciplines are considered "social sciences" and share many of the same theories and methods. For example, both disciplines use ethnographic research to study human behavior and culture. However, there are also some important differences between the two disciplines. One key difference is that anthropology focuses on studying specific groups of people, while sociology studies the general patterns of human behavior. Another difference is that anthropology is typically more concerned with understanding the past, while sociology is more focused on the present.

Another difference between anthropology and sociology is their emphasis on theory. While both disciplines rely on theory to explain and understand human behavior, anthropology tends to use theories that are more holistic and systems-based, while sociology tends to use theories that are more variable-based. In addition, sociology tends to be more concerned with testing and confirming theories, while anthropology is more interested in exploring new ideas and developing new theories. Lastly, anthropology is more likely to be interested in studying cultures that are not Western, while sociology tends to focus more on Western cultures.

In terms of similarities, both sociology and anthropology are interested in social structure and social organization. Sociology tends to focus more on the macro level of social structure, while anthropology tends to focus more on the micro level. However, both disciplines recognize that social structure has an impact on individuals and groups. Additionally, both disciplines recognize that individuals and groups have the ability to shape and change social structure. Finally, both disciplines recognize that there is a reciprocal relationship between individuals and groups, and that social change is a two-way process.

The similarity between sociology and anthropology is their focus on values and norms. Both disciplines recognize that values and norms are central to understanding human behavior. In sociology, values and norms are often referred to as "social facts." In anthropology, they are often referred to as "cultural beliefs." Regardless of the terminology, both disciplines recognize that values and norms are learned and transmitted through socialization. They also recognize that values and norms can change over time. Finally, both disciplines recognize that values and norms vary across cultures.

For anthropology, Cultural relativism is the idea that each culture has its own set of beliefs and values that should be understood and respected. This concept is important in anthropology, as it helps to avoid ethnocentrism (the tendency to judge other cultures based on one's own cultural standards). An example of a study that used cultural relativism is Margaret Mead's work in Samoa. Mead observed that Samoan girls were not as "troubled" by puberty as American girls, and she attributed this difference to cultural factors.



One fascinating fact about cultural relativism is that it challenges the idea that there is one universal "right" way to live. Instead, cultural relativism argues that every culture has its own unique values and beliefs, and that no culture is inherently superior to any other. A culture that is often seen as strange and abusive is the Kayan people of Myanmar. The Kayan are known for the practice of neck elongation, in which women have brass rings placed around their necks to make them appear longer. This practice has been criticized by outsiders as harmful and unnecessary. However, the Kayan see it as a necessary part of their culture, and argue that it is not harmful when done correctly. Do you think outsiders should judge practices like this, or should they respect the cultural norms of the Kayan people?

Ethnography is a research method in which the researcher immerses themselves in a culture in order to learn about it firsthand. This is often done through participant observation, in which the researcher lives and works with the people they are studying. An example of an ethnographic study is the work of Bronislaw Malinowski, who lived with the Trobriand Islanders for several years. Malinowski's work gave us a rich understanding of the Trobriand culture, including their kinship system, social organization, and religious beliefs.

Key terms

Anthropology : it is the study of cultures.

Culture Culture : is a set of shared values, beliefs, and behaviors that characterize a particular group of people

Finally, sociology and anthropology emphasize the importance of fieldwork in their research. Fieldwork is a type of research in which the researcher spends time in the field, directly observing and interacting with the people they are studying. This type of research is essential for understanding the nuances of culture and social behavior. Fieldwork is a major component of both disciplines, and it is often considered the most important method of data collection. In sum, while there are some differences between the two disciplines, there are also many similarities. These similarities make sociology and anthropology complementary fields of study.

Key term

Cultural relativism : approach is based on the belief that all cultures have value and should be respected.

Ethnography : It involves the researcher spending time living with and observing a group of people, often for an extended period of time which allows the researcher to gain a deep understanding of the group's culture and way of life. In many cases, ethnographic research leads to insights that would not be possible through other research methods.

Elements of sociology that can be found in other social sciences.

There are many elements of sociology that can be found in other social sciences. For example, psychology is concerned with understanding individual behavior and the mind, but it also incorporates concepts from sociology such as socialization and culture. Similarly, political science is concerned with the systems and institutions that govern society, but it also incorporates concepts from sociology such as power and social stratification. In fact, many of the major social sciences borrow heavily from each other, and they often intersect in areas such as criminology, education, and gender studies. Subjectivity refers to the fact that sociologists' perspectives and experiences can influence their research and interpretation of data. In other words, their findings may be influenced by their personal biases or preconceptions. This is in contrast to objectivity, which refers to the idea that sociological research should be unbiased and free from personal biases.

The next element is objectivity. As mentioned above, objectivity is the goal of all scientific research, including sociology. Objectivity is the idea that research should be conducted in an unbiased and impartial manner. It involves using reliable and valid methods to collect data something common in psychology.

The next element is reliability. Reliability refers to the consistency of a research study. It is important to ensure that a study is reliable To illustrate reliability, let's use the same example of the effect of poverty on educational attainment. To ensure that the study is reliable, the sociologist would need to use consistent measures of educational attainment and poverty. For example, they might use standardized test scores and federal poverty guidelines. If the study is reliable, then it should produce the same results if it is replicated by another researcher.

The next element is use of theories. In sociology, theories are used to help explain and understand social phenomena. They are not proven facts, but rather tools for understanding and explaining social phenomena. For example, the functionalist theory in sociology suggests that social institutions are like organs in a body, and they all work together to keep society functioning. So for example, in the study of the effect of poverty on educational attainment, the functionalist theory might suggest that poverty

leads to lower educational attainment because it interferes with the ability of students to function in school. This theory might help to explain some of the findings from the study. One theory that psychology uses is the theory of attachment. The theory of attachment was first proposed by John Bowlby, and it suggests that humans have an innate need to form close bonds with others. This theory has been supported by a number of studies, including the famous "Strange Situation" experiment, which showed that infants form attachments to their caregivers. The theory of attachment is just one example of a psychological theory that has been supported by scientific research. Other examples include the theory of cognitive dissonance, the theory of learned helplessness, and the theory of operant conditioning.

Another element is the use of scientific methods. Scientific methods are used in sociology to help ensure that research is objective and reliable. For example, scientific methods might include the use of surveys, experiments. One psychological theory that could be applied to the Milgram experiment is the theory of obedience to authority. This theory suggests that people are more likely to obey an authority figure, even if they are told to do something that goes against their own morals or beliefs. This theory helps to explain the results of the Milgram experiment, as most participants obeyed the authority figure even when it went against their own morals. Other theories that could be applied to the experiment include the theory of cognitive dissonance, which suggests that people will change their beliefs to align with their behavior.

End up of unit 4.1 exercise questions

1. a Define the term Social science (3)
- b. Identify any four social sciences besides sociology
- c. Explain any four elements of sociology found in other social sciences

Unit 5.1 Theoretical Perspectives

Objectives

By the end of this unit, learners should be able to

- identify the perspectives in sociology
- Examine the pespectives in sociology

Unit Introduction

Sociological theories are vital tools for understanding and explaining the social world. By developing and testing theories, sociologists gain a deeper understanding of the social forces that shape our lives. Theories help us to identify patterns and relationships, and to make predictions about the future. Sociological theories are not just abstract ideas - they are practical tools that allow us to make sense of the complex and ever-changing social world. By developing these theories, sociologists can examine how society functions and identify areas for improvement. By applying these theories, we can make predictions about the future and address social issues such as poverty, inequality, and discrimination. In order to study society, we turn to sociological theories who are our fomulars we apply to understand society as well as addressing sociological issues. In this unit , we are going to discuss various theoretical perspectives.

Defining theory and perspective.

A theory is a set of ideas or principles that are used to explain and understand a phenomenon. A perspective is a particular way of looking at a phenomenon. In sociology, there are several different theoretical perspectives, including functionalism, conflict theory, and symbolic interactionism. Each perspective provides a unique lens for understanding the world around us.

Macro and micro level analysis

The theories of sociology can be grouped into macro (structural) and micro (social action) theories. Macro might mean big and micro means small, thus, macro theories study society as a whole with its structured such as culture, education, family, religion and heath while micro theories ignore social structures and focuses on individual and small scale interactions. Another key difference between the micro and macro

perspectives is their focus on agency and structure. Micro-level sociology emphasizes the agency of individuals, meaning their ability to make their own decisions and shape their own lives. Macro-level sociology focuses more on the social structures that limit or enable individual agency. This means that micro-level sociology often focuses on how individuals adapt to or resist social structures, while macro-level sociology looks at how social structures are created and maintained.

Key terms

Structure : refers to the social structures and institutions that shape individuals' lives.

Agency: refers to the capacity of individuals to act and make

A further key difference is that micro-level sociology is often more concerned with the subjective experiences of individuals. For example, a micro-level study of poverty might examine how it feels to live in poverty, and how individuals cope with the challenges of poverty. Macro-level sociology, on the other hand, is more likely to look at the objective facts of poverty, such as the number of people living in poverty, and the causes and consequences of poverty at a societal level. This doesn't mean that micro-level sociology ignores objective facts, or that macro-level sociology ignores subjective experiences, but they have different emphases.

One of the key ideas in the micro perspective is the idea of free will. This is the idea that individuals have the capacity to make choices and act independently of social forces. In contrast, macro perspectives tend to see human behavior as more deterministic, meaning that it is shaped by social structures and institutions. This is one of the key differences between the two perspectives.

Key term

institutions : structures of society such as family, education and religion.

Another difference is the methods that are used in each type of sociology. Micro-level sociology often uses qualitative methods such as interviews, observations, and focus groups. This allows for a deeper understanding of the experiences and motivations of individuals. Macro-level sociology tends to use more quantitative methods such as surveys and statistical analysis. This allows for a broader view of the social structures and trends that affect individuals.

Key terms

Quantitative methods: Quantitative methods use numerical data to describe social phenomena, qualitative methods

Qualitative methods : use non-numerical data such as words, images, or observations to describe social phenomena.

The distinction between micro and macro perspectives can be thought of as a debate about which is more important: the individual or society. Micro perspectives emphasize the agency of individuals and their ability to make choices and shape their own lives. They tend to see individuals as more important as the driving force behind social change. Macro perspectives, on the other hand, emphasize the importance influence of social structures and institutions on individuals. They tend to see social structures as the driving force behind social change.

Another way to look at this distinction is to think about structure and agency. Structure refers to the social structures and institutions that shape individuals' lives. Agency refers to the capacity of individuals to act and make choices. The micro perspective focuses more on agency, while the macro perspective focuses more on structure. But both structure and agency are important in understanding how society works.

Debate

Who is more important society or individuals? Give reasons in support of your answer.

The micro perspective sees society as a product of individuals' actions and choices, while the macro perspective sees individuals as products of the society they live in. These two perspectives are not necessarily contradictory, but they do highlight different aspects of the relationship between individuals and society. I to understand both perspectives in order to fully understand how society works.

Let's start with the first similarity: both perspectives are concerned with understanding human behavior. The micro perspective focuses on how individuals think, feel, and behave, while the macro perspective focuses on how social structures and institutions shape human behavior. But both perspectives recognize that understanding human behavior is essential to understanding society.

While macro and micro pespectives are different, they do however have important similarities, both perspectives rely on empirical methods, meaning methods that are based on real-world observations and data. Micro perspectives often use qualitative methods such as interviews and observations, while macro perspectives often use quantitative methods such as surveys and statistical analysis. But both types of methods are important for understanding society.

Key terms

Perspective : a point of view that provides an explanation for society.

Theory : set of ideas that explains society

Another similarity between the two perspectives is that they both recognize the importance of social context in shaping human behavior. The micro perspective focuses on the individual level of social context, such as the family, while the macro perspective focuses on the societal level of social context, such as the economy or government. But both perspectives recognize that social context is an important factor in understanding human behavior.

Also, the similarity between the micro and macro perspectives is that they both recognize the importance of history and historical context. The micro perspective recognizes that individuals' past experiences and circumstances influence their current behavior, while the macro perspective recognizes that history and historical trends shape the development of societies. For example, the micro perspective might look at how a person's childhood experiences influence their current behavior, while the macro perspective might look at how economic trends or historical events have shaped the development of a country.

Finally, both perspectives have implications for social policy and social change. Micro perspectives can inform policies and interventions that are targeted at the individual level, such as education or health programs. Macro perspectives can inform policies and interventions that are targeted at the societal level, such as welfare. One great example of this is the concept of "generational effects," which comes from the micro perspective. Generational effects refer to the idea that the experiences of previous generations can have an impact on the current generation. For example, the experiences of the "Greatest Generation" (those who lived through the Great Depression and World War II) had a significant impact on the Baby Boomer generation (those born after the war). These generational effects can influence everything from political attitudes to economic behavior.

Activity

In class explore the different between micro and macro theories (10)

Compare and contrast micro and macro sociological theories (10)

Identify two micro and two macro perspectives (4)

Macro (structural) theories

Having discussed macro and micro perspectives, it is important for learners to understand macro theories in detail. The first macro theory to be discussed is

Functionalism

This was the first theory that was developed to explain human behavior. This theory can be termed consensus theory since it is based on the idea that there is value consensus in society. The theory has its prominent figures such as Auguste Comte, Emile Durkheim, Herbert Spencer, Talcott Parsons among others. Functionalism is a theoretical perspective that sees society as a complex system of interrelated parts, each of which serves a specific function in maintaining the stability of the whole. This perspective was first articulated by the French sociologist Emile Durkheim, who argued that social institutions such as religion, education, and the economy played an important role in maintaining social order. He believed that each institution had its own specific function, and that if any of these institutions were to break down, it would have a destabilizing effect on society. Functionalism has the following basic ideas we can extract from its prominent figures.

Key term

Functionalism : a theory that sees almost everything as functional for the benefit of society.

Emile Durkheim

Durkheim is regarded as one of the influential functionalist sociologist who has raised the following functionalist core ideas;

Social solidarity

Durkheim believed that society is characterized by social solidarity than conflict. He referred it as the bonds that hold a society together, which are an important part of maintaining social order. He argued that there were two types of social solidarity: mechanical solidarity, which is based on shared traditions and beliefs, and organic solidarity, which is based on the division of labor and interdependence. He believed that modern societies were characterized by organic solidarity, as they were more complex and specialized than traditional societies. Social solidarity refers to the sense of unity and common purpose that exists within a society. Durkheim saw this as being based on

a shared set of beliefs and values, which he called "collective consciousness." He believed that this collective consciousness was what held society together and prevented it from breaking down into chaos. In contrast, social order refers to the way in which society is structured and organized, including the laws and norms that govern behavior. Durkheim also believed that social institutions like religion and education played an important role in preventing anomie by reinforcing social norms and values. However, some have argued that these institutions are less effective in modern societies, as they are no longer seen as the primary source of social order. Durkheim saw social order as being based on the idea of "functional interdependence," meaning that each part of society depended on the other parts for its functioning.

Key term

Social solidarity: solidarity refers to the sense of unity and common purpose that exists within a group.

Anomie : Anomie refers to a situation where there is a breakdown in the social norms and values that guide behavior

Important idea in Durkheim's functionalist perspective is the concept of anomie. This can lead to a lack of regulation and a feeling of uncertainty and instability. Anomie is a term coined by Durkheim to describe a state of normlessness (absence of norms). It comes from a Greek word anomia meaning without law or without regulation. It is argued that the transition from small-scale to industrial societies led to a decline in common morality. Individuals are said to be experiencing anomie because of sufficient moral restraints because they have no clear concept of what is and what is not proper behavior. Durkheim went on to an extent of arguing that extreme anomie might lead individuals to commit suicide.

Durkheim believed that anomie could result from rapid social change or a lack of shared values. He used the example of suicide rates in times of war or economic crisis to illustrate how anomie could have negative consequences for individuals and society. One modern example of anomie that Durkheim might have recognized is the concept of "moral panic." Moral panic occurs when a group or idea is seen as a threat to the status quo, and society reacts with exaggerated fear or outrage. This can lead to a breakdown in social norms and a lack of trust in institutions. One example of this might be the public reaction to the COVID-19 pandemic, which led to a divide between those who followed public health guidelines and those who refused to do so.

Key term

Anomie : Anomie is a concept developed by Durkheim to describe a situation where the norms and values that provide social order have broken down, leading to a state of

chaos.

Social constraints

Durkheim believed that social constraints, or the rules and norms that guide behavior, were an important part of maintaining social order. These constraints could be formal, such as laws, or informal, such as social norms and expectations. Durkheim saw these constraints as being essential for preventing anomie and ensuring that individuals behaved in ways that were consistent with the overall goals of society. He argued that without these constraints, individuals would be left to pursue their own self-interest without regard for the common good.

Durkheim saw moral codes as an essential part of social order, since they provide individuals with a clear understanding of what is right and wrong. Durkheim believed that moral codes are learned through socialization, and that they help to create a sense of solidarity and cohesion within a society. Durkheim distinguished between two types of moral codes: repressive and restitutive. Repressive moral codes are based on a system of punishments and rewards that enforce conformity, while restitutive moral codes are based on a system of compensation and forgiveness that focuses on repairing social relations.

Key terms

Social constraints : rules and norms that guide behavior.

Moral codes : A moral code is a set of rules and principles that govern individual behavior and determine what is right and wrong.

Durkheim believed that repressive moral codes were more effective at maintaining social order in traditional, less complex societies. However, he argued that these types of moral codes were less suited to modern, industrialized societies, where individuals have more freedom and choice. In these societies, Durkheim believed that restitutive moral codes were more effective at maintaining social order, since they allowed individuals to make mistakes and learn from them without facing severe punishment. One interesting point about Durkheim's view of social constraints is that he saw them as being beneficial for both the individual and society as a whole. He believed that without constraints, individuals would feel lost and disconnected from society. At the same time, without constraints, society would become unstable and chaotic. In this way, social constraints were seen as a kind of "social glue" that held individuals and society together.

Social facts

One of Durkheim's most important contributions to sociology was his concept of "social facts." Durkheim defined social facts as "ways of acting, thinking and feeling" that are external to the individual and exist in society independently of their will. Durkheim saw social facts as being created through the collective actions of individuals and having a coercive power over individuals. An example of a social fact might be the norm of shaking hands when meeting someone new. This is something that is not determined by any one individual, but exists in society as a whole.

Another example of a social fact might be the idea of "fashion." Fashion is not determined by any one individual, but is rather the result of collective trends and influences. In a sense, the way people dress is dictated by social norms rather than individual preferences. Similarly, social facts can also include things like laws, religious beliefs, and even language. These are all things that exist independently of any one individual and can have a significant impact on people's lives.

Durkheim proposed two main types of social facts: material and non-material. Material social facts are things like economic systems, laws, and institutions. Non-material social facts are things like norms, values, and beliefs. Durkheim believed that both types of social facts were important in shaping society. For example, material social facts like economic systems provide the framework within which individuals operate, while non-material social facts like values and beliefs shape people's attitudes and behaviors.

Activity

Describe two types of social facts proposed by Durkheim (4)

Impact of society on suicide

Durkheim's most famous work, "Suicide: A Study in Sociology," was a study of suicide rates in different societies. Durkheim found that suicide rates were not just a result of individual psychological factors, but were also influenced by social factors such as religion, social integration, and social regulation. Durkheim's study of suicide was significant because it demonstrated the importance of social facts in shaping individual behavior. It also showed how social factors could have a powerful influence on mental health and well-being.

Some of the findings from Durkheim's study of suicide have been supported by later research. For example, one study found that suicide rates in the United States are higher in states with lower levels of social cohesion and religious affiliation. This finding supports Durkheim's theory that social integration and regulation are important factors in preventing suicide.

Key terms

Psychological factors : Some of the most common psychological factors associated with suicide include depression, anxiety, and other mental health conditions.

Suicide: Intentional and unintentional act of taking one's own life.

One of the most significant contributions of Durkheim's study of suicide was his classification of different types of suicide. Durkheim identified four main types of suicide: egoistic, altruistic, anomic, and fatalistic. Egoistic suicide is caused by a lack of social integration, while altruistic suicide is caused by excessive social integration. Anomic suicide is caused by a lack of regulation, and fatalistic suicide is caused by excessive regulation. Each of these types of suicide can be explained by social factors rather than individual psychological factors.

Herbert Spencer

Herbert Spencer was a British philosopher and sociologist who was a contemporary of Emile Durkheim. He is often considered one of the founders of functionalism, although he did not use the term himself. Spencer was influenced by Charles Darwin's theory of evolution, and he applied Darwin's ideas about natural selection to society. He argued that societies evolve over time and that the most successful societies are those that adapt and change the most. In this way, Spencer's ideas about evolution and functionalism are closely linked. He made the below contributions.

Society as a system

Do you still remember an eco-system where the parts of the ecosystem works in harmony for the relative survival of the system? For example, sunlight is responsible for a process called photosynthesis; the green plants are sometimes described as producers and animals as consumers. If a single part is disturbed, the whole system can be dysfunctional. In this case, each part plays a positive function in the smooth function of the system as a whole.

Functionalism adopted a similar gesture; it sees society as a system with interconnected parts, which work in harmony for the survival of society. It sees the structures of society as playing a positive contribution to the survival of the society, for example, family and education. The family produces school members for instance, and without the family, they will be no education as an institution. Since all parts of an ecosystem depend on each other for the survival of the system, society has a network of parts similar to an ecosystem such as a family, without a family, there will be no society or other institutions like education, without education there will be no health as an institution. The entire network is traced from the family, and this is similar to an

ecosystem; all parts are networked to sunlight.

A fun fact about functionalism is that it can be applied to things that might seem mundane or insignificant. For example, functionalists have argued that chewing gum can serve a functional purpose in society. Chewing gum can help people feel more alert and focused, and it can also reduce stress. So something as simple as chewing gum can have important social functions. How about the example of shopping malls? Functionalists have argued that malls serve several functions in society. First, they provide a place for people to gather and interact. Second, they provide a place for people to buy things they need. Third, they can serve as a source of entertainment. And fourth, they can provide jobs for people who work in them. So even something like a shopping mall can have multiple functions in society. A great example of this is the function of conflict in society. At first glance, conflict might seem like a negative thing. However, functionalists argue that conflict can actually be beneficial. For example, conflict can lead to social change and innovation. It can also help to clarify values and goals, and it can encourage people to work together to solve problems. So while conflict might seem negative, it can actually serve a positive function in society. What do you think about this argument? Another negative function that can be considered positive is deviance. Deviance is any behavior that violates social norms. While this might seem like a negative thing, it can actually be positive. For example, deviance can challenge authority and encourage creativity. It can also lead to social change. A classic example of this is the civil rights movement in the United States. The movement was seen as deviant at the time, but it ultimately led to important changes in society.

Organic analogy

Early functionalists such as Spencer often drew an analogy between society and an organism, for example, the human body. They argued that society is like an organism such as a human body. A human body has several parts, for example, the lungs, heart, legs, etc. This plays a positive function for the survival of the human body as a whole. Just like a human body, society has several parts like family, religion and education which play a positive contribution to the survival of the society. For example, a family produces the members of the society; hence, the family benefits society as a whole. What an interesting analysis; to understand society, look at the human body; it has parts like lungs and they play a positive role for the benefit of the body as a whole. Similarly, society has parts like religion, all parts play positive functions for the society. Still on organic analogy, functionalism argues that a human body has basic needs that must be met for it to survive, for example, food, clothes etc. Without those basic needs, the human body will cease to function. Just like a human body, society has also basic needs (functional prerequisites) that must be met for it to survive for example culture: without culture, society will cease to exist

Talcott Parsons (1951)



Talcott Parsons (1951)

Talcott Parsons was an American sociologist who was heavily influenced by the work of Herbert Spencer. Like Spencer, Parsons also applied Darwin's theory of evolution to the study of society. However, he added his own unique perspective by focusing on the role of values and norms in shaping social systems. Parsons is perhaps best known for his theory of action, which states that human action is guided by a set of values and norms that are shared by society.

A fun fact about Talcott Parsons is that he had a very distinctive style of dress. He was known for wearing bow ties, three-piece suits, and spats (a type of shoe cover). He also had a very distinctive hairstyle, with a widow's peak and thinning hair on the sides. Some people joked that he looked like a cartoon character! But despite his unique style, Parsons was a serious and influential scholar.

Social order

Like Durkheim, Parsons believe that society is characterized by the social order . Talcott believed that society is a social system and argued that the central task of sociology is to analyze society as a system. This system has functionally interrelated variables. Parsons (like Durkheim and Comte before him) was preoccupied with maintaining order

in the social system. For example, during socialization, the basic objective is the inculcation of norms and values of the social system. Parsons assumed that individuals are passive during the socialization process and thus he concentrated on analyzing how the order is maintained. This made him conclude that human behavior is structured in society. He argued that society is characterized by mutual advantage and peaceful cooperation rather than mutual hostility and distraction. He believes that order is based on culture and culture provides bases for human behavior.

Value Consensus

Parsons believes that the culture of society is agreed upon and the members of society are committed and attached to the same values. They share a common identity and behavior patterns hence; order is reached in society. According to Parsons, the main task of sociology is to value consensus produced in society.

The role of social institutions is to maintain social order in society by socializing people into societal culture. He therefore, argued that humans behave according to the expectations of society. Parson is assuming that everything is agreed upon in a society, he is saying there is cooperation and agreement in society and no force is applied. He argues that society has goals that must enable society to run smoothly and believes that society has four functional pre-requisite/ basic needs that are performed by social institutions.

Key term

Value consensus : is a concept in sociology that refers to the shared values and norms that exist within a society. This consensus is what allows a society to function smoothly and maintain stability.

The organic analogy : is a concept developed by the sociologist Emile Durkheim, who used the metaphor of the human body to describe how society functions.

Functional prerequisite : is a concept in sociology that refers to the basic needs or functions that a society must meet in order to survive and maintain stability.

The four prerequisites of Parsons' social system are adaptation, goal attainment, integration, and latency. Adaptation refers to the ability of society to adapt to environmental changes. Goal attainment refers to the ability of society to achieve its goals. Integration refers to the way in which individuals are integrated into society. Latency refers to the ability of society to regulate tension and maintain stability. These four prerequisites are all essential to the functioning of society, according to Parsons.

Criticism of functionalism

The first criticism, that functionalism is overly deterministic, means that it does not allow for the possibility of individual choice or free will. According to this view, society is like a machine with parts that are all connected and work together, and individuals are simply cogs in that machine. This does not leave any room for individuals to make their own decisions or change the course of society.

The second criticism, that functionalism ignores inequality and conflict, means that it creates an idealized view of society that ignores the real problems that people face. According to this view, functionalism presents society as being harmonious and well-functioning, when in reality it is often divided and unequal.

The other criticism of functionalism from a sociological perspective is that it is too focused on explaining how society works rather than asking why it works the way it does. In other words, functionalism does not focus on the causes of social problems, but rather on how those problems are managed. This can lead to a static view of society, as functionalists may assume that society will always function in the same way. Critics also argue that functionalism ignores the role of power and conflict in shaping society.

Another criticism of functionalism is that it downplays the role of individuals in shaping society. Critics argue that individuals have agency, or the ability to make choices and influence the world around them. Functionalism, on the other hand, sees individuals as being shaped by society rather than the other way around. As such, functionalism can neglect the role of agency and free will.

Gouldner criticized functionalists for assuming that society is characterized by social order and tends to ignore the extent to which individuals are coerced to do things they do not want to do in society.

While functionalists believe that human behavior is totally programmed in society, Mead, is of the view that human behavior is not totally structured in the sense that individuals possess free will.

Functionalism is criticized for exaggerating that social order is based on consensus and tends to ignore that order can be maintained through force e.g , military force.

Another criticism of functionalism is that it can lead to the "functionalist fallacy." This fallacy occurs when a functionalist explanation is used to justify the status quo and prevent any change. For example, if a functionalist were to explain poverty by saying that it is a necessary part of society, they would be committing the functionalist fallacy. Critics argue that this type of thinking can prevent society from making any progress or addressing social problems. A specific example of the functionalist fallacy can be found in the work of early functionalists like Emile Durkheim. Durkheim argued that crime was necessary for society, as it helped to define the boundaries of acceptable behavior. However, this explanation could be used to justify a high crime rate and prevent any

efforts to reduce crime. A more modern example would be the idea that inequality is necessary for society to function, as it provides an incentive for people to work hard and contribute to the economy. Critics argue that this is a fallacy that justifies inequality rather than seeking to address it.

Key term

Functionalist fallacy : as we mentioned, the functionalist fallacy is the idea that explaining a social problem in functionalist terms can lead to the acceptance of that problem as inevitable and unchangeable.

When it comes to the unit of analysis, functionalism has been criticized for focusing on the "macro" level, or the social system as a whole, rather than the "micro" level, or the individual. This means that functionalism often fails to consider how individual experiences shape society. For example, if a functionalist were to study education, they might focus on how the education system functions, but they might not consider how an individual student's experience in school affects their life and their future.

Exercise question

Read the passage below and attempt given questions

1. The belief is that , society is a system therefore the parts of society can not be studied in isolation rather they can be studied in relation to other parts .The assumption is that , there is an interdependence of social institutions that form the whole .Parson assumed that the role of sociology is to study these institutions work together for the benefit of society as whole .

a)Identify the theoretical perspective projected by the above data response and give two reasons in support of your answer (3)

b)Identify any four basic ideas of functionalism (4)

c)From functionalist view point , describe how human behaviour is shaped by society (8)

d)Discuss the relevance and applicability of functionalism in explaining Zimbabwean situation (10)

Marxism

A fun fact about Karl Marx is that he was not very good at managing money! He was constantly in debt, and he often relied on the financial support of friends and family to make ends meet. His wife, Jenny von Westphalen, even pawned her jewelry to support the family at one point. Despite his poor financial skills, Marx was a brilliant thinker and writer, and his ideas continue to influence people around the world.

Marxism is another macro theoretical perspective. It is a social and economic theory developed by Karl Marx. Marx argued that society is made up of two main classes, the bourgeoisie (the owners of capital and means of production) and the proletariat (the working class). He believed that the bourgeoisie exploited the proletariat and that this conflict was the driving force of history. Unlike functionalism that is a consensus theory, Marxism is a conflict theory that is of the view that there is no consensus in society but conflict. Functionalism is a traditional theory that mirrors what society is but Marxism is a critical theory that tries to change society.

Key terms

Bourgeoisie: property owners who enjoy privileges

Proletariat: subordinate group that does not own property

Marx is seeing conflicts not consensus in society. Marx saw society as having a material base, which works in the production of good infrastructure. He sees society as passing through four main stages which are determined by economic forces the first stage is

Primitive communism society According to Marx, primitive communism was a stage of society that existed before class divisions developed. In this stage, there was no private property and no economic inequality. Marx believed that primitive communism was characterized by cooperation and equality. He saw it as a more "natural" state of society, before the development of class conflict and the division of labor. In Marx's view, primitive communism was eventually destroyed by the emergence of private property and social stratification.

Key terms**Social stratification** : A division of society into classes basing on wealth

The next stage in Marx's theory is the stage of **slavery and feudalism**. Marx believed that this stage was characterized by the rise of a ruling class that owned the means of production. In this stage, the ruling class exploited the working class, who had no control over their labor. This stage lasted until the rise of capitalism, which Marx saw as the next stage of development. One of the main features of the stage of slavery and feudalism was the emergence of a ruling class that owned the means of production. This ruling class controlled the economy and exploited the working class, who were forced to sell their labor in order to survive. Marx believed that this led to the development of a "surplus value," which is the difference between the value of the goods produced by the working class and the wages they were paid. Marx saw this surplus value as a form of exploitation, and believed it was the basis of the conflict between the ruling class and the working class. People were forced to work for the ruling class in order to gain a living. They were not paid for their work. However, feudalism was replaced by capitalism.

The next stage in Marx's theory is the **stage of capitalism**. In this stage, Marx saw the rise of the bourgeoisie as a revolutionary force that overthrew the feudal system. However, he also believed that capitalism was a system that was inherently unstable and would eventually be replaced by socialism. Marx identified several key features of capitalism. Firstly, capitalism is based on the principle of "commodity production," in which goods are produced for exchange rather than for use. Secondly, Marx believed that capitalism is characterized by the separation of labor from the means of production. Thirdly, Marx argued that capitalism leads to the "accumulation of capital," in which the wealth of the bourgeoisie grows at the expense of the working class. Fourthly, Marx believed that capitalism leads to the "polarization of society," in which the wealth gap between the ruling class and the working class widens.

Key terms

Capitalism : is an economic system in which resources and means of producing goods and services are privately owned (Macionis and Plummer 2005)

Polarization of classes: wealth gap between the ruling class and the working class widens.

Capitalism is an economic system in which resources and means of producing goods and services are privately owned (Macdonis and Plummer 2005). The common characteristics of capitalism are: private ownership of property, pursuit of personal profit (greed) and free competition, consumer sovereignty and markets (laissez-faire approach, no government regulation and interference in the market). Marx highlighted the problems of the capitalist mode of production and the classes that it formed. In a capitalist society, people are free to sell their labor in return for low wages hence exploitation. Capitalism is characterized by conflict between two major classes over scarce resources and wage disputes. Another key feature of capitalism identified by Marx is the "commodification of labor."

Marx believed that under capitalism, labor becomes a commodity that is bought and sold on the market like any other product. This leads to the "proletarianization" of the working class, in which workers are reduced to a "wage-earning class" with no control over their own labor. Finally, Marx believed that capitalism is characterized by the "alienation" of workers from their labor, as they do not control the product of their labor or have any say in how it is used. Workers in a capitalist society are alienated or do not control themselves from their work in the following ways; they work for the ruling class, have no control over their work and do not own what they have produced.

A fun fact about capitalism is that it has its own creation myth! The story goes that in 1688, a French man named Antoine-Nicholas de Condorcet imagined a fictional society called "Eutopia" in which the economy was based on the idea of private property and individual rights. This story has been called the "myth of capitalism," because it helped to spread the idea of capitalism as a natural and inevitable system. Do you think this myth was important in shaping the modern world?. One interesting thing about this idea is that it was one of the first examples of "utopian socialism." Utopian socialism is a tradition of thought that imagines idealized societies in which everyone is equal and there is no poverty or social problems. While it may seem unrealistic, utopian socialism has been influential in the development of socialism and communism.

Key term

Alienation: Marx's concept of alienation refers to the psychological and social consequences of class division and exploitation. He believed that under capitalism, workers become alienated from their labor, from each other, and from themselves. This is because they do not own the products of their labor, they work in isolation from others, and they are not allowed to express their individuality or creativity. This sense of alienation can lead to feelings of powerlessness and hopelessness, which can have negative consequences for individuals and society as a whole.

Marx further argues that the ruling class makes profit at the expense of the working class hence exploitation. He sees the working class as suffering from the false class-consciousness (unaware of their exploitation). The ruling class relies on false class-consciousness to monopolize power. Marx said "capitalism is characterized by the base (infrastructure) and superstructure and in this case, the superstructure is determined by the infrastructure.

According to Marx, the superstructure and infrastructure are two key concepts in understanding society. The superstructure includes things like law, politics, religion, and art, while the infrastructure includes the means of production and the class structure of society. Marx argued that the superstructure is determined by the infrastructure, and that the superstructure serves to legitimize and perpetuate the class system. However, he also believed that the superstructure has the ability to influence the infrastructure over time.

Key terms

False class consciousness :Unawareness of their exploitation

Superstructure: institution and laws of society

Infrastructure: forces of production such as land

The role of the superstructure is to justify inequality by instilling false class-consciousness, it is used to transmit capitalist values (ideologies, beliefs). The superstructure reflects the values of the ruling class.

Contrary to Functionalism, Marx saw the superstructure as playing a negative contribution in society since it perpetuates class conflicts for example, religion says God created the rich and the poor hence justifying inequality.

Advanced communism society

This is the last stage of societal change. This is an advanced communism predicted by Marx, which is yet to come. This is characterized by equality; no classes and people are equal. Marx predicted that one day society would reach this stage. For example; in Zimbabwe, we are witnessing opposition parties and trade unions, which are in opposition with the ruling class. This in its own shows that Zimbabwe is probably heading to a communism society when taking the views of Marx into consideration. Advanced communism, also known as "full communism" or "higher phase communism," is a theoretical stage of communism that has never been achieved in practice. In advanced communism, the state is supposed to "wither away" and there is no need for money, classes, or even government. Marx believed that advanced communism would

be the final stage in the development of human society.

One fascinating fact about advanced communism is that it has been a source of inspiration for many science fiction writers. For example, the novel "Star Trek" is often described as a vision of a communist society in the future, with its lack of money and class distinctions. In addition, the novels of Ursula Le Guin, such as "The Dispossessed," explore the idea of advanced communism in great detail.

Do you think advanced communism is possible, or is it just a utopian fantasy?

Marxism critique

From the above basic ideas of Marxism, it is no doubt that Marx made a great and critical contribution to sociology. Judging from Marx's interpretations, his ideas are still relevant, alive and kicking in the modern industrial world. However, like any other theorist his contribution has been hotly debated. Let us see the criticism leveled against Marx.

Critics have argued that Marxism tends to over-exaggerate the importance of economic factors in determining change. He said the economic base (infrastructure) is responsible for changing all structures of society. He said it is the changes in the economic setup that changes institutions like the family. To Weber, social institution can also change the economic base for example, religion.

According to Marx individual behavior is influenced by the economic system. He ignores the extent to which individuals make free choices as suggested by Mead.

Marxism over emphasized class conflicts and pays little attention to gender, age and educational background conflicts that prevail in society.

Neo Marx dismissed his concept of superstructure and infrastructure. Raymond Williams for example, argues that the concept of infrastructure and superstructure is misleading because not all superstructures are controlled by the state some are independent from the state.

Look at some forms of religions which go against the state, in the case, this observation weakens Marxist claim that all superstructures are controlled by the state.

Another area that was hotly debated, is concept of a classless society was not only criticized or debated but was dismissed.

Critics have argued that history was not born out of the promises of communism society contained in Marx's writing. For example, communism society was once developed in Eastern Europe in 1980s but did not kick off and it then died a natural death.

While Marx said that revolution will be possible when the working class gained class-consciousness like what happened in 1789 in France. Neo Marxist portrayed his dream as a myth in the sense that proletariats have some awareness of their exploitation but they cannot revolt because the ruling class uses military power and laws to stop revolutionary movements hence a communism society will remain Marx's dream.

In an as Marx saw equality in his dream. According to Mosca, the concept of the ruler and the ruled is inevitable. Stratification is the main feature of the society hence dismissing the Marxist claim that the equality will come one day.

Functionalist ideas can also be used to go against Marx as Parsons believes that society needs some form of authority for it to function smoothly, hence he would not believe that a classless society is the ideal.

Although Marx saw the working class forming trade unions, which will organize its membership into revolutionary movements. Karl Popper has a different view he saw trade unionism in dialogue terms with the employer to prevent revolutions not encouraging revolutions thus trade unionism is a conservative force. For example, the role of different trade unions in Zimbabwe such as ZIMTA (Zimbabwe Teachers Association) is to negotiate with the employer so that a revolution is prevented.

Neo Marxism

Antonio Gramsci

He was an Italian Marxist philosopher who was influential in the development of neo-Marxism. He was particularly interested in the concept of hegemony, and he believed that it was important to "deconstruct" hegemonic power in order to bring about change. He believed that this could be done through a process of "cultural revolution," in which people question and challenge the dominant culture.

Neo-Marxism is a branch of Marxism that emerged in the 20th century. Antonio Gramsci argue that capitalism has evolved since the time of Karl Marx and that the traditional Marxist theory needs to be updated to account for these changes. One key difference between traditional Marxism and neo-Marxism is that neo-Marxists focus more on culture and ideology, rather than just the economic system. They argue that cultural and ideological factors play a role in reproducing inequality. Another key difference between traditional Marxism and neo-Marxism is that neo-Marxists focus on the role of the state and other institutions in maintaining inequality. They argue that these institutions can be used to maintain the power of the ruling class, even if they do not directly own the means of production. For example, the state may use laws and regulations to maintain the power of the ruling class, even if the state itself does not directly own the means of production.

One other important concept in neo-Marxism is "hegemony." Hegemony refers to the way in which the ruling class maintains its power not just through force, but also through the consent of the people. In other words, the ruling class uses culture, ideology, and institutions to convince the people that the current system is just and fair, even if it is not. By convincing people that the current system is just, the ruling class can maintain its power without resorting to violence or coercion. One final key difference between traditional Marxism and neo-Marxism is that neo-Marxists believe that class consciousness is not enough to bring about a revolution. They argue that other factors, such as race, gender, and sexuality, also play a role in shaping inequality. They argue

that these other factors need to be taken into account in order to truly bring about a revolution. For example, a revolutionary movement that only focuses on class issues might not be able to appeal to women or people of color, who have different experiences of oppression.

Feminism

Feminism is a set of movements that seek to achieve equality between men and women. The first wave of feminism began in the late 19th century, and focused on issues such as women's suffrage and legal equality. The second wave of feminism emerged in the 1960s, and focused on issues such as reproductive rights, sexual liberation, and equal pay. The third wave of feminism emerged in the 1990s, and has been characterized by an intersectional approach that takes into account the experiences of women from different racial, class, and sexual backgrounds. One of the key concepts in feminist theory is the idea of patriarchy. This refers to the system of power in which men hold the majority of political, economic, and social power. This power is maintained through social, cultural, and legal systems that reinforce the dominance of men over women. For example, patriarchy can be seen in the gender pay gap, the lack of women in positions of power, and the sexual objectification of women in media and advertising.

There are different perspectives within feminism, which have been broadly categorized into liberal feminism, radical feminism, and socialist feminism. Liberal feminists argue that women should be treated as individuals, with equal rights and opportunities as men. Radical feminists view patriarchy as a system of oppression that must be completely dismantled. Socialist feminists view gender inequality as being rooted in capitalism, and believe that it can only be eliminated through a socialist revolution. These perspectives give a different explanation for women and what can be done to achieve gender equality.

1. Liberal feminism.

Giddens (2001:692) defines liberal Theory as ; Feminists theory that believes gender inequality is produced by reduced access for women and girls to civil rights and allocation of social resources such as education and employment. Liberal feminism is often seen as the most moderate form of feminism. It believes in reforming existing institutions to achieve gender equality, rather than completely transforming society. Liberal feminists argue that women should have equal rights and opportunities within the existing framework of society, without necessarily challenging the power structures that exist. An example of a liberal feminist policy would be equal pay for equal work.

Liberal feminists believe in individual rights for women. The key issue is that women's rights have been violated in history and present societies. In most cases women's discrimination is based on prejudice, sexism and socialization (Magesis, 1996). Those women have mental capacities as their male counterparts and should be given the same opportunities in political, economic and social spheres. Those women are

constrained by social legal and cultural institutions thus there should be fairness, justice, equal opportunities and equal participation in the management of society. women are discriminated by attitudes, stereotypes and biases against females. all those Confinement of women to the private sphere and dependency on men disadvantage women.

Liberal feminists have a liberal tone towards gender equality as they believe that women can be liberated through giving them equal rights, opportunities to jobs, education to challenge directly the ideology of patriarchy. They also advocate for proportional representation and equal access of males and females in education, employment, health, resources, political organs, training and so on. Most liberals sought women's liberation through legal reforms for example domestic violence Act (2007) which guards against male violence and aggressiveness. Education is viewed as a liberating force hence both boys and girls should be educated.

Key term

gender inequality : unfair treatment basing on sex

gender equality : Gender equality is the opposite of gender inequality - it refers to a state in which individuals are treated equally, regardless of their gender.

Patriarchy : Patriarchy is a system in which men hold more power and privilege than women.

They focus on changing attitudes, stereotypes and biases in language, textbooks and the media. Most of them call for catering for special needs of girls to improve their social status, self-esteem and confidence discrimination of build positive role models for women and girls.

Achievements

Education

In SADC countries, liberal feminists are responsible for many important Acts of legislation that have greatly improved the situation of women. In Zimbabwe, these include reform in welfare, education and health Education. In Zimbabwe, the 1980 Education act declared Education for all despite class, gender, religion, and ethnicity. The liberals have fought for a gender sensitive curriculum and removal of stereotypes in texts, and any teaching material. This has seen subjects and sports in the school curriculum being open for both boys and girls. There have been changes in stereotypical language in the school e.g.:

Headmaster - School Head

Choirmaster - Choir Director

Sportsmaster - Sports Director

Senior Master/mistress - Senior Teachers.

Liberals have called for gender sensitive teaching methods to afford pupils equal treatment. There has been proportional representation in enrolments of males and females at primary, secondary and tertiary institutions. Proportional representative has also been applied in promotion of women to positions of authority eg. Schoolheads, Education officers e.t.c. There has also been equal access to bursaries and scholarships.

Workplaces

In Britain equal pay and sex discrimination acts came into being in the 1970s. In Zimbabwe the 1985 Labour Relations Act was introduced. It had the following provisions:-

- Equal pay for males and females;
- Minimum wages for everyone
- Equal treatment and access to male dominated occupations.
- Maternity leave benefits and recently paternity leave
- No discrimination on the grounds of sex, not even on adverts in the media.
- Access to top positions of executives, directors and ministers.

Politics

The SADC declaration on gender led to the consideration of women participation in politics. This led to the introduction of the quota system where one third of parliamentarians have to be women. Women now have access to top positions and participate in electoral and legal reform process.

Legal sphere

Internationally equal rights for men and women were included in the United Nations (UN) Charter of 1947. Trafficking in human beings who were mostly females was stopped in 1948. In Zimbabwe Acts were passed to protect and improve the social status of women, for example: Legal Age of majority Act (1982) which lifted women from a state of being perpetual minors. Women above 18 years are now viewed as adults who can consent on their own, make contracts and own property like land, cattle, bank accounts, houses among others.; Matrimonial causes Act which allows sharing of property at death or divorce. Sexual offences Act that protects both males and females from sexual harassment. There has also been conscientisation of women on marriage Acts and their provisions.

Limitations of the Theory.

The liberal Theory is mainly criticized by socialist and radical feminists who argue that liberals do not address underlying causes of women's oppression (Bryson, 1992). According to radicals, liberals do not go deeper into explaining causes of women's subordination hence cannot offer solutions for an unknown cause.

Activity**Discussion Questions.**

- a) What are the characteristics of liberalism as an ideology?
- b) After a close reflection of the solutions offered by liberal feminists, what would you consider to be their weaknesses?
- c) To what extent are the above ideas been effective in redressing gender imbalances between males and females?
- d. Assess the applicability of Feminism in Zimbabwe

Radical theory**Origin**

Radical feminism is a movement that rose in the 1960s–80s as a breakaway of Marxists who were frustrated by the inability to apply social class in analyzing gender oppression. It also emerged as a reaction to the liberal theory (Meena,1992:Bryson,1992).Its impetus came from women's experiences in the CivilRights ,antiwar, new left and student movements in North America, Europe and Australia.The first radical group was influenced by the Maoist ideas and the need to develop political strategies for women's liberation. Their slogan was the 'Personalispolitical' (Bryson,1992) meaning that no aspect of life lacked a political dimension (powerrelations).Political struggles can take many new forms. It was important to break the silence through consciousness raising. The theory is radical in nature,that is it is violent,fast,uncompromising and strongly oppose patriarchal systems .Some of the proponents are Kate Millet, Shulamith Fire stone and Ortner.These demand radical transformation ofoppressive gender relations .Mannathoko in Meena(1192:75)cites that radicals: Launched a wholesale ons laught against male dominated society and consider men as the enemy.

Radical feminism is often considered to be more radical than liberal feminism. Radical feminists see patriarchy as a deeply entrenched system of power that cannot be changed through simple reforms. They argue that the root cause of women's oppression is not just sexism, but the very structure of society itself. Radical feminists often advocate for a complete restructuring of society in order to achieve gender equality.

Radical Feminists have come up with the following factors as explanations of gender inequalities: Patriarchy; Gender Socialisation; biology (sexuality).

Patriarchy

According to Bazili(1991:9) Patriarchy is an ideology of males upremacy that results

from social construction of gender which in turn justifies the social, economic and political distinction between men and women. Walby in Smelser(1994:320) defines patriarchy as a system of social structures and practices in which men dominate oppression and exploit women. Patriarchy stretches back to the time of creation in Genesis, where a woman was made from Adam's rib. The word patriarchy is derived from the Greek word patriarchs meaning 'head of the tribe. the tribe'.

To radicals like Kate Millet politics means power and men derive their power from the patriarchal system that supports and favours males. Patriarchy as an ideology is sustained by early socialization in the family, secondary socialization in schools, churches and work places. It also rests upon the economic exploitation and use of threat and force.

Gender Socialization

Gender inequalities are learnt through primary socialization and reinforced later by every other institution, for example, School, media, community, church among others. In a patriarchal society children are socialized to be different. Being male or female is emphasized. Oakley in Haralambos and Holborn (2004) points out that this is done through processes like manipulation, canalization, verbal appellations and exposure to different activities.

Biology/Sexuality

Subordination of women has origins in biology, the fact that women give birth (Firestone, 1972). The core of power and female domination is male control of female's roles in reproduction and child rearing (Firestone in O'Donnell 1992). Women become dependent on men for material necessities of life and protection especially in the nuclear family. Men control women's production, reproduction, child rearing and sexuality. It is for this reason that other radicals like Kate Millet view the family as a central site of women's oppression. Ortner in Haralambos and Holborn (2004) cites that women are viewed as closer to biology (nature) while men are closer to culture (social construct).

This has led to the belief that what relates to women cannot be changed while that, which relates to males can be changed. Biology is seen as the inevitable form of sexual division of labour. Rape and violence against women is used by males to secure and maintain power. The New York Restocking Manifesto of 1969 reads:- Women are an oppressed class. Our oppression is total, affecting every face of our lives. We are exploited as sex objects, breeders, domestic servants and cheap labour. We are considered inferior beings whose only purpose is to enhance men's lives... (Bryson, 1992:183-184).

Solutions

A fun fact about radical feminism is that it is sometimes associated with the idea of separatism. This is the idea that men and women should be completely separate from each other in order to achieve true equality. While this is not a mainstream view within feminism, some radical feminists have argued that it is necessary in order to escape the harmful influence of patriarchy. Do you think this is a practical solution, or is it too extreme? What about men and women who want to work together to achieve equality?

Another interesting fact about radical feminism is that it has sometimes been associated with lesbian separatism. This is the idea that women can only achieve true liberation if they separate themselves from men and engage in relationships with other women. While this has been a controversial topic within feminism, it has also inspired some powerful art and literature, such as the poetry of Audre Lorde and Adrienne Rich.

Radicals prescribe the following solutions for the liberation of women: Women are to struggle on their own for their own liberation against their oppressors (males). This is evidenced by the quotation... Radicals reject assistance by males because men are viewed as enemies of the liberation. They are blamed for being responsible for all the other problems of women, for example Conflict, war, destruction of the environment, and abuse. A war should be waged against men.

Radicals are of the view that gender differences can be reduced by taking desirable characteristics of males and females because these are socially constructed. However, cultural feminists (Extremists) celebrate feminine characteristics like interdependence and sharing: ...It is better to be feminine than to be masculine. Thus women should not try to be like men. (Tong in Haralambos and Holborn, 2004:103). They call for total restructuring of society. To them doing away with male domination is a means of eliminating women's oppression. They also demand women's empowerment in education, politics and sexuality.

Applicability of the Radical Feminist Theory

Unlike the liberals who fight for equal educational opportunities, radicals have challenged both the quality and quantity of education being offered to women. Their ideas have significantly influenced changes in the curriculum which has resulted in the eliminating of gender stereotyping that impact negatively on women's academic achievement. This gender stereotyping is evident in subjects as sciences, maths, commercials and social studies that were male dominated. These have been made available to women. Women are also empowered health wise e.g. use of birth control measures of their choices, use of protection (female condom). There are women's pressure groups, for example, Women's Action Group (WAG), Affirmative Action Group (AAG) and Women Of Zimbabwe Arise (WOZA) fight for rights of women and girls.

Other women facilities include the Girl Child Network, scholarships for girl children

and victim friendly courts for abused children. The passing of the sexual offences Act, HIV and AIDS Act, Domestic Violence Act and stiffer penalties for rape perpetrators are all efforts of radical feminists. Organizations like Msasa Project have protected women experiencing gender domestic violence of any kind in Zimbabwe. A shelter for such women was set up in Harare. Single sex schools, women's University and women's Institute of Governance are all products of radical feminists. Women have been made to access legal instruments that allow them to abort under special circumstances like rape, incest, mental health or anything that endangers the woman's health. Radical Some of the proponents are Heidi, Jaggar and Ann Ferguson. The socialist-Feminists differ from Marxist-Feminists in that their explanation for gender inequalities extend from capitalism to patriarchy. Unlike Marxists, they looked at women in both the public and the private spheres. Marxists focused more at the workplace.

Marxist-Feminist Theory

Marxist Terms

Economic Base : It consists of the means of production including land, capital, labour and time.

Forces of production : which include tools/implements or technology.

Relations of production : which define who owns, controls, dominates, profits as well as who has power.

Superstructure : Is made of ideologies that monitor, maintain, reproduce and legitimize the status quo (Relations of production at the base). The ideologies are; patriarchy, capitalism, cultural beliefs, religion, State institutions, e.g. schools, legislation and repressive state apparatus.

Economic determinism : states that ownership of the economy greatly determines how the two classes (owners and non-owners of the means of production) relate in a capitalist system.

Subordinate and dominant class : Those who own the means of production are the dominant class while those who do not own them constitute the subordinate class.

Exploitation and Oppression : Those who do not own the means of production are exploited of their labour by being given low wages. The powerful owning class oppresses the subordinate class.

Marxist-Feminist Expositions

Gender inequalities are rooted in capitalism and its ownership of private property (Bryson, 1992). They challenge the attempt to isolate gender from social class. Men are powerful because they own the means of production. Women do not own the means of production hence are a subordinate class that is oppressed, exploited just like the proletariat. The base determines relations between men and women. Women's

position in Capitalism divides work into private (home) and public sphere (workplace). Capitalism values men's labour and devalues that of women by giving low wages. Women enter wage labour from a subordinate position. Women are a reserve army of labour, that is, they can be recruited anytime to replace males at a low cost. Sharpe in O'Donnell (1992;172) argues that Employers frequently regard women as mere temporary labour, and consider that they should be thought lucky to have the opportunity to earn some money for themselves. They can be used as surplus labour force, to be employed or laid off at will.

Men are viewed as breadwinners' hence higher wages while women are viewed as appendages of men (Bryson, 1992). Women suffer double exploitation, for example, they produce in factories and produce future labourers at no cost. Domestic work in the private sphere is not remunerated. Women are alienated (separated) from their production, reproduction and sexuality. This means women do not own and control what they produce in the Public sphere, at home and even that which relates to their sexuality (children and their bodies). Mitchel in O'Donnell (N/D) argues that oppression in the family produces: A tendency to small mindedness, petty, jealousy, irrational, emotionally and random violence, dependency, competitive selfishness, possessiveness, passivity, a lack of vision and conservatism. These characteristics are embedded in women's objective conditions and a sexist society. Women serve the interest of capitalism through the management of the family.

Marxist-Feminists propose the following as some of the solutions to women's problems; Marxist Feminists stress the need to overthrow capitalist economic system. They call for a socialist Revolution that would change the structure and ownership of the means of production.

There must be an ideological change first in the consciousness of both sexes (Pilcher and Whelehan, 2004). Females should free themselves from dependence and traditional gender roles that confine them to the private sphere, participation of women in the public sphere is key to their liberation and Men and women should struggle against capitalist oppressors thereby Abolition of private property and setting up of a communally owned means of production in a communist society.

Applicability of the Marxist-Feminist Theory.

In SADC countries as patriarchal societies, men own private property more than women e.g. land, capital, houses, machinery and labour. Most of the productive forces are registered on male names. As a result men become powerful, oppress and dominate women. The one who owns decides and has final judgement over resources. Domestic work in the home is either not paid for or low wages are given to maids. Women employed in the public sphere mostly do domestic work which has been transferred from the private sphere to the public sphere for example nursing (caring), teaching (socializing), and catering (servicing) and being secretaries for bosses who are mostly males. Women are employed in large numbers in export processing as well as textile industries for low wages. These careers are characterized by low wages. The

children produced belong to the father in a traditional family and what the woman produces from her labour is controlled by the husband. Patriarchy, culture and religion are ideologies that legitimate inequalities making them appear normal, natural and unchangeable.

State institutions e.g. education, reproduces patriarchal values. Ownership of the means of production does determine one's (women's) position and power in a capitalist society. Schools in a capitalist society re-enforce social inequalities by producing a work force divided by class. Schools in Zimbabwe, for example, can be classified into private, former group A, former group B, mission schools and what used to be called upper-tops. Products from these schools still exhibit glaring class and gender differences.

Limitations

Marxist-Feminist criticism is based on the following: Society has changed from the classes and conditions observed by Karl Marx and Fredrick Engels. Some women these days own private property. Some SADC countries have come up with national gender policies and legal instruments that enable women to access property, capital, loans and land. Entry into wage labour by women from the 18th Century to today does not prove to be key to their liberation. It has instead increased women's labour burdens.

Experiences in Socialist countries, for example, Soviet Union, Cuba, China and the former Eastern Block, did not show that women's positions in these societies were any better. These societies are still male dominated with powerful posts in male hands. In countries like Zimbabwe, most women find themselves in the informal sector with low unreliable income. They are not part of the proletariat working in public places. The majority of women are in rural areas. The theory did not look at a majority of women in Third World countries.

Marxist-feminists are gender blind. They failed to focus on power relations of males and females as independent from social class. They did not explain why men exploit and oppress women even in socialist societies.

Exercise questions

- i) Discuss men and women ownership of the means of production and the productive forces in your country..
- ii) How do the above elements of the Superstructure maintain male dominance and legitimize the ownership of the means of production in your country? Explain giving examples.

Marxist socialist feminists

The modern society is viewed as both capitalist and patriarchal. Socialist feminists believe that the subordination of women is rooted in the two evils of capitalism and patriarchy. The theory is dualistic in nature with two evils mutually reinforcing. Sometimes the two systems conflict—for example, Capitalist demand for labour is opposed by patriarchal demand for personal services in the home. However, both capitalist and patriarchal men benefit from the above arrangement that subordinate

women. Marxists are criticized for focusing only on capital ignoring relations of men and women. To socialist feminists, women's subordinates go beyond capitalism to patriarchy that pre-dates capitalism. Patriarchy is based on men's control over women's labour and this is part of the productive process. Capitalism is based on the capitalist control of labour in the productive process. Ferguson feels that patriarchy is semi-autonomous, while Young views patriarchy and capitalism as not dual but unified systems (Bryson, 1992).

To support the above, Jaggar says the two are inseparable. For both, oppression of women touches issues of reproduction and production, for example, patriarchy controls reproduction of women and their labour in the production process. Patriarchy benefits from the control of the produce from reproduction (children) and women's labour (products). Capitalism like patriarchy benefits from reproduction of future workers and produce from women's labour.

Vogel says maintenance and production of the working class are essential requirements of capitalism. Hence, the two systems of domination are 'inextricably entangled' (Bryson, 1992:247). Socialist-feminists argue that entry into wage labour by women cannot be key to their liberation as Marxists suggested. Women entered wage labour during the industrial revolutions in Europe, for example, Britain (1800) France (1830), Germany (1850) but the position of women did not change in homes and workplace. Again, during world wars (WWI 1914-1918) and (WW II 1939-1945) women participated in industries but this did not usher the fruits they expected.

Class analysis by Marxists is not enough. They ignore patriarchy and overestimate the power of capital. Socialist Feminist focus on women's question and make demands as both workers and women. Men have vested interest in the subordination of women because they benefit socially and materially. Women produce, reproduce, socialize and service families at no cost.

Women reproduce workers for capitalists. They also reproduce heirs as well as workers for their husbands. Education is seen as reproducing both class and gender inequalities. Schools through socialization reproduce capitalists and patriarchal values, habits of passivity, conformity among girls as well as children from lower class background. Capitalism and patriarchy legitimizes class and gender inequalities. Capitalism and patriarchy work hand in hand in the exploitation of women. Male supremacy is embedded in economic structures. These are strengthened by patriarchal relations.

The following are solutions suggested by Socialist-Feminists, A revolution that challenges the two ideologies leading to uprooting of both capitalism and patriarchy; Women struggle should focus on conditions of production, reproduction, reproductive rights, sexuality, and new forms of family organization. Women should be united by their experiences, disputes, race, class, ethnicity or religion. All class and cultural forces of oppression should be ended in order to liberate women. Women should work side by side with men in order to achieve equality.

Applicability

The Socialist-Feminist Theory has led to Gender and Development (GAD) Approach where men and women work side by side with men in political, economic and social development. It has made development agencies or governments to focus on inequalities in the private and public spheres. Economic ownership, reproduction, family organization and reproductive rights are now areas of focus in Some SADC countries. This has led to introduction of laws that enable women to access property, health care, and reproductive rights and to choose marriage types (forms of family organization). Some governments in the SADC like Zimbabwe have crafted national gender policies for development. These policies look at men and women's access to land, education and training, housing, water, health, political decision making, natural resources. The policies encourage participation of women and men in all spheres of life.

Limitations

The following have been identified as weaknesses of the Socialist-Feminist Theory: It focuses on working middle class women leaving out peasants.. Socialist-Feminists do not explain the origins of patriarchy and give no suggestions of how it can be uprooted.

Black feminism

Black feminism, or womanism, is a unique perspective that has been developed by black women in response to the marginalization of their experiences in mainstream feminism. In addition to the concepts we've already discussed, black feminists have also developed the concept of "black feminism." This refers to the need to understand the experiences of black women within the broader context of black culture and history. This includes understanding the history of slavery, as well as the experiences of black women in the civil rights movement and other social justice movements.

It argues that racism and sexism are interconnected systems of oppression, and that the experiences of black women cannot be fully understood without considering the intersections of race, gender, and class. Black feminism has been criticized by some for not fully addressing the experiences of black men, and for focusing too much on the experiences of black middle-class women.

A key idea that has been developed by black feminists is the concept of "interlocking oppressions." This concept argues that the different forms of oppression experienced by black women cannot be viewed as separate or unrelated, but are rather interconnected. For example, the racism experienced by black women cannot be separated from their experiences of sexism, and vice versa.

Black feminists have developed a number of key ideas about the relationship between race, gender, and class. One of these is the concept of "double consciousness," which was developed by W.E.B. Du Bois. Double consciousness refers to the way that black women must navigate two different worlds - the world of blackness and the world of womanhood - and must constantly reconcile the different expectations and stereotypes

placed on them. Another key idea is the concept of "triple oppression," which argues that black women experience three distinct forms of oppression: racism, sexism, and classism.

Micro, social action and interpretive pespectives

As cited in Haralambos and Holborn (2014) , sociologists who adopt social action or interpretive pespectives usually reject the view that society has clear structure that directs individuals to behave in certain ways. Some social action theorist do not deny the existence of social structure, but see this social structure as rising out of the actions of individuals. So to elaborate on this, social action and interpretive perspectives usually put a lot of focus on how individuals act and think within their society. They look at how we interpret our own actions and experiences. In other words, they consider how we make sense of the things we see, hear, and feel, rather than only looking at the larger, structural forces that affect us. In this way, they focus more on the "micro" level of analysis, rather than the "macro" level that many other sociological perspectives use. Some of them include Phenomenology: This perspective looks at how individuals experience and perceive the world around them. It focuses on subjective experience, rather than objective facts. Ethnomethodology: This perspective looks at how individuals use "methods" or strategies to make sense of their daily lives. It focuses on the ways in which people understand and organize their social worlds. Symbolic interactionism: This perspective looks at how individuals interact with each other through symbols, such as language, gestures, and objects. It explores how these interactions shape our understanding of the world. These pespectives will be examined in detail.

One fascinating fact about micro perspectives is that they can often reveal hidden patterns in human behavior. For example, one study used a micro perspective to study how people interacted in a cafeteria. The researchers found that people followed specific patterns when choosing where to sit. They tended to sit near people who looked like them, and avoided sitting near people who were different from them. This type of research can be used to understand larger patterns of discrimination and inequality

The Weberian perspective

Weberian perspectives also known as the sociological perspective of Max Weber, is a way of understanding society that emphasizes the role of meaning, values, and symbols. Weber believed that these factors play a key role in shaping human behavior and social structures.

Social action

For Max Weber, social action was central to his understanding of society. He argued that it was important to understand the subjective meanings that individuals attach to their actions. He saw society as being made up of a series of social actions, rather than static structures. For Weber, individuals acted in accordance with their beliefs, values, and motives. He also believed that social action could be instrumental (when it is based on achieving certain goals) or value-rational (when it is based on pursuing a certain set of values).

Key terms :

Social action: Max Weber defined social action as "action taken by individuals which takes account of the behavior of others and is thereby oriented in its course."

Social action can also be seen as being expressive, traditional, or affective. Expressive social action is when we act based on our emotions or feelings, rather than rational thought. For example, crying at a funeral would be an example of expressive social action. Traditional social action is when we act based on established norms or rules. For example, we may observe certain customs when visiting another country. Affective social action is when our actions are driven by our likes or dislikes. For example, we may go to see a movie because we love the director's work. To Weber, a social action was an action carried out by individuals to which an individual attaches a meaning. In his words, action takes account of the behaviour of others and is thereby oriented in its course. Thus, an action that a person does not think of is not social action for example accident.

Social action and verstehen

Having identified the subject matter of sociology, Weber went on to suggest how social action could be explained. To Weber, it is necessary to explain action and motives behind the action. A way of understanding the action he described it as verstehen. Verstehen is a key concept in Weber's theory of social action. It means "understanding" in German, and refers to the need to understand the subjective meanings and intentions behind people's actions. According to Weber, we can only understand social action by

understanding the meanings that individuals give to their actions. This is in contrast to theories that attempt to explain human behavior through objective, scientific analysis. Weber argued that without verstehen, we cannot truly understand why people act the way they do. He distinguished two types of understanding and the first one is *Aktuelles verstehen*- which is a type of social action that is based on actual, real-time understanding. It is when we understand someone's perspective in the moment, without trying to explain or analyze it. This is in contrast to *erklarendes verstehen*, (another way of understanding social action) which is when we try to explain someone's perspective by analyzing it in terms of causal factors. In other words, *aktuelles verstehen* is about understanding someone's perspective without trying to make sense of it, while *erklarendes verstehen* is about making sense of someone's perspective by analyzing its causes. An example of *aktuelles verstehen* would be when you are having a conversation with someone, and you understand what they are saying in the moment, without trying to analyze it. An example of *erklarendes verstehen* would be when you are trying to understand why someone said something by analyzing the factors that led up to their statement. For example, you might try to understand why someone made a joke by considering their personality and sense of humor.

Key terms

Verstehen: way of understanding social action

Aktuelles verstehen : direct observational understanding

Erklarendes verstehen: understanding the motives behind social action

Another example of *aktuelles verstehen* might be when you are at a party and someone tells a joke. You might understand the joke in the moment without analyzing it, and simply laugh. An example of *erklarendes verstehen* might be when you analyze the joke afterwards to understand why it was funny. For example, you might consider the context of the joke, the person who told it, and the personalities of the people who were there. Last example of *aktuelles verstehen* might be when you are at a museum and you see a painting. You might immediately understand and appreciate the painting without thinking about why it was painted or what it means. An example of *erklarendes verstehen* would be if you read about the artist's biography and artistic style to try to understand the painting better. In other words, *aktuelles verstehen* is immediate, while *erklarendes verstehen* is about understanding after the fact. To achieve this is important to put yourself in the shoes of actors to understand what they might mean and feel.

To Weber, *Verstehen* is important in explaining human behavior because it recognizes that humans are not simply rational beings who always act according to logic. Instead, humans are complex and can be influenced by a variety of factors, including emotions, cultural norms, and past experiences. By understanding these factors, we can develop a

more nuanced understanding of human behavior. In addition, verstehen is useful for understanding why people act in ways that seem irrational or illogical. One of the main benefits of verstehen is that it can help us to be more empathetic and understanding of others. By trying to understand people from their own perspective, we can gain insight into their motivations and experiences. This can lead to greater acceptance and tolerance of others, even if we do not agree with their view.

Causal explanations

For a full explanation, Weber argued that causal explanations are explanations that focus on finding the cause of a phenomenon. This type of explanation tries to identify the factors that led to the phenomenon occurring. In contrast, verstehen is more concerned with understanding the phenomenon itself, rather than finding its causes. While causal explanations can be useful for understanding some aspects of human behavior, verstehen is often necessary to fully understand why people do what they do. In his study of capitalism in *The Protestant Ethic and the Spirit of Capitalism*, Max Weber used verstehen to try to understand the relationship between religion and economics. He argued that the Protestant work ethic, with its focus on hard work and frugality, helped to create the conditions for the rise of capitalism. Verstehen was essential to this study, as it allowed Weber to understand the complex and often contradictory motivations of individuals within this system. Without verstehen, it would have been difficult to understand how religion and economics were intertwined in this way.

Social action and Bureaucracy

Weber showed how social actions can be determined by institutions which is illustrated in his work of Bureaucracy. According to Weber, one way that bureaucracies can determine social action is through the process of "rule-making. This is when bureaucracies develop rules and regulations that shape how people behave. For example, a government agency might create rules about how to apply for a passport, or a company might create rules about how to use its products. By creating these rules, bureaucracies can control the actions of individuals. Another way that bureaucracies can influence social action is through the use of "routinization." This is when they create standardized procedures that must be followed for certain tasks. For example, there might be a set process for getting a driver's license, or for filing a tax return. This routinization can make it easier to accomplish certain tasks, but it can also lead to a loss of flexibility and creativity.

Bureaucracy and rationalization

The concept of "rationalization" is closely linked to that of bureaucracy. Weber defined rationalization as the process of using logical, systematic methods to solve problems. In the context of bureaucracy, this means using standardized procedures to complete

tasks. But it can also refer to other areas of life, such as business, science, and politics. Weber believed that rationalization was leading to a "disenchantment" of the world, as it removed the mystery and wonder from our lives.

Key terms

Bureaucracy : organized institutions with manipulation and controlling such as industries.

Rationalization : a process of using science not faith to achieve a goal.

Critique

There are a number of criticisms that have been made of Weber's theory of bureaucracy. One common criticism is that, Weber's theory does not account for the fact that organizations are made up of people, not machines. Human beings are complex and have a wide range of motivations, which can make them unpredictable and difficult to control. This can lead to inefficiencies and conflicts within organizations. In addition, people may resist the standardization and specialization of their work, as it can feel restrictive and boring.

Another common criticism of Weber's theory is that it does not account for the role of power and politics within organizations. Power is often exercised in informal ways, through networks and relationships, rather than through formal rules and procedures. This can create a tension between the formal structure of bureaucracy and the informal realities of power.

The other criticism that we will explore is that Weber's theory does not account for the changing nature of work and organizations. The industrial-age model of bureaucracy that Weber described is no longer applicable to the modern world of work, which is characterized by globalization, information technology, and the "gig economy." These changes have led to new forms of organization, such as networked structures and flexible hierarchies.

A related criticism of Weber's theory is that it does not take into account the diversity of organizations. While his model may be applicable to large, bureaucratic organizations, it does not account for the variety of other types of organizations, such as start-ups, non-profit organizations, and virtual organizations. These organizations may have different structures and processes than the ones described by Weber.

Phenomenology

Phenomenology is a philosophical tradition that focuses on the study of human experience and consciousness. Phenomenological sociologists, such as Alfred Schutz (1899 - 1959) use this approach to understand the subjective meanings that people attach to their experiences. This contrasts with the more objective, scientific approach of Weber.

First, let's look at the first point, that phenomenology argues that we cannot understand the world through objective, scientific analysis alone. This is because our understanding of the world is always influenced by our own subjective experience. For example, two people can have very different experiences of the same event, depending on their individual perspectives. This means that we cannot simply rely on objective data to understand the world, but must also consider how people interpret and experience it. To make this point clearer, let's consider a simple example. Imagine that two people are walking through a forest. One person might focus on the objective, scientific facts about the forest, such as its temperature, altitude, and soil composition. However, the other person might focus on their subjective experience of the forest, such as the way it smells, the sounds of the birds, and the feeling of the wind on their skin. For this person, the forest is not simply a collection of facts, but is something that is experienced through all of their senses.

This first point leads to the second key idea of phenomenology, which is the importance of first-person experience and subjective interpretation. This means that in order to truly understand the world, we must consider how individual people experience it. This is because each person has their own unique perspective, shaped by their background, culture, and personal experiences. This makes it impossible to have a single, objective understanding of the world. Instead, we must consider multiple, subjective interpretations.

The third key idea of phenomenology is that the world is not something that exists outside of our experience, but is something that we construct through our perceptions and interpretations. This is sometimes referred to as the "social construction of reality." In other words, the world is not simply "out there," waiting to be observed, but is something that is actively created by people as they experience and interact with it. The idea that the world is socially constructed is often illustrated through the example of money. Money does not have any inherent value - it is only valuable because we believe it to be valuable. We have created a system in which money can be exchanged for goods and services, and we all agree to participate in this system. Without this shared belief, money would have no value. This shows how our perceptions and interpretations can shape the world around us.

Another example of how the world is socially constructed is language. Languages are not something that exist outside of human experience - they are created and maintained by people. Different languages have different ways of organizing and expressing the world, which means that they shape our understanding of it. For example, some languages have more words for colors than others, which can affect how we perceive colors. Or, some languages have different ways of expressing time, which can affect how we think about time.

Alfred Schutz

Typification

The idea of typifications is another important concept in phenomenology developed by Schutz (1972). Typifications are simplified representations of people or things that we use to make sense of the world. For example, we might typify a doctor as someone who is intelligent and trustworthy. We use these typifications to help us understand and navigate the world, but they can also lead to stereotypes and biases. One way that typifications can be harmful is when they lead to discrimination. For example, if we typify certain groups of people as being lazy or unintelligent, it can lead to prejudice and discrimination against those groups. This can cause real harm, as it can lead to exclusion and inequality.

Key term

Typification : a way of categorising things to make interaction possible

On the other hand, typifications can also be helpful, as they allow us to quickly understand and navigate the world. For example, In the case of edible and non-edible things, we might typify them as "food" and "non-food." This typification makes it easier for us to communicate about these things. For example, if someone asks us what we are having for dinner, we can respond with something that is typified as food, like "pasta" or "chicken." If they asked us what we are going to wear to a formal event, we would probably respond with something that is typified as clothing, like "a suit" or "a dress." This shows how typifications can help us communicate more efficiently.

Evaluation

One criticism of typifications is that they can oversimplify and distort our understanding of the world. For example, the typification of people as lazy or unintelligent can ignore the complex and varied ways that people actually behave. This can lead to misunderstandings and a lack of empathy for others. Another criticism is that typifications can become entrenched and resistant to change, even when they are inaccurate or harmful. Another criticism of typifications is that they can lead to confirmation bias, which is the tendency to only notice information that supports our existing beliefs. For example, if we typify a person as lazy, we might only notice when they are resting or not working, and ignore all the times they are actively doing something. This can lead to a self-fulfilling prophecy, where our beliefs about someone influence their behavior in a way that confirms our beliefs.

Ethnomethodology

It was developed by Harold Garfinkel. Ethnomethodology is a branch of sociology that

studies how people make sense of the world and create order in their everyday lives. It looks at the "methods" that people use to make sense of their social worlds. For example, it might examine how people use language to communicate, or how they use body language to understand each other. It also looks at how people create and maintain social order, and how they respond to disruptions to that order.

Kay term

Ethnomethodology: an approach that looks at the methods people use to make sense of their social worlds.

Social order in fiction

According to ethnomethodology, social order is not something that exists independently of people's actions, but is something that is created and maintained by them. It is a "fiction" in the sense that it is not objectively real, but it is something that we all agree to participate in. This is similar to the idea of the "social contract," which is the idea that we all agree to follow certain rules and norms in order to live in society. One example of how social order is created is through the concept of "accounts." Accounts are the explanations that people give to justify their actions. For example, if someone is late for work, they might give an account like "I was stuck in traffic." This account is a way of explaining the situation and maintaining social order. Without accounts, there would be a lot of uncertainty and disorder in our interactions.

The documentary method

This is a method used in ethnomethodology to study how people create and maintain social order. It involves collecting and analyzing documents, such as transcripts of conversations, to see how people make sense of the world around them. One key idea in the documentary method is that of "indexicality." This refers to the idea that the meaning of a word or phrase is dependent on the context in which it is used. For example, the word "chair" can have different meanings depending on whether it is used in a furniture store, a classroom, or a doctor's office. Do you think this is an interesting way to study

One of the main criticisms of the documentary method is that it can be difficult to interpret the data that is collected. This is because the context of the data is often unknown, and it can be hard to understand the intentions of the people who created it. Another criticism is that the documentary method can be very time-consuming and labor-intensive. Despite these criticisms, the documentary method has been used to study a wide range of topics, from family life to organizational behavior.

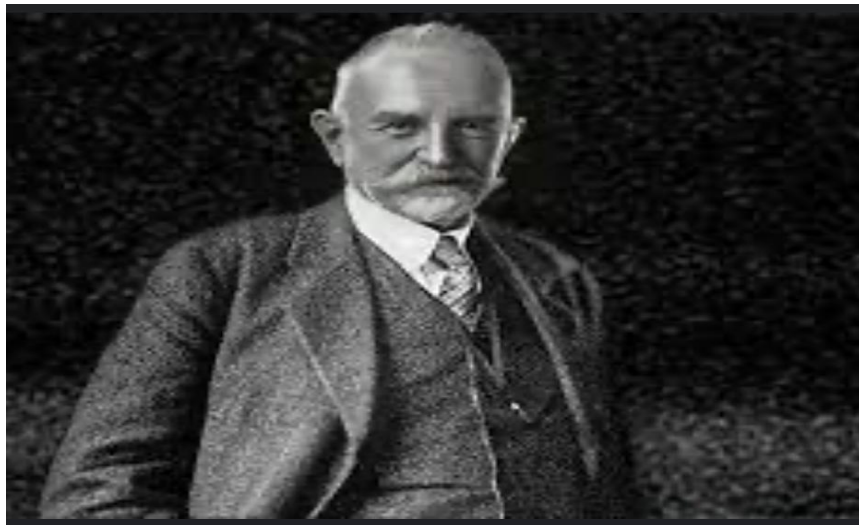
Another concept in ethnomethodology is that of "breaching experiments." These are experiments in which the researcher purposefully violates the rules of social order to see how people react. For example, a researcher might stand very close to someone they don't know, or might walk around with their clothes on backwards. The goal of these experiments is to understand how people use social norms to make sense of the world.

One ethical concern about breaching experiments is that they can cause distress or harm to the participants. This is because the participants might not be aware that they are part of an experiment, and might feel uncomfortable or confused by the situation. Another ethical concern is that the results of these experiments might be used to manipulate or control people. However, proponents of breaching experiments argue that they can be a valuable tool for understanding human behavior, and that the risks are outweighed by the potential benefits.

Symbolic interactionism

Symbolic interactionism is a micro-level perspective in sociology that focuses on how individuals use symbols and meanings to interact with each other. For example, a smile is a symbol that can communicate happiness or friendliness. This perspective also focuses on how individuals make sense of the world around them through these symbols and meanings.

George Herbert Mead



George Herbert Mead

He was a key figure in the development of symbolic interactionism. Mead argued that individuals develop a sense of self through their interactions with others. This "self" is not fixed, but rather constantly evolving through social interactions. One of Mead's key concepts is the "generalized other," which is the idea that individuals develop a sense of how others see them through their interactions with others. Another key concept from

Mead is the "significant other." This is the idea that individuals develop a sense of themselves based on the way that specific others view them. For example, a child might develop a sense of self based on how their parents see them. This concept is important because it shows how individuals are not just responding to society as a whole, but rather to specific others who are significant in their lives.

Key terms

Self : The "self" can be defined as the thoughts, feelings, and beliefs that we have about who we are

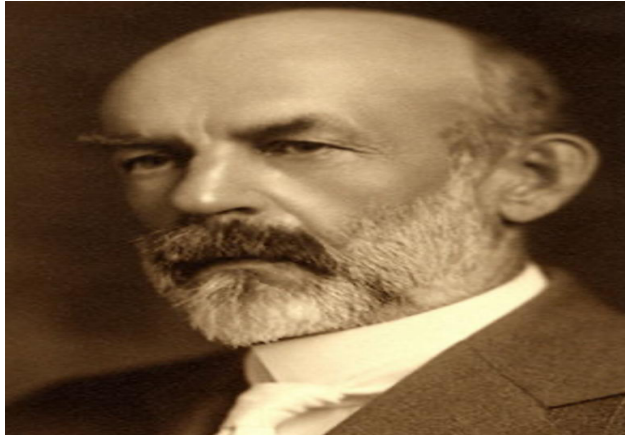
Significant other : These people are often close to us, like family members or close friends who help to shape our self-concept.

Mead believed that the development of self happens in three stages. The first stage is the preparatory stage. During the preparatory stage, children learn to imitate the actions of others. They do this without understanding the meaning behind the actions. For example, a child might imitate their parent by pretending to use the phone, but they do not understand the purpose of the phone or what the parent is doing with it. The first stage is the "play stage," in which children learn to take on the role of others through pretend play. The second stage is the "game stage," in which children learn to follow the rules of society through games.

Me and I concept

This is another important concept from Mead. The "me" refers to the socialized aspect of the self, or the self that we present to others. The "I" refers to the unique, private aspect of the self. Mead believed that individuals have both a "me" and an "I," and that the two are in a constant state of tension. The "me" is always trying to conform to society's expectations, while the "I" is trying to express its own unique identity. So, according to Mead, the "me" and the "I" are in a constant state of conflict. The "me" pushes us to conform to society's rules and norms, while the "I" pushes us to express our own individuality. This tension can lead to a sense of "role strain," which is when the expectations of the "me" and the "I" are in conflict with each other. For example, a person might feel role strain if they want to express their individuality at work, but their job requires them to conform to certain rules and norms. Another example of role strain is when a person feels a conflict between their work life and their family life. They might feel pressure to spend more time at work to advance their career, but they also feel pressure to spend more time with their family.

Charles Horton Cooley



Charles Horton Cooley

Looking glass self theory

He was another symbolic interactionist theorist who developed the concept of the "looking glass self." This is the idea that we develop our sense of self based on how we think others perceive us. In other words, we "see" ourselves through the "looking glass" of other people's perceptions. Cooley believed that this process starts in childhood, when we begin to understand that others have their own perspectives on us. Cooley's "looking glass self" theory is composed of three steps. First, we imagine how we appear to others. Second, we imagine how others judge us based on how we appear to them. And third, we develop our sense of self based on how we think others judge.

To take this a step further, let's talk about Cooley's "primary group." This is the small group of people who are closest to us and have the biggest impact on our sense of self. According to Cooley, the looking glass self is most strongly developed within the primary group, since these are the people whose opinions we care about the most. This can include family, friends, and significant others.

A fascinating fact about symbolic interactionism is that it is not only a theory of sociology, but also a theory of communication. In other words, it is not just about how we interact with each other, but also how we communicate with each other. In fact, some scholars have argued that all human communication is symbolic interaction. They argue that even when we are not consciously aware of it, we are always interpreting and responding to the symbols around us.

A fascinating fact about the looking glass self theory is that it has been used to understand how people develop self-esteem and confidence. The theory suggests that people develop their sense of self by looking at how others perceive them. So, if people receive positive feedback from others, they are more likely to develop a positive sense of self. However, if people receive negative feedback from others, they are more likely to develop a negative sense of self.

To Cooley, primary group is a crucial part of our sense of self. But Cooley also believed that our primary group influences more than just our sense of self. He argued that our primary group also influences our behavior and attitudes. For example, if our primary group values education, we are more likely to value education as well. He also mentioned concept of the "generalized other." This is similar to the primary group, but it is much broader. The generalized other refers to society as a whole, including all of the norms and values that we are expected to conform to.

Key term

primary group : Those immediate to us such as family members and friends .

According to Cooley, the generalized other is also a key part of our sense of self. We often behave based on what we think society expects of us, rather than just our primary group. Let's say that you're at a family gathering. Your primary group in this situation would be your family members. But the generalized other is the larger society that you live in. For example, the generalized other might expect you to dress a certain way or behave in a certain manner at the gathering. So, you might feel pressure to conform to both the expectations of your primary group and the generalized other. let's look at another example. Imagine that you are at work. In this situation, your primary group might be your coworkers. The generalized other, on the other hand, would be the larger society, including professional norms and expectations. For example, you might be expected to dress in a certain way or act professionally around your coworkers. In this situation, both your primary group and the generalized other might influence your behavior.

Herbert Blumer

George Herbert Mead and Herbert Blumer were colleagues, and they both developed the theory of symbolic interactionism. Blumer later expanded on Mead's ideas by identifying three key principles of symbolic interactionism. These are: 1) Meaning, 2) Language, and 3) Thought.

The first principle, meaning, refers to the idea that people assign meaning to their social interactions. We don't just interact with people and objects; we also interpret what these interactions mean. For example, if someone smiles at you, you might interpret this as a sign of friendliness.

The second principle, language, refers to the fact that people use language to communicate and give meaning to their interactions. Language is a powerful tool for shaping our perceptions and understanding of the world. For example, the words we use to describe something can influence how we think about it. Let us say that you hear about a group of people referred to as "thugs." The term "thug" is often used in a negative way, so you might form a negative opinion of this group without even meeting them. This is an example of how language can shape our perceptions. Another example is the term "refugee." It can have a very different meaning depending on the context.

The third principle, thought, refers to the idea that our social interactions are influenced by our thoughts and beliefs. For example, if you believe that someone is trustworthy, you might be more likely to trust them in social interactions. Or, if you believe that someone is rude, you might be less likely to engage in friendly interactions with them. These three principles - meaning, language, and thought - are interconnected. For example, the meanings we assign to things influence the language we use, and our language influences our thoughts and beliefs. And, of course, our thoughts and beliefs influence our social interactions. So, these three principles create a cycle that shapes our understanding of the world. Does that make sense?

Erving Goffman

Dramaturgical approach

He was a student of George Herbert Mead and expanded on Mead's ideas about symbolic interactionism. One of Goffman's most well-known theories is the "dramaturgical approach." This theory suggests that social interactions are like a stage performance, with each person playing a role. In the dramaturgical approach, Goffman mentioned three key elements thus front stage, back stage, and impression management.

One fascinating fact about dramaturgical theory is that it has been used to analyze a wide range of phenomena, from politics to advertising. For example, some scholars have used dramaturgical theory to analyze the way that politicians perform in front of the media. They argue that politicians are constantly aware of how they are being perceived and try to present themselves in a way that is consistent with their political message. What do you think about the idea that politicians are like actors on a stage?

To begin with front stage, Goffman argues that when we are in the front stage, we are often trying to present ourselves in a certain way. We might try to look confident, friendly, or competent. This can be exhausting, since it requires a lot of energy to maintain a performance. This is when the concept of impression management. This is the process of shaping the impressions that other people have of us. We often use different strategies for impression management, like presenting ourselves in a certain way, controlling the information we share, or managing our body language. The back stage is a place where we can relax and be ourselves, without worrying about how others perceive us. For example, your bedroom might be a back stage area, where you can be yourself without worrying about how you look or act.

Howard Becker

He was an American sociologist who developed the theory of "labeling." Becker's theory argues that our identities are not fixed, but rather are constructed through the labels that others place on us. These labels can be positive or negative, and they can be imposed by others or self-imposed. One famous case study that supports Becker's theory of labeling is the "Rosenhan experiment." In this study, a group of people with no history of mental illness pretended to be mentally ill in order to get admitted to psychiatric hospitals. Once admitted, they acted completely normally. However, the staff members in the hospitals still labeled them as "insane," and the patients were kept in the hospitals for weeks or months. This study suggests that labels can be extremely powerful, and can even override our own sense of self. The key takeaway from the Rosenhan experiment is that the staff members in the hospitals were so convinced that the patients were "insane" that they ignored any evidence to the contrary. In other words, the labels that the staff members gave to the patients became more important than the actual reality of the situation. This shows how powerful labels can be in shaping our identities, even when they are not accurate.

One key point of Becker's theory is that the labels that others give us can become a self-fulfilling prophecy. In other words, if we are labeled in a certain way, we may start to act in a way that confirms that label, even if it was not true to begin with. In the case of the Rosenhan experiment, the "patients" started to act like they were mentally ill because they had been labeled as such. This shows how powerful labels can be in shaping our identities.

Key terms

Labeling : is the process of attaching a label to someone or something. In the context of sociology.

A self-fulfilling prophecy : is when an expectation about a person or situation leads to the fulfillment of that expectation. For example, if a teacher labels a student as "lazy" or "unintelligent," that student may begin to act out these labels, thus fulfilling the teacher's expectations

Another famous case study that supports Becker's theory is the story of "Genie," a young girl who was kept isolated and confined by her abusive father for the first 13 years of her life. After being discovered by social services, Genie was sent to live in a hospital, where researchers studied her development and tried to teach her language.



However, Genie never fully learned to speak, despite years of intensive therapy. This case shows how the labels that were placed on Genie (i.e., "feral child," "wild child") shaped her identity and ability to learn, even though they were not based in reality. The story of Genie is so fascinating because it shows how labels can have a huge impact on our ability to develop and learn. Despite the fact that Genie was capable of learning, the labels that were placed on her by the researchers and other people in her life limited her

potential. This is an example of what sociologists call "stigma," which is when a label leads to negative consequences for the person being labeled. In Genie's case, the stigma of being a "feral child" prevented her from fully developing her language skills.

Criticism

While Mead's theory of symbolic interactionism is well-respected, it has been subject to some criticism. One criticism is that the theory does not account for the impact of biological factors on our self-concept. For example, some people argue that things like genetics or brain chemistry play a role in shaping who we are. In addition, the theory has been criticized for being overly focused on individualistic, Western ideas of the self, rather than considering how different cultures and social contexts might shape the self-concept.

Another criticism of Mead's theory is that it does not take into account the role of power and privilege in shaping our self-concept. For example, someone who is marginalized or oppressed might have a very different self-concept than someone who is privileged and powerful. In addition, the theory does not account for how systemic oppression, like racism or sexism, might affect our self-concept.

Further criticism of Mead's theory is that it does not fully account for how our emotions and feelings affect our self-concept. For example, the theory does not address how emotions like anger or sadness might influence how we think about ourselves. In addition, it does not consider how trauma or mental illness might impact our sense of self.

Mead's theory reduces the complexity of society to a set of small-scale, interpersonal interactions. This criticism argues that Mead's theory ignores the role of larger social structures, like capitalism or the state, in shaping our identities and experiences.

One common criticism of Becker's theory of labeling is that it ignores the role of individual agency. In other words, it doesn't take into account the fact that people have the ability to resist labels and shape their own identities. For example, in the case of Genie, some have argued that she could have overcome the labels placed on her if she had received more intensive therapy or been given more support.

End of unit 5.1 exercise questions

- 1a) Define the term Perspective (3)
- b. Compare any two micro and macro perspectives (4)
- c. Explain how much behavior is shaped by society using any perspective of your choice (8)
- d. Compare and contrast micro and macro perspectives (10)

2. Define functionalism (3)

- b. Identify any four functionalist theorist (4)
- c. Compare Marxism from functionalism (8)
- d. Assess the view that functionalism just mirrors the society with no attempt to change it (10)

3. Identify any three Marxist sociologist (3)

- b. Identify any four stages of social change Identified my Karl Marx (4)
- c. With reference to Zimbabwe, describe how superstructure is determined by infrastructure (10)
- d. Assess the Marxist idea of the possibility of a communism society (10)

4. Define gender inequality (3)

- b. Distinguish between sex and gender (4)
- c. Distinguish radical feminism from liberal feminism (8)
- d. Assess the view that 'there won't be gender equality rather males and females should just celebrate their differences ' (10)

5. Define the term interaction (3)

- b. Identify any four symbolic interactionist and their theories (4)
- c. Explain how society is created by individuals (8)
- d. Discuss the view that individuals are more important than society (10)

6. Define the term verstehen (3)

- b. Describe two types of verstehen (4)
- c. Distinguish weberian theory from Marxism (8)
- d. Assess the usefulness of verstehen in methodological study of human behaviour (10)

End of topic 1.1 summary

Sociology is the study of society and human behavior. The field of sociology developed in the 19th century, influenced by other disciplines such as philosophy, economics, and history. Sociology is considered a social science, as it uses scientific methods to study social phenomena. Social policy is the study of policies and programs that are designed to improve society. It includes areas such as healthcare, education, welfare, and crime prevention. Social policy can be studied from a variety of perspectives, including economic, political, and sociological. Social policy aims to address social problems and promote social justice. It is often implemented by governments, but can also be implemented by other organizations. Social policy can have a significant impact on individuals and society as a whole.

Sociology can be divided into macro-level and micro-level perspectives, which examine different aspects of society. Macro perspectives look at large-scale social structures and processes, such as social systems, societies, and institutions. Micro perspectives

look at small-scale interactions and processes, such as individual behavior, relationships, and groups. Macro perspectives focus on the big picture, while micro perspectives focus on the details. Macro perspectives look at society as a whole, while micro perspectives look at individuals within society. Macro perspectives are concerned with how social structures shape individuals, while micro perspectives are concerned with how individuals shape social structures.

End of topic 1.1 questions

1. Define the term sociology (3)
 - b. Identify any four factors that led to the development of sociology (4)
 - c. Explain the role played by Auguste Comte on the development of sociology (8)
 - d. Assess the view that without Weber and Comte, there is no sociology to talk about (10)
2. Define the term science (3)
 - b. Identify any four social sciences besides sociology (4)
 - c. Justify the importance of studying sociology (8)
 - d. Sociology makes the strange familiar and familiar the strange. Discuss (10)
3. Define social problems (3)
 - b. Explain any two social problems in Zimbabwe (4)
 - c. Explain social policies in Zimbabwe (8)
 - d. Discuss the relationship between sociology and social policy (10)
4. What are sciences (3)
 - b. Identify any four characteristics of a science subject (4)
 - c. Explain the relationship between sociology and other social sciences (8)
 - d. To what extent did enlightenment period contribute to the development of sociology (10)
5. Identify any three macro theories (3)
 - b. Compare any two macro theories (4)
 - c. Explain any four basic ideas of phenomenology (8)
 - D. Assess the phenomenologist view that there is no objective reality about human society (10).

Topic 2. Socialization

Units covered

- 2.1 The process of socialization
- 2.2 Nature and nurture debate
- 2.3 Theories of Socialization
- 2.4 The Impact of lack of socialization



Introduction

Socialization by definition, is the process through which people learn the norms, values, and beliefs of their culture to become functioning members of society. Socialization is a lifelong process as it starts when we are born and continues throughout our lives as we learn new things and experience new situations. It is not just about learning facts or skills, but it is also about learning how to interact with others and how to navigate social situations. When most people think of socialization, they think of learning to act in a certain way to fit in with others, but there is so much more to it than that, socialization is actually a complex process that shapes who we are as individuals. Thus, socialization takes place through various agents such as family, peer groups, school and mass media. Therefore, socialization is to be discussed on this chapter in detail.

Unit 2.1 The process of socialization

Objectives

By the end of this unit, learners should be able :

- The process of socialization
- Evaluate how the process of socialization promotes Unhu/ Ubuntu/ vumunhu

Unit Introduction

Socialization is not a one-time event, but rather an ongoing process that takes place throughout an individual's life. Socialization occurs through four main agents: family, peers, school, and media. These agents provide individuals with the knowledge and skills they need to function in society. The process of socialization has four major stages. This process takes place through five main stages ; primary socialization, which occurs during childhood and is mostly influenced by family, secondary socialization, which occurs during adolescence and is mostly influenced by peers, anticipatory socialization, which occurs when individuals prepare for future roles in society, resocialization, which occurs when an individual must change their social identity and finally there is also a desocialization, which occurs when individuals lose or abandon their previous social identity and are no longer able to fulfill the roles associated with that identity. Therefore much shall be explored in this unit.

Key terms :

Roles : expected patterns of behaviour associated with each status that we hold such as teacher or pastor.

Values : beliefs or ideas that are important to the people who hold them. A value always expresses a belief about how something should be.

Norms : socially acceptable ways of behaving when playing a particular role.

Types of socialization and socialization process

As we have noted from the above introductions, Podder and Bergvalls observed that culture is not something we are born with, it is taught to us. This means that we learn the rules for interaction with one another - a process that takes two main types thus primary and secondary socialization among others.

Types of socialization

We can look at two main types of socialization then later the other three. In the case we have:

1. Primary socialization

According to Charles Horton Cooley a symbolic interactionist, primary socialization occurs within primary groups involving 'intimate face to face association and cooperation. This type of socialization is critical to the development of behaviours we recognise as fundamentally human such as language. This is the first primary relationship we form with our parents or family members in particular. According to Talcot Parsons, primary socialization refers to the earliest stage of socialization, where an infant starts to acquire the ability to act socially and it takes place in the family. In the family, parents and siblings spend sometime interacting with infants hence infants take and imitate the appropriate behaviour in the family. Particularistic values are values that are specific to an individual family, such as family traditions or religious beliefs. For example, some families may value education and success more than others, or some families may have very traditional gender roles. These values are often passed on to children through primary socialization, and can have a lasting impact on their lives. For example, a child who is raised in a family that values education is more likely to pursue higher education themselves. A child who is raised in a family with traditional gender roles may be more likely to hold those same values later in life.

2. Secondary socialization

Secondary socialization is the process of learning new norms and values that occur outside of the family. This often happens in adolescence, as children begin to interact with peers and other social groups, such as school or religious institutions. Secondary socialization can lead to a conflict between the values of the family and the values of the peer group. For example, a child may be raised in a family that values modesty, but their peer group may value showing off material possessions. This conflict can lead to identity formation as the child decides which values to adopt. Secondary socialization

involves personal secondary groups and is characterized, according to Berger and Luckmann (1976), by 'a sense of detachment from the ones teaching socialization'. Secondary socializations are situations in which we do not necessarily have close, personal contacts with those doing socializing. Parsons (1959) argues that one of the main purposes of secondary socialization is to 'liberate the individual from a dependency on the primary attachments and relationships formed within the family'. In today's societies, where the majority of people we meet are strangers, it would be impossible and undesirable to treat them in the same way we treat people we love or know well. This is why we develop instrumental relationships - those based on what people can do for us or what we can do for them.

According to Parsons, secondary socialization involves universalistic values - those that are shared by all members of a society, such as honesty, respect, or equality. These values are often learned through secondary socialization, as children interact with a broader range of people outside of their family. Unlike particularistic values, which may vary from family to family, universalist values are shared by all members of a society. This can create a sense of shared identity, as individuals identify with the values that are held in common by their society.

Key terms

Particularistic values : yardstick values that are taught in the family, for example interacting with people we are familiar with.

Universalistic values: values that enable us to interact with people we are not familiar with.

Test yourself

Do you think universalistic values are more important than particularistic values?

Distinguish between primary and secondary socialization (8)

3. Resocialization

The word "re-" means "again" and "socialize" means to "relate to others in a social manner." So, resocialization is essentially the process of socializing again, or changing

one's social behaviors and values to match those of a new group. In some cases, an individual may have to go through the process of resocialization more than once in their life. It takes place in total institutions. A total institution is a type of organization that controls all aspects of an individual's life. This can include things like where they sleep, what they eat, and what they do for recreation. Total institutions are often associated with negative experiences, such as prisons or mental hospitals. However, not all total institutions are negative. For example, some boarding schools or monasteries could be considered total institutions, but they may provide a positive experience for the individual. This can happen when they join multiple social groups, or when they leave a group and then rejoin it later.

There are a number of case studies that demonstrate the process of resocialization in total institutions. One famous example is the Stanford Prison Experiment. In this experiment, a group of college students were randomly assigned to be either "prisoners" or "guards" in a simulated prison. Over time, the "guards" began to act in an increasingly aggressive and authoritarian manner, while the "prisoners" became increasingly passive and submissive. This experiment demonstrates how total institutions can radically change an individual's identity and behavior. So, to recap, the study involved 24 male participants who were randomly assigned to be either guards or prisoners in a simulated prison environment. The experiment was supposed to last for two weeks, but it was cut short after only six days due to concerns about the mental health of the participants. During the study, the guards began to abuse their power, and the prisoners began to accept their roles as submissive and powerless. The results of the Stanford Prison Experiment have been criticized for their lack of scientific rigor. However, there are other case studies that provide similar evidence of the effects of total institutions on individuals. One example is the experience of military recruits. Military training involves a process of resocialization, in which recruits are taught to adopt a new identity as a soldier. This often involves physical and mental training, and can be a very difficult experience for recruits. In some cases, it can even lead to post-traumatic stress disorder (PTSD).

Another case study of resocialization in a total institution is the experience of patients in psychiatric hospitals. In these hospitals, patients are often placed in a highly structured and controlled environment. They may be given medication, and may be subject to a number of rules and regulations. Over time, patients may begin to internalize these rules and regulations, and may even lose their sense of self. In some cases, this can lead to a process known as "institutionalization," in which the individual becomes so accustomed to the institution that they can no longer function outside of it. Total institutions : Prisons, Mental hospitals, Nursing homes, Boarding schools, Military training camps, Monasteries, Asylums, Orphanages, Immigrant detention centers, Cult compounds, As you can see, there are many different types of total institutions, each with their own unique set of rules and regulations. Some are more restrictive than others, and some may even be dangerous or unhealthy for the individuals who are placed in them.

4. De socialization

It also takes place in total institutions. It is a process of abandoning previously acquired norms and values. Desocialization can allow the individual to start fresh and create a new identity for themselves. Desocialization is the opposite of socialization. It is the process of losing or abandoning one's social identity in preparation of a new culture that is socially acceptable. While desocialization can be a difficult and traumatic experience, there are some potential advantages to the process. For example, desocialization can be a way to break free from harmful or unhealthy norms and beliefs. It can also allow people to re-evaluate their lives and make positive changes. In some cases, desocialization can even be a form of self-actualization, or the process of becoming the best version of oneself. In addition to the potential advantages I just described, there are some other potential benefits of desocialization. For example, it can allow people to form new social groups and connections. It can also help to create a sense of individual identity, rather than one that is defined by a specific social role. In some cases, desocialization can even lead to critical thinking and problem-solving. This is because when we are removed from our usual social context, we are forced to think outside of the box and come up with new solutions to problems. This can be especially beneficial in situations where traditional solutions are not working. This phenomenon is sometimes called "thinking outside of the box."

A fascinating fact about desocialization is that it doesn't only happen when a person is physically removed from their social context. It can also happen when their social context changes in other ways. For example, someone who experiences a major life event, like a divorce or the death of a loved one, may feel like they have been desocialized. This is because their social world has been altered in a way that makes them feel like they don't belong. In some cases, this feeling of not belonging can lead to a desire to change one's social identity. Have you ever felt like you were desocialized from a social group after you have lost your loved ones maybe due to drugs that resulted in an accident?

Futhermore, effects of desocialization on self-esteem can be both positive and negative. On the positive side, desocialization can lead to an increase in self-esteem if the individual is able to successfully adapt to a new social context. This is because the individual has to overcome adversity and learn to thrive in a new environment. On the negative side, desocialization can lead to a decrease in self-esteem if the individual is unable to adapt or if they feel isolated from their previous social context.

One of the most famous case studies on the effects of desocialization on self-esteem is that of Harry Harlow's "pit of despair" experiments. Harlow was a psychologist who studied the effects of isolation on rhesus monkeys. He found that monkeys who were isolated from other monkeys had significantly lower self-esteem and social skills than

those who were not isolated. This case study is controversial and has been criticized for its methods, but it provides some evidence of the negative effects of desocialization on self-esteem.

Another example of the effects of desocialization on self-esteem is the "strange situation" experiment by Mary Ainsworth. In this experiment, infants were separated from their mothers for a short period of time. When the mothers returned, the researchers observed how the infants responded. Ainsworth found that infants who were securely attached to their mothers were more likely to have higher self-esteem later in life. This suggests that early socialization experiences can have long-term effects on self-esteem.

Fascinating about desocialization is that it can actually lead to "reverse culture shock." Reverse culture shock is a term used to describe the disorientation and distress that can occur when a person returns to their home culture after being away for an extended period of time. This phenomenon is similar to culture shock, but it occurs in the opposite direction. This can happen when someone has been desocialized from their home culture and then re-enters it. A common example of reverse culture shock is when someone returns home from a long trip abroad. They may have adapted to the new culture and developed new social norms and behaviors. When they return home, they may feel like they don't fit in anymore. Everything they once took for granted, like the way people greet each other or how they use personal space, can feel strange and unfamiliar. This can lead to feelings of anxiety, homesickness, and even depression. Do you think reverse culture shock is similar to the culture shock that people experience when they first move to a new country?

Agents of socialization and socialization process

Agencies of socialization play an important role in this process, as it allows individuals to make their own choices about which norms and values to internalize. This means that individuals can choose to either conform to the dominant values of their society, or to resist and rebel against them.

Family

Although there are only number of small family roles, there tend to be played out over long periods and involve complex forms of role development, especially in societies that

allow divorce and remarriage. Adults may have to learn roles ranging from husband/wife to parent. Child development is also part of the family. This means we can make mistakes and learn lessons as we cruise. George Herbert Mead refers to parents as significant others. They shape both our basic values that promote unhu/Ubuntu such as how to address adults and our moral values - for example, our understanding of the difference between right and wrong. The basic norms we are talking about the ways we address family members (e.g Mum ,Dad), when, where and how to eat (table manners) and sleep. Definitions of acceptable behavior are normally taught within the family. The family teaches the child the basic values of their culture, such as respect, obedience, and self-control.

In addition to explicit teaching, primary socialization often involves imitation. Children learn how to behave by observing and copying the behavior of adults and other children around them. This is known as observational learning, and it's an important part of the socialization process. For example, the father asks his son 'why are you smoking ' the son might reply saying " i am smoking not because you taught me but because i saw you smoking' . This example of smoking is a perfect illustration of imitation. Children often model the behavior of their parents, even if it's not explicitly taught. This is why it's so important for parents to set a good example for their children.

One of the main functions of the family is to teach children about values through sanctions (or rewards and punishments). Parents may use praise and approval to reinforce positive behaviors, and may use reprimands or consequences to discourage negative behaviors. Positive sanctions involve things like :

- Facial expressions (smiling)
- Verbal reinforcement (good boy/girl)
- Physical rewards (gifts) For example, a child may be rewarded with a sticker for good behavior at school, or may be punished with a time-out for misbehaving.

These sanctions are an important part of the socialization process, as they help children learn what is expected of them in their society.

Key term

Significant other : Family members who are important to us and whose opinions we follow.

Negative sanctions : are similarly wide - ranging from showing disapproval through language (such as shouting) to physical punishment.

Pavlov's experiment

One common experiment to prove the use of sanctions is classical conditioning experiment by Pavlov's experiment. First, he placed a dog in a room with a bell and food. Whenever the food was presented, the dog would naturally salivate. Over time, Pavlov began to ring the bell before presenting the food. Eventually, the dog would start to

salivate at the sound of the bell alone, even if there was no food present. This is because the dog had learned to associate the bell with the food, and this association led to a response (salivation). So just like the dog learned to associate the bell with the food, people learn to associate certain behaviors with rewards or punishments. For example, if a child is rewarded for sharing, they will learn to share more often. This is similar to how the dog learned to salivate at the sound of the bell. However, this can also work in the opposite direction. If a child is punished for talking back, they may learn to avoid talking back in the future.

There is some evidence to suggest that sanctions can be effective in shaping behavior, at least in the short term. For example, one study found that children who were praised for good behavior were more likely to behave well in the future. However, it's important to note that sanctions can also have negative consequences. For example, children who are punished too harshly may become resentful or rebellious, and may not learn the intended lesson. In the long term, it's more important to focus on positive reinforcement

~~and modeling positive behaviors rather than relying solely on sanctions.~~

There are actually a lot of interesting facts about Pavlov's experiment! For one, Pavlov didn't actually set out to study classical conditioning. He was actually studying digestion, and the classical conditioning was just a side effect of his experiment. Additionally, he used many different animals besides dogs in his experiments, including cats, monkeys, and even people! Finally, his experiments had a huge impact on the field of psychology. They helped to establish the idea that behavior is influenced by conditioning, rather than just by biology or instinct. How does this answer nature and nurture debate ?

Peer group

One of the most influential observation on peer groups as agents of socialization is "The Company They Keep by Robert J. Sampson and John H. Laub. In this publication, Sampson and Laub argue that peer groups play a crucial role in shaping individuals' socialization. They argue that the company we keep (our peers) can have a bigger influence on our behavior and attitudes than even our families. They also discuss how peer groups can influence our choices, from what we wear to how we act. One of the most interesting findings from Sampson and Laub's research is the "friendship paradox." The friendship paradox is the idea that our friends tend to be more popular than we are. This means that if you look at your friends' friends, they are likely to be more popular than your own friends. This has important implications for understanding socialization, as it suggests that we are more likely to be influenced by the popular people in our peer groups.

Another important finding from Sampson and Laub's research is the "group multiplier effect." The group multiplier effect is the idea that the influence of a peer group is greater than the sum of its individual members. In other words, if you have a group of

five people, the influence of that group on an individual is not just five times the influence of one person. Instead, the influence is much greater than that, because the group has a "multiplier" effect on each member.

Building on the idea of the group multiplier effect, Sampson and Laub also found that groups can have a "reinforcing" effect on their members. This means that not only do groups have a multiplier effect, but they also reinforce the existing beliefs and behaviors of their members. In other words, if you have a group of five people who all like alcohol or drugs, the group may not only have a multiplier effect on each individual, but also make all five people like alcohol or drugs even more.

A final important finding from Sampson and Laub's research is that peer groups can "lock in" certain behaviors and beliefs. This means that if someone joins a group with certain beliefs or behaviors, it can be difficult to change those beliefs or behaviors even if the person wants to. This is because the group reinforces those beliefs and behaviors over time, and the individual may become locked into a certain way of thinking. : Sampson and Laub found that the "locking in" effect of peer groups is especially strong during adolescence. This is because adolescents are still developing their sense of identity, and they are more likely to conform to the norms of their peer group. As a result, the "locking in" effect can be even stronger during adolescence, and it can be especially hard to break out of this.

Everett Hughes was a sociologist who studied the role of peers in socialization, and he found that peers are our models who can have a significant influence on an individual's sense of identity and belonging. One of his most famous studies is "Where I Long to Be: College Women's Peer Groups and Friendships." In this study, Hughes found that the friendships of college women had a major impact on their sense of identity and belonging. He found that women who had close friends were more likely to feel a sense of belonging, while women who were more isolated were more likely to feel like outsiders. One of the key takeaways from Hughes's study is that the norms of peer groups can have a powerful influence on an individual's sense of identity. This is because peer groups can provide a sense of belonging and acceptance, which is a basic human need. When an individual is accepted by a peer group, it can help to shape their sense of who they are and what they stand for.

There are two main types of sanctions that peers can use: positive sanctions and negative sanctions. Positive sanctions are rewards or approval given to individuals who conform to the norms of the group. For example, a group of friends might praise someone for doing well on a test or for making a good joke. Negative sanctions, on the other hand, are punishments or disapproval given to individuals who do not conform to the norms of the group. For example, a group of friends might tease or exclude someone who is different from them.

In addition, peers also promote certain values and beliefs through a process called "value socialization." Value socialization is when individuals adopt the values and beliefs of the group they belong to. For example, a group of friends might value academic success or honesty, and they will promote these values to each other hence fostering unhu/ubuntu. This can lead to conformity, where individuals act in ways that are

consistent with the values of the group.

fun fact about peers is that they can have a significant influence on career choices! For example, research has shown that individuals are more likely to pursue careers that are similar to those of their peers. This is especially true for young people who are still exploring different career options. So if your friends are all going into a certain field, you might be more likely to do the same. This is known as "contextual influence." While parents still play a significant role in shaping an individual's career choices, peers can have an even bigger impact. In fact, some research has found that peers have a greater influence on career choices than parents, siblings, or teachers. So even though parents may try to influence their children's career decisions, it's the friends that may have the biggest impact.

Education

When it comes to socialization, education is like a three-course meal! First, there's the appetizer: early childhood education. Next comes the main course education. And last, but not least, there's the dessert: higher education. Each stage of education plays a different role in socializing individuals and shaping their identities.

The appetizer of early childhood education helps to instill basic social skills and norms, such as sharing, following instructions, and playing with others. The main course of education teaches individuals to navigate the broader social world, including formal institutions like schools and workplaces.

The dessert of higher education provides individuals with the opportunity to explore their interests and passions in depth.

An aspect of education that is important to consider is the hidden curriculum. The hidden curriculum refers to the informal lessons that students learn in school, such as social norms and values. These lessons are not explicitly taught in the classroom, but they are still a key part of the socialization process. For example, students may learn about class differences, gender roles, and racial hierarchies through their interactions with peers and teachers.

In addition, education plays a vital role in transmitting the culture of a society, including its language, history, and values. This is especially evident in the way that schools teach national history, which often presents a particular view of the country's past. Schools also reinforce a society's values through their rules and expectations, such as dress codes and behavioral norms.

In Zimbabwe, many schools have a day dedicated to celebrating the country's culture and heritage. This day, called "Culture Day," is a great example of how education can socialize individuals into their culture. On Culture Day, students participate in activities such as traditional dancing, singing, and storytelling. They also learn about the history and values of the country, including its struggle for independence.

Have you ever participated in a Culture Day celebration?

These values that are taught in schools can have a big impact on the moral character of

a society. Schools often promote values such as honesty, respect, and responsibility. These values are taught through things like classroom rules, school policies, and extracurricular activities. In addition, teachers often serve as role models for students, demonstrating these values through their own actions.

There are a variety of sanctions that schools can use to discipline students. These include things like detention, suspension, and expulsion. But there are also less formal sanctions that can be used, such as loss of privileges or extra homework. The goal of sanctions is to change the behavior of students, and to create a safe and respectful learning environment.

Religion

There are many facts about religion as an agent of socialization. For one, it has been shown that religious socialization can have a profound impact on a person's worldview, values, and behavior. Religious socialization can also provide a sense of belonging, meaning, and purpose, and it can help to shape a person's identity. Additionally, research has shown that religious socialization can have a positive impact on mental and physical health. Religious socialization is not just about learning religious beliefs and practices - it can also involve learning values, norms, and behaviors that are related to the religion.

It is fascinating how religious socialization can impact the way people dress. For example, in some religions, modesty is a key value, and this may be reflected in the way people dress. In Islam, for example, many women wear a headscarf or hijab, and men may wear long, loose-fitting clothing. Similarly, in Orthodox Judaism, women may wear modest clothing that covers their hair and body. These clothing choices are not just about physical modesty, but also about religious and cultural identity.

The Apostolic Church of Zimbabwe has a number of dietary restrictions for its members, including abstaining from pork, shellfish, and alcohol. In addition, the church also prohibits its members from wearing black or white clothes. It is believed that the color white represents evil, while black represents death. The Apostolic Church of Zimbabwe also has rules around dress for men and women, including a prohibition on short skirts and sleeveless tops for women.

This means that despite dressing, Religion can play a significant role in determining food choices. Many religions have rules and guidelines around food, such as what is considered halal or kosher, or what foods are acceptable to eat during certain holidays or rituals. For example, in Islam, pork and alcohol are forbidden, and in Judaism, eating pork or shellfish is not permitted. Some religions also have specific dietary restrictions during religious holidays or fasts.

How have you seen religion influence food choices in your own life or in the lives of others?

The Apostolic Church's songs and hymns are a powerful tool for socializing its members into the church's values and beliefs. The songs often emphasize obedience, respect for elders, humility, and piety. They also stress the importance of avoiding sin and evil. Many of the songs are sung in Shona, the language of the majority of church members. The songs are meant to create a sense of community and to reinforce the church's teachings. Let's take one of the Apostolic Church's most popular songs, "Mweya WaJesu" (The Spirit of Jesus). The song emphasizes the importance of being filled with the Holy Spirit, and it encourages the congregation to "receive the Holy Spirit" and "let it dwell in our hearts." The song also reminds the congregation of the importance of humility, saying "bow down low" and "let the humble in heart be filled." The song also emphasizes the importance of worship, saying "praise him" and "give him honor."

The song "Ndinonyara Jesu" (I Have Come to Jesus) is a great example of a song that teaches basic values to the church's members. The song emphasizes the importance of repentance, saying "I have come to Jesus for the forgiveness of my sins." It also teaches the value of faith, saying "I have come to Jesus in faith." And finally, it teaches the importance of obedience, saying "I have come to Jesus to follow his commandments."

Many religions use sanctions, or punishments, to reinforce proper behavior. For example, in Islam, there is the concept of "hudud," or the punishments prescribed in the Quran for specific crimes. These include punishments such as flogging, stoning, and cutting off the hand of a thief. In Christianity, there is the concept of "anathema," or the spiritual punishment of excommunication from the church. These sanctions are meant to reinforce the teachings of the religion and to deter people from committing sinful acts.

Mass media

Mass media, such as television, radio, movies, and the internet, play a major role in socialization. They can shape our ideas about the world and influence our values and behavior. For example, television shows often portray characters who exhibit certain values and behaviors. By watching these shows, we are exposed to those values and may start to internalize them. Similarly, social media platforms like Facebook and Twitter allow us to interact with others and learn about different cultures and belief systems.

One way that mass media influences our socialization is through something called the cultivation effect. This is the idea that the more we are exposed to something in the media, the more likely we are to believe that it is an accurate representation of the real world. For example, if we watch a lot of crime shows, we may start to believe that crime is more common than it actually is. This can influence our ideas about crime and our behavior in relation to it.

Crime watch shows can definitely influence the way we think about crime and security. They may make us more fearful or more vigilant about crime, even if our own risk of being a victim is low. And Amai Chisamba, which focuses on family life and relationships, can influence our ideas about family, parenting, and gender roles.

Crime watch shows can have some positive effects. They can raise awareness about crime and crime prevention, and they can make people feel more connected to their communities. However, some research has shown that they can also have negative effects. They may cause people to feel more anxious or fearful, and they may promote stereotypes about criminals and victims. As for Amai Chisamba, some people have praised it for its depiction of family life and relationships, while others have criticized it for promoting traditional gender roles.

End of unit 2.1 exercise questions

- 1a. Define socialization (3)
- b. Describe peer groups as an agent of socialization (4)
- c. Explain how socialization promotes unhu/Ubuntu (8)
- d. Discuss the role of family in unhu/Ubuntu building (10)

Unit 2.2 nature and nurture debate

Objectives

By the end of this unit ,learners should be able to;

- explain the nature and nurture debate
- analyze the influence of nature and nurture on human behavior

Introduction

The nature vs. nurture debate is a classic debate in psychology and sociology. It refers to the question of whether our behavior is primarily influenced by our biology (nature) or by our environment (nurture). The debate is especially relevant to socialization, since socialization is the process by which people learn how to behave and think according to the norms of their society. The nature side of the debate suggests that our genes and biology play a large role in how we behave while the nurture side argues that our environment and upbringing are more important. One interesting finding from the nature vs. nurture debate is that both nature and nurture play a role in socialization. For example, research has found that identical twins, who share the same genes, have more similar personalities than fraternal twins, who only share about half of their genes. This suggests that genes play a role in our personality and how we behave. However, studies have also found that environmental factors, such as parenting style and socioeconomic status, also have a significant impact on socialization.

Nature

To explore the nature side of the debate, let's start with the theory of evolutionary psychology. This theory suggests that our social behavior is influenced by our genes because it was shaped by evolution over time. For example, some researchers believe that our tendency to cooperate with others was influenced by natural selection, because it was beneficial for our ancestors to work together to survive. Another theory is behavioral genetics, which studies how genes influence our behavior.

Yes, the case of identical twins is another interesting example, Identical twins share the same genes, so they provide an opportunity to study the influence of biology on human development. For example, in the case of Jim Lewis and Jim Springer, identical twins who were separated at birth and reunited as adults. They were found to have many similar characteristics, such as similar hobbies, tastes in food, and even similar

mannerisms. This suggests that biology may have a significant influence on development, for individuals who are genetically identical.

key terms

Nature : refers to the innate, biological factors that influence our development.

Nurture : refers to the external, environmental factors.

The environment : refers to the physical, social, and cultural factors that influence our development.

Socialization : refers to the process by which we learn the values, norms, and behaviors of our society, and is often considered to be a part of the process of nurturing. It can include things like formal education, peer relationships, and family dynamics.

In addition to theories, there are also several well-known scholars who support the nature side of the debate. One example is the evolutionary biologist Richard Dawkins, who is known for his book "The Selfish Gene." Dawkins argues that our behavior is largely shaped by our genes, and that we are essentially "survival machines" for our genes. Another example is the psychologist Steven Pinker, who argues that our social behavior is shaped by our instincts, or innate tendencies. One way that evolutionary psychology has influenced our understanding of socialization is through the concept of "kin selection." This is the idea that we are more likely to help and cooperate with people who are closely related to us, because they share our genes. This has been demonstrated in studies of animals, where animals have been found to be more likely to help relatives than non-relatives.

There are some interesting gender differences in terms of how nature affects our social behavior. For example, studies have found that males are more likely to engage in rough-and-tumble play, which is associated with greater physical aggression. On the other hand, females are more likely to engage in social play, which is associated with greater empathy and cooperation. Some researchers have suggested that these gender differences are due to both innate and environmental factors.

Lombroso's theory is often seen as an example of "biological determinism," the idea that our biology is the primary factor in determining our behavior. Lombroso argued that criminals were inherently different from non-criminals in terms of their biology, and that their criminal behavior was not caused by environmental or social factors. This is an extreme form of the nature argument, and it has been criticized for being simplistic and

reductive. Lombroso's theory based on Italian prison, was that criminals had "atavistic" or "primitive" traits, which made them inherently different from non-criminals. Lombroso's theory was based on his observation of "atavistic stigmata," or physical traits he claimed were associated with criminals, such as large jaws, low foreheads, and prominent cheekbones.

It is biologically believed that males and females behave differently due to differences in brain capacity. The theory of brain lateralization is another interesting idea that suggests that different parts of the brain are responsible for different cognitive functions, and that the two hemispheres of the brain are specialized for different tasks. This theory has been used to explain why some people are more left-brained or right-brained, and why people can have different cognitive strengths and weaknesses. This idea suggests that the left hemisphere of the brain is responsible for logical, analytical thinking, while the right hemisphere is responsible for more creative, intuitive thinking. Some studies have suggested that people who are more "left-brained" tend to be more analytical and organized, while people who are more "right-brained" tend to be more creative and intuitive. According to Gray and Buffery (1971), the left hemisphere of the brain is more dominant in girls that is why most women have great verbal ability while the right side is dominant in boys which is why most men are engineers.

Nurture

The nurture side of the nature-nurture debate refers to the idea that our development and behavior are largely influenced by environmental and social factors. These factors can include things like parenting, education, and culture. The nurture side of the debate argues that these environmental and social factors can have a profound effect on our development and behavior. Another key idea on the nurture side of the debate is the concept of the social self. This refers to the idea that we develop our identity and sense of self through our interactions with others. In other words, we are not just born with a certain personality, but we become who we are through the process of socialization.

The 'me and the 'I' concept

Basic human skills have to be taught and learnt. The symbolic interactionist George Herbert Mead (1934) argued that same was true of more advanced social skills. He claimed that the way people behave is conditioned by the social context in which behaviour occurs. While self awareness - the ability to see ourselves as others see us and react accordingly - is often learnt. Developing the self is what sets humans apart from animals. To Mead, the 'self' the "I" and the "me." The "I" is the active, spontaneous part of the self that responds to the environment and takes action. One example of the "I" self would be the experience of being angry at someone or something. This is the spontaneous, emotional response to anger.

The "me" is the self that is shaped by the generalized other, or society's expectations and norms. These two types of self interact with each other to form our sense of self.

An example of the "me" self would be reflecting on that anger and considering whether it is appropriate to express that anger in the given situation. This would involve thinking about the norms and expectations of the generalized other, or society's ideas about expressing anger.

Tabula rasa theory

John Locke's tabula rasa theory was in contrast to the rationalist views of René Descartes, who believed that we are born with innate ideas. Locke's ideas were also in contrast to the theory of Jean-Jacques Rousseau, who believed that children are naturally good, and that it is society that corrupts them. Locke's tabula rasa theory was important for understanding the role of education in shaping the mind and the self. Locke believed that education was crucial for developing the mind and making it capable of reason and judgment. He believed that education should be based on experience and observation, rather than on memorizing facts.

Here's a fun fact about nature and nurture: the idea of nature versus nurture has been around for a long time. In the 6th century BC, the Greek philosopher Pythagoras proposed that "all things are numbers." This idea was later developed by Aristotle, who argued that the mind is a blank slate at birth and that all knowledge comes from experience. This view was later adopted by the philosopher John Locke, who argued that we are born tabula rasa. The debate has continued ever since, with different theories emphasizing the importance of nature or nurture.

Key term

A feral child : sometimes called a "wild child," is a child who has had little or no contact with human society. In most cases, feral children have been raised by animals, like wolves or monkeys, or have been abandoned by their parents and left to fend for themselves in the wild

The case of "feral children" is a fascinating one for those interested in the nature-nurture debate. Feral children are those who have grown up without human contact, such as children who have been raised by animals or have been abandoned at a very young age. These children can provide insight into the role of socialization and experience in human development.

However, it is important to keep in mind that most cases of feral children are tragic and should not be romanticized.

One well-known case of a feral child is that of Victor of Aveyron, who was found living in the woods near Saint-Sernin-sur-Rance, France, in 1800. He was about 12 years old at the time, and could not speak or understand language. He was taken in by a physician,

Jean Marc Gaspard Itard, who tried to teach him language and other basic skills. However, Victor only made limited progress and remained largely isolated from society. This case suggests that socialization and experience are crucial for developing the ability to communicate and interact with others.

Another famous case of a feral child is that of Kamala and Amala, two girls who were found in India in 1920. They were said to have been raised by wolves and to have behaved in a very animalistic way, such as walking on all fours and howling. They were taken in by a missionary named Joseph Singh, who tried to teach them language and other skills. However, they never learned to speak, and Amala died at the age of 8. This case suggests that early childhood experiences, such as socialization and language development, are crucial for later development.

Another interesting case is that of Genie, a girl who was found in California in 1970. Genie had been locked in a room and isolated from human contact for much of her life. She was discovered at the age of 13 and was unable to speak or communicate in any way. She was studied by psychologists who tried to teach her language, but she made very limited progress. This case has been used to argue that the critical period for language acquisition is in early childhood. However, it is also a controversial case, as some have questioned the methods used in studying Genie.

Another set of cases that have been studied are so-called "wolf children" in France and Germany. These cases are similar to the case of Kamala and Amala, but they occurred in the 19th century. For example, in 1831, a boy named Peter was found living in the woods in Germany. He was said to walk on all fours and eat raw meat. Peter was eventually adopted by a family and learned to speak and behave like other children. However, he never lost his "wolf-like" tendencies. These cases suggest that socialization may be more important than genetics in shaping human behavior.

Another example is the case of Isabelle, a girl who was found in France in 1800. She had reportedly been raised by wolves, and was found wandering in the woods, scavenging for food and unable to speak. Isabelle was adopted by a noble family, who tried to teach her language and other skills. However, she never fully adapted to human society and remained isolated and withdrawn. This case has been used to argue that socialization during the first few years of life is crucial for normal human development.

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The effects of lack of socialization

The above cases have demonstrated the power of socialization in shaping human behavior. Individuals who lack socialization can have a number of characteristics that differ from those who have experienced socialization. These characteristics can include a lack of language, a lack of basic social skills, and difficulty with understanding social cues and interactions. They may also have trouble understanding social norms and expectations, and they may exhibit behaviors that are inappropriate or unacceptable in society. In some cases, individuals who lack socialization may also have mental health issues, such as anxiety, depression, or other disorders.

Some specific characteristics of individuals who lack socialization can include difficulty with eye contact, difficulty reading facial expressions and body language, difficulty understanding sarcasm and humor, and a lack of personal boundaries. These individuals may also have difficulty understanding other people's perspectives and needs, and may be self-centered or lack empathy. They may also have trouble controlling their emotions, and may be impulsive or aggressive. In some cases, they may have trouble forming relationships with others and may be socially isolated.

One important thing to note about individuals who lack socialization is that it is not a binary condition. This means that it is not a simple matter of someone being "socialized" or "un-socialized." Rather, there is a spectrum of socialization, and individuals can fall anywhere on that spectrum. Some individuals may have had some exposure to socialization, but not enough to fully develop the skills they need to function in society. Others may have had some socialization, but may still have difficulty understanding and navigating social situations, in this opinion, we have the case of inadequate socialization - where individuals are not fully socialised into basic norms and values of society.

End of unit 2.2 exercise questions

- Define the term inadequate socialization (3)
- b. Describe any two case studies that show the impact of lack of socialization (4)
- C. Explain any three characteristics of individuals who Lack socialization (8)

Unit 3.2 Theories of Socialization

Objective

By the end of this unit, learners should be able to:

- Explain theories of socialization
- Analyze theories of socialization

Introduction

To explain the theories of socialization, one would need to discuss the theories of Sigmund Freud, Émile Durkheim, George Herbert Mead, and Lev Vygotsky. Freud's psychoanalytic theory of socialization proposes that personality is shaped by unconscious drives and conflicts, while Durkheim's theory focuses on the role of social structures and institutions in shaping behavior. Mead's theory emphasizes the importance of symbolic interaction and the development of the self through social roles, while Vygotsky's theory highlights the role of culture and language in shaping behavior. To analyze these theories, one would need to examine their strengths.

Functionalism

This theory sees socialization as playing a positive contribution to the society as a whole since it maintains order. Murdock (1949) argues that the role of family is to teach new members of society norms and values and without culture, society does not exist. Parsons (1937) saw Socialization as a vital process to which values consensus is produced in society. This process enables individuals to take an aspect of their culture, which makes their behaviour largely predictable, hence contributing to the maintenance of social order.

Socialization is an important process which introduces new members of society to their culture and this maintains order. how is social order maintained? If people know and share a common language, values and common guidelines, in general, they will be able to distinguish the right from the wrong and order is archived. According to the functionalist perspective, socialization is an essential part of society that serves to maintain order and stability. This perspective emphasizes the role of social institutions, like the family and school, in teaching individuals the norms and values of society. Functionalists believe that socialization helps people learn how to fulfill their roles in society and

contributes to social cohesion. For example, schools teach students the skills they need to become productive members of society, while families teach children how to behave and interact with others.

Parsons argues that Socialization provides people with common goals and teaches appropriate behaviour associated with particular roles for example, teacher, pastor etcetera.

Functionalists also believe that socialization plays a role in social control. In other words, socialization teaches individuals to follow the rules of society and reinforces the norms and values of the group. This is done through things like rewards and punishments, as well as the internalization of norms and values. For example, children who misbehave at school may be punished with detention or a loss of privileges, while those who excel may be rewarded with praise or recognition. This social control helps to ensure that individuals conform to the norms of society.

Evaluation

The functionalist perspective has been criticized for downplaying the role of conflict and power in society. Critics argue that social institutions, like the family and school, are not always neutral and can be used to reinforce inequality and maintain the status quo. Additionally, the emphasis on conformity and social control can be seen as oppressive and limiting to individual freedom. Functionalists have been criticized for focusing too much on the positive functions of socialization, while ignoring the negative aspects, like socialization leading to conformity and a lack of critical thinking.

An example of a case study that criticizes the functionalist perspective is the "Milgram experiment." This experiment was conducted by Stanley Milgram in the 1960s and involved participants being asked to administer electric shocks to a "learner" in another room. The participants were told that they were participating in a study on learning and were told to increase the shock level each time the learner answered incorrectly. Despite the protests of the learners, many participants were willing to increase the shock level to dangerous levels.

This study demonstrates the power of authority and the dangers of blind obedience. Milgram's conclusions from the experiment were that people are more likely to obey authority figures, even if they are uncomfortable with the orders being given. He also concluded that people are more likely to obey if the authority figure is perceived as legitimate and the setting is perceived as being legitimate. These findings challenge the functionalist view of society as a consensus of shared values and norms. Instead, they suggest that individuals can be influenced by social forces in ways that can lead to harmful or unethical behavior.

Marxism

While functionalist sociologists see socialization as a positive force that helps to maintain social order and stability, Marxist sociologists see it as a negative force that

reinforces inequality and the power of the ruling class. For example, the functionalist view of education is that it prepares individuals for their roles in society and provides opportunities for social mobility. However, the Marxist view is that education socializes individuals into accepting the status quo and the ruling class's ideas and values. In this way, socialization can be seen as a tool for maintaining inequality. The Marxist perspective of socialization focuses on the role of class and power in shaping individuals' experiences and opportunities. For example, Marx argued that the working class is socialized into a system that benefits the ruling class and perpetuates inequality.

Similarly, Antonio Gramsci argued that the ruling class uses cultural institutions like schools and the media to socialize the working class into accepting the status quo. These ideas are known as cultural hegemony, or the dominance of the ruling class's ideas and values over the working class.

Another key idea in Marxist theory is the concept of false consciousness. This refers to the way in which individuals may internalize the ruling class's ideas and values without realizing that these ideas and values are not in their own best interests. For example, a factory worker may internalize the idea that the capitalist system is fair and just, even though it may not benefit them. This idea is important for understanding how socialization can perpetuate inequality and maintain the status quo. The concept of false consciousness also highlights the importance of education and critical thinking in challenging the dominant culture.

One Marxist scholar who has studied false class consciousness is Louis Althusser. In his book "Ideology and Ideological State Apparatuses," Althusser argues that individuals are "interpellated" into their position in society through various institutions, such as the family, the education system, and the media. This process of interpellation creates a "subject" who believes that the dominant culture's ideas and values are their own. Althusser also argues that false class consciousness can be challenged through a process of "interpellation" that is based on critical consciousness.

Another Marxist scholar who has written about false class consciousness is Pierre Bourdieu. In his book "Distinction," Bourdieu argues that the ruling class maintains its power through "cultural capital," which refers to the cultural knowledge and habits that are associated with the dominant class. For example, a person's taste in art, music, and food can be seen as markers of their class position. This cultural capital can be passed down from generation to generation, creating a cycle of social reproduction. Bourdieu also argues that there is a connection between cultural capital and economic capital, and that this connection reinforces inequality.

In summary, false class consciousness is a concept that has been explored by a number of Marxist scholars. The main idea is that the dominant culture's ideas and values can become internalized by the oppressed, creating a situation where they accept their own oppression. This concept highlights the importance of education and cultural change in creating social change. Some scholars have argued that false class

consciousness can be challenged through counter-hegemony and the creation of alternative ways of thinking and organizing. These ideas continue to be debated and discussed by scholars today.

Key terms

The status quo : refers to the existing state of affairs or the way things currently are. In the context of Marxist theory, it refers to the existing economic and political system, which is dominated by the ruling class and their interests. For example, in a capitalist society, the status quo is an economic system in which private property and profit-seeking are central.

False class consciousness : is a related concept that refers to a situation in which individuals are unaware of their own exploitation and oppression. It can be seen as a result of the dominant culture's ideas and values being internalized by the oppressed. For example, a worker may not realize that they

Critics

Marxist sociologists have also studied the ways in which individuals can resist socialization and challenge the status quo. For example, Paulo Freire argued that the oppressed can challenge the dominant culture through "critical consciousness," or the ability to recognize and analyze their oppression and take action to change it. Similarly, Erving Goffman's theory of impression management suggests that individuals can use their interactions with others to manage how they are perceived and to resist dominant stereotypes. These theories show how socialization can be a dynamic process that can be challenged and resisted.

Gender feminism and Socialization

It sees Socialization negatively since it encourages gender inequality and exploitation in the society. Ann Oakley (1974) argues that Socialization socializes individuals into gender roles between the male and females and this is derived from culture not biology. Gender roles are derived from the culture of the society. She believes that the distinction between men and women is due to the cultural gender roles that are learnt through Socialization. Oakley outlined how Socialization shapes the behaviour of children.

- Manipulation : the child self concept is affected by manipulation for example

mothers tend to pay attention to the girls hair and dress them in feminine clothes.

- Canalisation : This involves the direction of boys and girls towards different objects for example, the provision of toys that encourage boys and girls to rehearse their expected adult roles as mothers and housewives. Girls are given dolls, soft toys while boys are given toys like bricks and guns, which encourage more practical, logical and aggressive behaviour.

Lesley Best (1992) claims that sex role Socialization continues in schools through stereo typical portrayal of boys and girls in reading skills .Other feminists have pointed out to the influence of media and religion in perpetuating gender inequality.

Evaluation

Some sociologists point out that Socialization does not always support patriarchal values. Barbara Riesman (2006) points out that some are now socialized in family households where they are encouraged to be hostile to patriarchy and sexist culture. From her study of seventy-five families, she found out that children are now socialized that men and women should be equal.

Symbolic Interactionism

Gerald Handel (2006) observes that at birth a newborn , a baby is not able to take part in society by cooperating with others because

- 1)Physically immature-As the child gets older ,he goes through a biological maturation as he moves towards adulthood and develops new capacities
- 2)Is not socialized -Socialization enables a child to cooperate and interact with others and socialization enables a child to learn symbols such as language ,which will make interaction possible. According to Handel , the process of socialization enabled a child to develop three key capacities -

i) Empathy-It requires a person to put himself/herself imaginatively in the position of another person and understand how they might feel for example those who look after babies need empathy to interpret babies crying

ii)Developing the ability to communicate-To take part in society ,a child must develop the ability to communicate and the child must learn to use symbols,which have different meanings .It facilitates the acquisition of language and grammar

iii)Sense of self-Refers to one's character and personality,which is not inborn but developed through everyday interaction .Charles Horton Cooley best explains the sense of self through the Looking Glass self theory

The looking-glass self theory

The looking-glass self theory is a sociological concept developed by Charles Cooley. The basic idea is that our sense of self is shaped by how we think others perceive us. In other words, we "see" ourselves through the "mirror" of other people's reactions and perceptions of us. This theory highlights the importance of social interactions and relationships in shaping our identities. A fascinating fact about this theory is that it has been used to explain phenomena such as self-esteem, body image, and even depression. The basic idea of the looking-glass self theory is that there are three steps involved in the process of developing our sense of self:

- We imagine how others see us.
- We imagine how others judge us based on that perception.
- We develop our own self-concept based on that judgment.
- This theory suggests that our sense of self is not fixed, but is instead constantly changing and being shaped by our interactions with others.

To expand on that a little more, let's look at an example. Imagine you are attending a job interview. As you walk into the room, you imagine how the interviewer is seeing you. You may imagine that they are judging your appearance, your body language, and your overall demeanor. Based on this imagined judgment, you might then develop feelings of nervousness, excitement, or confidence. These feelings then feed back into how you see yourself and influence your behavior in the interview. This is a simplified example, but it illustrates how the looking-glass self theory works.

However, there are a few criticisms of the looking-glass self theory. One criticism is that it doesn't account for individual differences in how people process and interpret social information. For example, some people may be more sensitive to how others perceive them, while others may be less sensitive. Another criticism is that the theory doesn't account for the role of culture and social norms in shaping our sense of self. For example, in some cultures, conformity to social norms may be more highly valued than individuality. These are just a few examples of the criticisms that have been made of the looking-glass self theory.

The self concept theory

The development of the self concept can be understood as a process of socialization, in which children gradually develop an understanding of themselves in relation to others and their social world. A sense of self is the understanding that you are a distinct individual with your own thoughts, feelings, and identity. It's the ability to recognize that you are a separate entity from others, and that you have a unique perspective and

identity. The development of a sense of self is an important part of socialization, as it helps children understand how they fit into the world and how to interact with others. Without a sense of self, it would be difficult to develop meaningful relationships or understand your place in the world. A strong sense of self can lead to feelings of confidence, independence, and self-worth. According to Mead's theory, the development of the self concept happens in three stages:

Key term

sense of self : is the understanding that you are a distinct individual with your own thoughts, feelings, and identity

1. The preparatory stage : typically occurs between the ages of one and three. During this stage, children imitate the actions of others and respond to simple gestures, such as pointing or smiling. For example, a child might imitate the act of waving when they see someone else wave. They might also imitate the act of feeding themselves by putting a spoon to their mouth when they see their parent feeding themselves. Children at this stage are still focused on themselves and have not yet developed the ability to understand the perspectives of others.
2. The play stage : typically occurs between the ages of three and six. During this stage, children begin to engage in make-believe play and take on different roles. They might pretend to be a parent, a doctor, or a teacher, for example. During this stage, children start to understand the perspectives of others and begin to recognize that others have different points of view. For example, a child might pretend to be a parent and take care of a doll, understanding that the doll has needs and wants just like they do. At this stage, children are still learning about themselves and their place in the world, but they are starting to understand that others also have their own identities and perspectives.
3. The game stage : typically occurs between the ages of six and twelve. During this stage, children engage in more complex games and learn to follow the rules of society. They also begin to understand that others have expectations of them and that they need to conform to those expectations. For example, a child might learn the rules of a board game and learn that they need to follow those rules in order to play the game successfully. They also begin to understand that there are social rules that need to be followed in order to be accepted by others, such as being polite or following the rules of a classroom. This stage is characterized by a greater focus on social norms and expectations.

Dramaturgical Theory

Erving Goffman

Erving Goffman another symbolic interactionism introduced dramaturgical perspective in sociology in 1959. Erving Goffman studied the interactions that take place in society

at the micro level . He said that social behavior is like a theatre or drama. He took this perspective from the theatre and uses theatre as a metaphor to represent how people in society behave and represent themselves. In this metaphor,the people are the actors and the society is a stage .

The individuals interact with one another as they dialogue,they are being directed by the norms and values that they follow as the members of society.As they have to stick to the direction,the actors constantly engage in what is called "impression management ".This is when people try to control the impression that others have on them and they have certain goals in mind according to which they will behave .The behavior presented in such a case is the one that will be acceptable by the one whom you want to give an impression for example,when we go for an interview, we will put on formal clothes and we are likely to be at our best behavior We present ourselves in society in two ways ;

The Front Stage self

It is the self we are likely to show to the world. This is the self we present when we go out of our family setting,when we interact with people, we are not yet comfortable with ;these are people we do not know. This is where our impression management comes to play. We usually tend to put out behaviors that will be easily accepted by the people of the society for example,when we meet our friend's parents for the first time , it is likely that we would wish for them to think of us as good company for their children so we put on our best behavior.

Similarly,when we start working ,we may want to create a good first impression among our colleagues and superiors . Thus ,we may act accordingly by eagerly doing any work that is given to us and procrastinate .

The backstage self

Refers to that aspect of self that we really are .This is the self ,which we are in the environment in which we are comfortable .Here we are accepted , people know us for who we are and there is no need for any kind of impression building for example,when we are with our friends we behave in a more relaxed manner . We may be comfortable using language that may be otherwise considered abusive, We are offstage ,unobserved and thus more relaxed

The stage thus becomes a metaphor when we act in ways that fulfill our needs to be accepted in this society

Look at a movie or drama , we have what we call the backstage or behind the scenes and what we call front stage/on stage .The behavior of factors behind the scene is not shown . Similarly, to a human behavior, your true behavior is the one which is behind the scene, imagine yourself when you are in your room or with friends that is your true behavior, the other one you try to portray yourself on the stage / in the presence of everyone is not your true behavior thus Goffman said humans are actors.

Evaluation

The dramaturgical theory, also known as "the presentation of self in everyday life," has been criticized for a number of reasons. One criticism is that it doesn't take into account the unconscious aspects of social interaction, such as emotions or gut reactions. Another criticism is that it reduces social interactions to a kind of performance, and doesn't account for the genuine feelings and connections that can develop in social situations.

Additionally, some critics argue that the theory is too individualistic and doesn't account for the influence of social structures, like class or gender, on how people present themselves in everyday life.

According to Edgley and Manning, dramaturgy has been criticized in the sense that it is pedestrian, nonsystematic form of inquiry that does not possess the properties of formal theory. Several scholars have criticized the dramaturgical perspective for portraying people as con-artists, liars and other disingenuous characters.

End of unit 4.2 exercise questions

1. identify three key capacities that a child develops during socialization (3)
- b. Describe two ways we present ourselves by Goffman (4)
- c. Explain three stages of the development of self concept by Mead (8)
- d. Assess symbolic interactionism on socialization (10)
2. Assess functionalist perspective on socialization (10)
3. Analyze the view that Marxism has under-estimated the way working class resist socialization of the dominant culture (10)
4. Examine how socialization promotes gender inequality (10)
5. Assess the dramaturgical theory of socialization (10)

Summary

In summary, socialization is the process through which individuals learn the values, norms, and behaviors of their culture and society. Socialization can happen through a variety of agents, including family, friends, school, media, and religion. The nature vs. nurture debate is also relevant to socialization, as it explores the extent to which our behaviors are shaped by biology or environment. There are several theories of socialization, including social learning theory, symbolic interactionism, and conflict theory. These theories all offer different perspectives on the socialization process. The way people are socialized can vary based on their social class, race, gender, or other factors. For example, children from lower-income families may have fewer opportunities to socialize with others and develop certain skills. Another point is the importance of technology in socialization. With the rise of social media and other forms of technology, socialization is increasingly taking place online. This raises new questions about the nature and quality of social interactions in the digital age. The term "wolf children" refers to children who have been raised in the wild by animals, such as wolves or monkeys. There are very few documented cases of wolf children, but they are often used as

examples in discussions about the nature vs. nurture debate. Proponents of the "nature" side of the debate may argue that wolf children demonstrate that humans have certain innate behaviors and traits. On the other hand, proponents of the "nurture" side may argue that these children were simply deprived of the necessary socialization experiences that would have allowed them to develop typical human behaviors and traits.

End of topic 2 exercise questions

- a. Define socialization (3)
- b. Identify any four types of socialization (4)
- c. Explain any four effects of resocialization (8)
- d. Discuss total institutions as agents of socialization (10)
- 2.a Identify any three secondary agents of socialization (3)
- b. Explain two types of social sanctions during the process of socialization (4)
- c. Explain the looking-glass self theory of socialization (8)
- d. Discuss the sociological perspectives on socialization (10)
3. Discuss nature and nurture debate (10)
4. How human behaviour is shaped by environmental factors? (8)
5. Assess the view that humans are genetically programmed

End of term one

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